



CALCULUS - I (MMT222J)

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Chapter 1

LIMITS, CONTINUITY, AND DIFFERENTIABILITY

1.1 Limits of Functions and Infinitesimals

The concept of a limit is fundamental to mathematical analysis and calculus. It describes the behavior of a function near a point rather than at that point itself.

Definition 1.1.1 (ϵ - δ Definition of a Limit). Let $f : A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function defined on a subset $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$, and let a be a limit point of A . We say that the limit of $f(x)$ as x approaches a is L , written as

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = L,$$

if for every $\epsilon > 0$, there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that

$$0 < |x - a| < \delta \implies |f(x) - L| < \epsilon.$$

Definition 1.1.2 (One-Sided Limits). (i) **Left-Hand Limit (LHL)**: Written as $\lim_{x \rightarrow a^-} f(x) = L_1$, defined by:

$$\forall \epsilon > 0, \exists \delta > 0 \text{ such that } a - \delta < x < a \implies |f(x) - L_1| < \epsilon.$$

(ii) **Right-Hand Limit (RHL)**: Written as $\lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} f(x) = L_2$, defined by:

$$\forall \epsilon > 0, \exists \delta > 0 \text{ such that } a < x < a + \delta \implies |f(x) - L_2| < \epsilon.$$

A two-sided limit $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x)$ exists if and only if both L_1 and L_2 exist and $L_1 = L_2 = L$.

Definition 1.1.3 (Infinitesimals). A function $\alpha(x)$ is called an **infinitesimal** as $x \rightarrow a$ if

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \alpha(x) = 0.$$

If $\alpha(x)$ and $\beta(x)$ are two infinitesimals as $x \rightarrow a$, we say that:

- α is an infinitesimal of **higher order** than β if $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{\alpha(x)}{\beta(x)} = 0$.
- α and β are of the **same order** if $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{\alpha(x)}{\beta(x)} = c \neq 0$.

Example 1.1.4. Prove using the ϵ - δ definition that $\lim_{x \rightarrow 5} (3x - 4) = 11$.

Solution. Given $\epsilon > 0$, we must find $\delta > 0$ such that if $0 < |x - 5| < \delta$, then $|(3x - 4) - 11| < \epsilon$.
Simplifying the target inequality:

$$|(3x - 4) - 11| = |3x - 15| = 3|x - 5|.$$

We require:

$$3|x - 5| < \epsilon \iff |x - 5| < \frac{\epsilon}{3}.$$

Choose $\delta = \frac{\epsilon}{3}$.

Verification: If $0 < |x - 5| < \delta$, then

$$|(3x - 4) - 11| = 3|x - 5| < 3 \cdot \frac{\epsilon}{3} = \epsilon.$$

Hence, $\lim_{x \rightarrow 5} (3x - 4) = 11$. ■

Example 1.1.5. Prove using the ϵ - δ definition that $\lim_{x \rightarrow 3} (x^2 - 2x) = 3$.

Solution. Given $\epsilon > 0$, we must find $\delta > 0$ such that $0 < |x - 3| < \delta \implies |(x^2 - 2x) - 3| < \epsilon$.
Factor the expression:

$$|(x^2 - 2x) - 3| = |(x - 3)(x + 1)| = |x - 3||x + 1|.$$

To bound the factor $|x + 1|$, assume an initial bound $\delta \leq 1$. If $|x - 3| < 1$, then:

$$2 < x < 4 \implies 3 < x + 1 < 5 \implies |x + 1| < 5.$$

Thus, for $|x - 3| < \delta \leq 1$, we have:

$$|x - 3||x + 1| < 5|x - 3|.$$

To make $5|x - 3| < \epsilon$, we set $|x - 3| < \frac{\epsilon}{5}$. Therefore, choose:

$$\delta = \min\left(1, \frac{\epsilon}{5}\right).$$

Verification: If $0 < |x - 3| < \delta$, then both $|x - 3| < 1$ and $|x - 3| < \frac{\epsilon}{5}$ hold. Thus:

$$|(x^2 - 2x) - 3| = |x - 3||x + 1| < 5 \cdot \frac{\epsilon}{5} = \epsilon.$$

This proves that $\lim_{x \rightarrow 3} (x^2 - 2x) = 3$. ■

Example 1.1.6. Using the ϵ - δ definition, prove that $\lim_{x \rightarrow 2} \frac{1}{x} = \frac{1}{2}$.

Solution. Given $\epsilon > 0$, we want to find $\delta > 0$ such that $0 < |x - 2| < \delta \implies \left|\frac{1}{x} - \frac{1}{2}\right| < \epsilon$.

Note that:

$$\left|\frac{1}{x} - \frac{1}{2}\right| = \left|\frac{2 - x}{2x}\right| = \frac{|x - 2|}{2|x|}.$$

Assume $\delta \leq 1$. Then $|x - 2| < 1 \implies 1 < x < 3$, which gives $|x| > 1$, and therefore $\frac{1}{|x|} < 1$.

Applying this bound:

$$\frac{|x - 2|}{2|x|} < \frac{|x - 2|}{2(1)} = \frac{|x - 2|}{2}.$$

To ensure this is less than ϵ , choose $|x - 2| < 2\epsilon$. Hence, select $\delta = \min(1, 2\epsilon)$.

Verification: If $0 < |x - 2| < \delta$, then:

$$\left| \frac{1}{x} - \frac{1}{2} \right| = \frac{|x - 2|}{2|x|} < \frac{2\epsilon}{2(1)} = \epsilon.$$

Hence, $\lim_{x \rightarrow 2} \frac{1}{x} = \frac{1}{2}$. ■

1.2 Continuity and Types of Discontinuities

Definition 1.2.1 (Continuity at a Point). A function $f : A \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is said to be **continuous at a point** $a \in A$ if:

- (i) $f(a)$ is defined.
- (ii) $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x)$ exists finitely.
- (iii) $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f(a)$.

In ϵ - δ terms: f is continuous at a if for every $\epsilon > 0$, there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that for all $x \in A$,

$$|x - a| < \delta \implies |f(x) - f(a)| < \epsilon.$$

Definition 1.2.2 (Continuity on an Interval). • **Open Interval** (a, b) : f is continuous on (a, b) if it is continuous at every point $c \in (a, b)$.

- **Closed Interval** $[a, b]$: f is continuous on $[a, b]$ if it is continuous on (a, b) , right-continuous at a ($\lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} f(x) = f(a)$), and left-continuous at b ($\lim_{x \rightarrow b^-} f(x) = f(b)$).

1.2.1 Classification of Discontinuities

If $f(x)$ fails to be continuous at $x = a$, then a is called a **point of discontinuity**. Discontinuities are classified into the following types:

1. **Removable Discontinuity:** The limit $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = L$ exists as a finite real number, but either $f(a)$ is undefined or $L \neq f(a)$. The discontinuity can be "removed" by defining/redefining $f(a) = L$.
2. **Discontinuity of the First Kind (Jump Discontinuity):** Both one-sided limits $\lim_{x \rightarrow a^-} f(x)$ and $\lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} f(x)$ exist finitely, but are unequal:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a^-} f(x) \neq \lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} f(x).$$

The non-zero quantity $J = |\lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} f(x) - \lim_{x \rightarrow a^-} f(x)|$ is called the **jump** of f at a .

3. **Discontinuity of the Second Kind (Essential / Infinite Discontinuity):** At least one of the one-sided limits $\lim_{x \rightarrow a^-} f(x)$ or $\lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} f(x)$ does not exist or becomes infinite ($\pm\infty$).
4. **Oscillatory Discontinuity:** The function values oscillate endlessly between two bounds as $x \rightarrow a$, preventing a unique limit from being reached.

Example 1.2.3. Classify the discontinuities of the following functions at $x = 0$:

$$(i) f(x) = \begin{cases} \frac{\sin x}{x}, & x \neq 0 \\ 0, & x = 0 \end{cases}$$

$$(ii) g(x) = \begin{cases} 1, & x > 0 \\ -1, & x \leq 0 \end{cases}$$

$$(iii) h(x) = \frac{1}{x^2}, \quad x \neq 0$$

$$(iv) k(x) = \begin{cases} \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right), & x \neq 0 \\ 0, & x = 0 \end{cases}$$

Solution. (i) Since $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\sin x}{x} = 1$, but $f(0) = 0 \neq 1$, the limit exists finitely but differs from $f(0)$. Thus, $x = 0$ is a **removable discontinuity**.

(ii) Evaluating the one-sided limits:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} g(x) = 1 \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^-} g(x) = -1.$$

Both one-sided limits exist finitely, but $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} g(x) \neq \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^-} g(x)$. Hence, $x = 0$ is a **discontinuity of the first kind (jump discontinuity)** with jump $J = |1 - (-1)| = 2$.

(iii) As $x \rightarrow 0$, $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} h(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{x^2} = +\infty$. Since the limit is infinite, $x = 0$ is a **discontinuity of the second kind (infinite discontinuity)**.

(iv) As $x \rightarrow 0$, $1/x \rightarrow \pm\infty$, causing $\sin(1/x)$ to oscillate infinitely between -1 and 1 . Neither one-sided limit exists. Thus, $x = 0$ is an **oscillatory discontinuity**. ■

Example 1.2.4. Find the value of k so that the function $f(x)$ is continuous at $x = 3$:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} \frac{x^2 - 9}{x - 3}, & x \neq 3 \\ k, & x = 3 \end{cases}$$

Solution. For $f(x)$ to be continuous at $x = 3$, we require:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 3} f(x) = f(3).$$

Evaluate the limit as $x \rightarrow 3$:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 3} \frac{x^2 - 9}{x - 3} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 3} \frac{(x - 3)(x + 3)}{x - 3} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 3} (x + 3) = 6.$$

Since $f(3) = k$, setting $\lim_{x \rightarrow 3} f(x) = f(3)$ yields:

$$k = 6. \quad \blacksquare$$

Example 1.2.5 (Dirichlet Function – Everywhere Discontinuous). Consider Dirichlet's function $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } x \in \mathbb{Q} \\ 0, & \text{if } x \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \mathbb{Q} \end{cases}$$

Show that $f(x)$ is discontinuous at every real point $x \in \mathbb{R}$.

Solution. Let $a \in \mathbb{R}$ be any real number. Choose $\epsilon = \frac{1}{2}$.

By the density of rational and irrational numbers in $\mathbb{R}$, for any $\delta > 0$:

- The neighborhood $(a - \delta, a + \delta)$ contains at least one rational $q \in \mathbb{Q}$, where $f(q) = 1$.
- The neighborhood $(a - \delta, a + \delta)$ contains at least one irrational $r \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \mathbb{Q}$, where $f(r) = 0$.

Case 1 (a is rational): Here $f(a) = 1$. Choose $r \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \mathbb{Q}$ within $(a - \delta, a + \delta)$. Then:

$$|f(r) - f(a)| = |0 - 1| = 1 > \frac{1}{2} = \epsilon.$$

Case 2 (a is irrational): Here $f(a) = 0$. Choose $q \in \mathbb{Q}$ within $(a - \delta, a + \delta)$. Then:

$$|f(q) - f(a)| = |1 - 0| = 1 > \frac{1}{2} = \epsilon.$$

In both cases, no $\delta > 0$ can satisfy the ϵ - δ definition of continuity. Thus, $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x)$ does not exist for any $a \in \mathbb{R}$, making f discontinuous everywhere. ■

Example 1.2.6 (Thomae's Function / Popcorn Function). Consider Thomae's function $f : (0, 1) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{q}, & \text{if } x = \frac{p}{q} \in \mathbb{Q} \text{ in lowest terms } (p, q \in \mathbb{N}, \gcd(p, q) = 1) \\ 0, & \text{if } x \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \mathbb{Q} \end{cases}$$

Show that f is continuous at every irrational point and discontinuous at every rational point in $(0, 1)$.

Solution. **Discontinuity at Rational Points:** Let $a = \frac{p}{q} \in \mathbb{Q} \cap (0, 1)$. Then $f(a) = \frac{1}{q} > 0$. Every neighborhood of a contains irrational numbers r where $f(r) = 0$. Choosing $\epsilon = \frac{1}{2q}$, for any $\delta > 0$ there exists an irrational $r \in (a - \delta, a + \delta)$ such that:

$$|f(r) - f(a)| = \left| 0 - \frac{1}{q} \right| = \frac{1}{q} > \frac{1}{2q} = \epsilon.$$

Hence, f is discontinuous at every rational point in $(0, 1)$.

Continuity at Irrational Points: Let $a \in (0, 1) \setminus \mathbb{Q}$, so $f(a) = 0$. Given $\epsilon > 0$, choose $N \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $\frac{1}{N} < \epsilon$. In the interval $(0, 1)$, there are only finitely many rational numbers with denominators less than N .

Let $\delta > 0$ be the distance from a to the nearest rational number with denominator less than N . If $0 < |x - a| < \delta$:

- If x is irrational, $|f(x) - f(a)| = |0 - 0| = 0 < \epsilon$.
- If $x = \frac{p'}{q'}$ is rational, its denominator q' must be $\geq N$ (by our choice of δ). Thus:

$$|f(x) - f(a)| = \left| \frac{1}{q'} - 0 \right| = \frac{1}{q'} \leq \frac{1}{N} < \epsilon.$$

Therefore, $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = 0 = f(a)$, proving that f is continuous at every irrational point. ■

1.3 Differentiability of Functions

Definition 1.3.1 (Derivative at a Point). Let $f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be defined on an open interval I . The function f is said to be **differentiable** at $a \in I$ if the limit

$$f'(a) = \lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(a + h) - f(a)}{h}$$

exists as a finite real number. The value $f'(a)$ is called the **derivative** of f at a .

Definition 1.3.2 (Left-Hand and Right-Hand Derivatives). Let $h > 0$. The one-sided derivatives at $x = a$ are defined as:

- **Left-Hand Derivative (LHD):**

$$Lf'(a) = f'(a^-) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(a - h) - f(a)}{-h} = \lim_{x \rightarrow a^-} \frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a}.$$

- **Right-Hand Derivative (RHD):**

$$Rf'(a) = f'(a^+) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(a + h) - f(a)}{h} = \lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} \frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a}.$$

A function f is differentiable at $x = a$ if and only if both $Lf'(a)$ and $Rf'(a)$ exist, are finite, and are equal:

$$Lf'(a) = Rf'(a) = f'(a).$$

Interpretation 1.3.3 (Geometric Significance of Differentiability). Geometrically, $f'(a)$ represents the slope of the tangent line to the curve $y = f(x)$ at the point $(a, f(a))$.

- $Lf'(a)$ and $Rf'(a)$ represent the slopes of the secant lines approaching $(a, f(a))$ from the left and right, respectively.
- If $Lf'(a) \neq Rf'(a)$, the graph exhibits a sharp turn or "corner point" at $x = a$ (e.g., $y = |x|$ at $x = 0$).
- If $f'(a) = \pm\infty$, the graph possesses a vertical tangent at $x = a$ (e.g., $y = x^{1/3}$ at $x = 0$).

Theorem 1.3.4 (Differentiability Implies Continuity). If a function f is differentiable at $x = a$, then f is continuous at $x = a$.

Proof. Assume f is differentiable at $x = a$. For any $x \neq a$, we can express the difference $f(x) - f(a)$ as:

$$f(x) - f(a) = \frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a} \cdot (x - a).$$

Taking the limit as $x \rightarrow a$ on both sides:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} [f(x) - f(a)] = \left(\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a} \right) \cdot \left(\lim_{x \rightarrow a} (x - a) \right).$$

Since f is differentiable at a , the first limit is the finite number $f'(a)$, and the second limit is 0:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} [f(x) - f(a)] = f'(a) \cdot 0 = 0 \implies \lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f(a).$$

Thus, f satisfies the definition of continuity at $x = a$. ■

Remark 1.3.5. The converse of this theorem is **not true**. A function may be continuous at a point without being differentiable there.

Example 1.3.6 (Corner Point – Continuous but Not Differentiable). Show that the function $f(x) = |x|$ is continuous at $x = 0$, but fails to be differentiable at $x = 0$.

Solution. **Continuity at $x = 0$:**

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} f(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} |x| = 0 = f(0).$$

Hence, $f(x)$ is continuous at $x = 0$.

Differentiability at $x = 0$: Evaluate the left-hand and right-hand derivatives using $h > 0$:

$$Rf'(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{|0 + h| - |0|}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{h}{h} = 1,$$

$$Lf'(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{|0 - h| - |0|}{-h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{h}{-h} = -1.$$

Since $Lf'(0) = -1 \neq 1 = Rf'(0)$, the derivative $f'(0)$ does not exist. ■

Example 1.3.7 (Parameter Determination for Differentiability). Find the values of constants a and b such that the function

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 + 3x + a, & x \leq 1 \\ bx + 2, & x > 1 \end{cases}$$

is differentiable at $x = 1$.

Solution. For $f(x)$ to be differentiable at $x = 1$, it must first be continuous at $x = 1$.

Continuity at $x = 1$.

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 1^-} f(x) = 1^2 + 3(1) + a = 4 + a,$$

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 1^+} f(x) = b(1) + 2 = b + 2.$$

Equating the two one-sided limits and $f(1)$:

$$4 + a = b + 2 \implies b - a = 2. \quad (1.1)$$

Differentiability at $x = 1$. Calculate the left-hand and right-hand derivatives:

$$Lf'(1) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(1 - h) - f(1)}{-h} = \frac{d}{dx}(x^2 + 3x + a) \Big|_{x=1} = 2(1) + 3 = 5,$$

$$Rf'(1) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(1 + h) - f(1)}{h} = \frac{d}{dx}(bx + 2) \Big|_{x=1} = b.$$

Equating $Lf'(1) = Rf'(1)$ gives:

$$b = 5.$$

Substituting $b = 5$ into equation (1.1):

$$5 - a = 2 \implies a = 3.$$

Hence, $a = 3$ and $b = 5$. ■

Example 1.3.8 (Differentiable Function with Discontinuous Derivative). Consider the function $f: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ defined by:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right), & x \neq 0 \\ 0, & x = 0 \end{cases}$$

(i) Show that $f(x)$ is differentiable at $x = 0$ and find $f'(0)$.

(ii) Show that $f'(x)$ is discontinuous at $x = 0$.

Solution. (i) Differentiability at $x = 0$: By definition of the derivative at $x = 0$:

$$f'(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(0+h) - f(0)}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{h^2 \sin\left(\frac{1}{h}\right) - 0}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} h \sin\left(\frac{1}{h}\right).$$

Since $-1 \leq \sin(1/h) \leq 1$, we have:

$$-|h| \leq h \sin\left(\frac{1}{h}\right) \leq |h|.$$

Since $\lim_{h \rightarrow 0} (-|h|) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} |h| = 0$, by the Squeeze Theorem:

$$f'(0) = 0.$$

Thus, f is differentiable everywhere on $\mathbb{R}$.

(ii) Discontinuity of $f'(x)$ at $x = 0$: For $x \neq 0$, apply the product and chain rules to differentiate $f(x)$:

$$f'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \left[x^2 \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) \right] = 2x \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) + x^2 \cos\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) \cdot \left(-\frac{1}{x^2}\right) = 2x \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) - \cos\left(\frac{1}{x}\right).$$

Now, evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} f'(x)$:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} f'(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \left[2x \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) - \cos\left(\frac{1}{x}\right) \right].$$

While $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} 2x \sin(1/x) = 0$, the limit $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \cos(1/x)$ does not exist due to infinite oscillation between -1 and 1 . Consequently, $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} f'(x)$ does not exist, so $f'(x)$ is discontinuous at $x = 0$. ■

Example 1.3.9 (Vertical Tangent Line). Show that $f(x) = x^{1/3}$ is continuous at $x = 0$, but not differentiable at $x = 0$.

Solution. Continuity: $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} x^{1/3} = 0 = f(0)$. Thus, f is continuous at $x = 0$.

Differentiability: Compute the derivative using the limit definition:

$$f'(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(0+h) - f(0)}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{h^{1/3} - 0}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{h^{2/3}} = +\infty.$$

Since the limit is infinite (indicating a vertical tangent line at $x = 0$), $f'(0)$ does not exist as a finite real number. Hence, $f(x)$ is not differentiable at $x = 0$. ■

1.4 Successive Differentiation and Leibnitz's Theorem

Successive differentiation is the process of differentiating a function repeatedly to obtain higher-order derivatives: $y_1 = y'$, $y_2 = y''$, $\dots$, $y_n = y^{(n)}$.

1.4.1 Standard Formulas for n -th Derivatives

$$1. \frac{d^n}{dx^n} (ax + b)^m = \frac{m!}{(m-n)!} a^n (ax + b)^{m-n} \quad (m \geq n).$$

2. $\frac{d^n}{dx^n}(e^{ax}) = a^n e^{ax}.$
3. $\frac{d^n}{dx^n} \sin(ax + b) = a^n \sin\left(ax + b + \frac{n\pi}{2}\right).$
4. $\frac{d^n}{dx^n} \cos(ax + b) = a^n \cos\left(ax + b + \frac{n\pi}{2}\right).$

Theorem 1.4.1 (Leibnitz's Theorem). If $u(x)$ and $v(x)$ are two functions possessing derivatives up to n -th order, then the n -th derivative of their product $y = u \cdot v$ is given by:

$$y_n = (uv)_n = \binom{n}{0} u_n v + \binom{n}{1} u_{n-1} v_1 + \binom{n}{2} u_{n-2} v_2 + \cdots + \binom{n}{r} u_{n-r} v_r + \cdots + \binom{n}{n} u v_n,$$

where $u_r = \frac{d^r u}{dx^r}$ and $v_r = \frac{d^r v}{dx^r}.$

Proof by Mathematical Induction. Base Case ($n = 1$): By the standard product rule:

$$(uv)_1 = u_1 v + u v_1 = \binom{1}{0} u_1 v + \binom{1}{1} u v_1.$$

The result holds for $n = 1$.

Inductive Hypothesis: Assume the theorem holds for $n = k$:

$$(uv)_k = u_k v + \binom{k}{1} u_{k-1} v_1 + \binom{k}{2} u_{k-2} v_2 + \cdots + \binom{k}{r} u_{k-r} v_r + \cdots + u v_k.$$

Inductive Step: Differentiating both sides with respect to x :

$$\begin{aligned} (uv)_{k+1} &= (u_{k+1} v + u_k v_1) + \binom{k}{1} (u_k v_1 + u_{k-1} v_2) + \cdots + \binom{k}{r} (u_{k-r+1} v_r + u_{k-r} v_{r+1}) + \cdots + (u_1 v_k + u v_{k+1}) \\ &= u_{k+1} v + \left[1 + \binom{k}{1}\right] u_k v_1 + \left[\binom{k}{1} + \binom{k}{2}\right] u_{k-1} v_2 + \cdots + \left[\binom{k}{r-1} + \binom{k}{r}\right] u_{k-r+1} v_r + \cdots + u v_{k+1}. \end{aligned}$$

Using Pascal's identity $\binom{k}{r-1} + \binom{k}{r} = \binom{k+1}{r}$:

$$(uv)_{k+1} = \binom{k+1}{0} u_{k+1} v + \binom{k+1}{1} u_k v_1 + \cdots + \binom{k+1}{r} u_{k-r+1} v_r + \cdots + \binom{k+1}{k+1} u v_{k+1}.$$

Thus, the result holds for $n = k+1$. By induction, Leibnitz's Theorem is valid for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$. ■

Example 1.4.2. If $y = x^3 e^{2x}$, find y_n using Leibnitz's Theorem.

Solution. Let $u = e^{2x}$ and $v = x^3$. Then:

$$u_r = 2^r e^{2x}, \quad v_1 = 3x^2, \quad v_2 = 6x, \quad v_3 = 6, \quad v_r = 0 \text{ for } r \geq 4.$$

By Leibnitz's Theorem:

$$y_n = \binom{n}{0} u_n v + \binom{n}{1} u_{n-1} v_1 + \binom{n}{2} u_{n-2} v_2 + \binom{n}{3} u_{n-3} v_3.$$

Substituting the derivatives:

$$\begin{aligned} y_n &= (2^n e^{2x})(x^3) + n(2^{n-1} e^{2x})(3x^2) + \frac{n(n-1)}{2} (2^{n-2} e^{2x})(6x) + \frac{n(n-1)(n-2)}{6} (2^{n-3} e^{2x})(6) \\ &= 2^{n-3} e^{2x} [8x^3 + 12nx^2 + 12n(n-1)x + 8n(n-1)(n-2)]. \end{aligned}$$

■

1.5 Partial Differentiation and Euler's Theorem

1.5.1 Partial and Total Differentiation

For a function of multiple variables $z = f(x, y)$:

- The **partial derivative** with respect to x holds y constant:

$$\frac{\partial z}{\partial x} = \lim_{\Delta x \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x + \Delta x, y) - f(x, y)}{\Delta x}.$$

- The **total differential** dz measures the total incremental change in z :

$$dz = \frac{\partial z}{\partial x} dx + \frac{\partial z}{\partial y} dy.$$

1.5.2 Homogeneous Functions and Euler's Theorem

Definition 1.5.1 (Homogeneous Function). A function $f(x, y)$ is said to be **homogeneous** of degree n in x and y if:

$$f(tx, ty) = t^n f(x, y) \quad \forall t > 0.$$

Theorem 1.5.2 (Euler's Theorem on Homogeneous Functions). If $u = f(x, y)$ is a homogeneous function of degree n possessing continuous partial derivatives, then:

$$x \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = nu.$$

Proof. Since $u(x, y)$ is homogeneous of degree n , it can be expressed as:

$$u(x, y) = x^n F\left(\frac{y}{x}\right).$$

Differentiating u partially with respect to x :

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = nx^{n-1} F\left(\frac{y}{x}\right) + x^n F'\left(\frac{y}{x}\right) \left(-\frac{y}{x^2}\right) = nx^{n-1} F\left(\frac{y}{x}\right) - x^{n-2} y F'\left(\frac{y}{x}\right).$$

Multiply both sides by x :

$$x \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = nx^n F\left(\frac{y}{x}\right) - x^{n-1} y F'\left(\frac{y}{x}\right). \quad (1.2)$$

Next, differentiating u partially with respect to y :

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = x^n F'\left(\frac{y}{x}\right) \left(\frac{1}{x}\right) = x^{n-1} F'\left(\frac{y}{x}\right).$$

Multiply both sides by y :

$$y \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = x^{n-1} y F'\left(\frac{y}{x}\right). \quad (1.3)$$

Adding equations (1.2) and (1.3):

$$x \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = nx^n F\left(\frac{y}{x}\right) = nu.$$

This completes the proof. ■

Example 1.5.3. If $u = \tan^{-1} \left(\frac{x^3 + y^3}{x - y} \right)$, show that $x \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = \sin 2u$.

Solution. We can rewrite the expression as:

$$z = \tan u = \frac{x^3 + y^3}{x - y}.$$

To find the degree of homogeneity of $z(x, y)$:

$$z(tx, ty) = \frac{(tx)^3 + (ty)^3}{(tx) - (ty)} = \frac{t^3(x^3 + y^3)}{t(x - y)} = t^2 z(x, y).$$

Thus, $z = \tan u$ is a homogeneous function of degree $n = 2$.

Applying Euler's Theorem to z :

$$x \frac{\partial z}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial z}{\partial y} = 2z.$$

Since $z = \tan u$:

$$\frac{\partial z}{\partial x} = \sec^2 u \frac{\partial u}{\partial x}, \quad \text{and} \quad \frac{\partial z}{\partial y} = \sec^2 u \frac{\partial u}{\partial y}.$$

Substitute these back into Euler's formula:

$$\begin{aligned} x \left(\sec^2 u \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} \right) + y \left(\sec^2 u \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \right) &= 2 \tan u \\ \sec^2 u \left(x \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \right) &= 2 \tan u \\ x \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} &= \frac{2 \tan u}{\sec^2 u} = 2 \sin u \cos u = \sin 2u. \end{aligned}$$

■

1.6 Continuity: ϵ - δ Definition

A function $f(x)$ is **continuous** at $x = a$ if:

1. $f(a)$ is defined,
2. $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x)$ exists,
3. $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f(a)$.

The ϵ - δ definition formalizes this:

$$f \text{ is continuous at } a \iff \forall \epsilon > 0, \exists \delta > 0 \text{ such that } |x - a| < \delta \implies |f(x) - f(a)| < \epsilon.$$

This ensures no jumps, breaks, or oscillations at a .

Example 1.6.1. Prove that $f(x) = 4x - 1$ is continuous at $x = 3$ using the ϵ - δ definition.

Solution. We must show: $\forall \epsilon > 0, \exists \delta > 0$ such that $|x - 3| < \delta \implies |(4x - 1) - 11| < \epsilon$.

Note $f(3) = 4(3) - 1 = 11$.

Simplify:

$$|(4x - 1) - 11| = |4x - 12| = 4|x - 3|$$

Choose $\delta = \epsilon/4$. If $|x - 3| < \delta$, then:

$$4|x - 3| < 4 \cdot (\epsilon/4) = \epsilon$$

Thus, $f(x) = 4x - 1$ is continuous at $x = 3$.

■

Example 1.6.2. Prove $f(x) = x^2$ is continuous at $x = 2$.

Solution. $f(2) = 4$. For any $\epsilon > 0$, choose $\delta = \min\left(1, \frac{\epsilon}{5}\right)$. If $|x - 2| < \delta$, then:

$$\begin{aligned} |x + 2| &= |(x - 2) + 4| \\ &\leq |x - 2| + 4 < 1 + 4 = 5, \\ |f(x) - f(2)| &= |x^2 - 4| \\ &= |(x - 2)(x + 2)| \\ &< \delta \cdot 5 \leq \frac{\epsilon}{5} \cdot 5 = \epsilon. \end{aligned}$$

Thus, $f(x) = x^2$ is continuous at $x = 2$. ■

Example 1.6.3. Prove that $g(x) = x^2 + 2$ is continuous at $x = -1$ using the ϵ - δ definition.

Solution. We must show: $\forall \epsilon > 0, \exists \delta > 0$ such that $|x - (-1)| < \delta \implies |(x^2 + 2) - 3| < \epsilon$.

Note $g(-1) = (-1)^2 + 2 = 3$.

Simplify:

$$|(x^2 + 2) - 3| = |x^2 - 1| = |x - 1||x + 1|$$

Set $\delta \leq 1$. Then $|x + 1| < 1$ implies $-2 < x < 0$, so $|x - 1| < 3$.

Now:

$$|x - 1||x + 1| < 3|x + 1|$$

Choose $\delta = \min(1, \epsilon/3)$. If $|x + 1| < \delta$, then:

$$|g(x) - g(-1)| < 3 \cdot \delta \leq 3 \cdot (\epsilon/3) = \epsilon$$

Thus, $g(x) = x^2 + 2$ is continuous at $x = -1$. ■

Theorem 1.6.4. If the limit of a function $f(x)$ as x approaches a exists, then this limit is unique.

Proof. Assume, for the sake of contradiction, that $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = L_1$ and $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = L_2$ where $L_1 \neq L_2$.

By the definition of a limit, there exists a $\delta > 0$ such that for any x satisfying $0 < |x - a| < \delta$, we must have both:

$$|f(x) - L_1| < \epsilon \quad \text{and} \quad |f(x) - L_2| < \epsilon$$

Using the triangle inequality, we can write:

$$\begin{aligned} |L_1 - L_2| &= |(L_1 - f(x)) + (f(x) - L_2)| \\ &\leq |f(x) - L_1| + |f(x) - L_2| \\ &< \epsilon + \epsilon = 2\epsilon \end{aligned}$$

Let $\epsilon = \frac{|L_1 - L_2|}{2}$. Since $L_1 \neq L_2$, we know that $\epsilon > 0$.

Substituting our choice of ϵ :

$$|L_1 - L_2| < 2 \left(\frac{|L_1 - L_2|}{2} \right) = |L_1 - L_2|$$

This results in the contradiction $|L_1 - L_2| < |L_1 - L_2|$. Therefore, our initial assumption must be false, and the limit must be unique. ■

Theorem 1.6.5 (The Algebra of Limits). Let c be a real number, and let $f(x)$ and $g(x)$ be two functions such that

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow c} f(x) = L \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{x \rightarrow c} g(x) = M$$

where L and M are finite real numbers. Then the following properties hold:

1. **Sum Rule:** The limit of the sum is the sum of the limits.

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow c} [f(x) + g(x)] = L + M$$

2. **Difference Rule:** The limit of the difference is the difference of the limits.

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow c} [f(x) - g(x)] = L - M$$

3. **Product Rule:** The limit of the product is the product of the limits.

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow c} [f(x)g(x)] = LM$$

4. **Quotient Rule:** The limit of the quotient is the quotient of the limits, provided the limit of the denominator is not zero.

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow c} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = \frac{L}{M}, \quad \text{provided } M \neq 0$$

1. *Proof of the Sum Rule.* Let $\epsilon > 0$ be given. We want to find a $\delta > 0$ such that if $0 < |x - c| < \delta$, then $|(f(x) + g(x)) - (L + M)| < \epsilon$.

By the definition of the limits for f and g , we know that for $\epsilon/2 > 0$, there exist $\delta_1 > 0$ and $\delta_2 > 0$ such that:

- if $0 < |x - c| < \delta_1$, then $|f(x) - L| < \epsilon/2$.
- if $0 < |x - c| < \delta_2$, then $|g(x) - M| < \epsilon/2$.

Let us choose $\delta = \min(\delta_1, \delta_2)$. Then for any x satisfying $0 < |x - c| < \delta$, both of the above inequalities hold. Using the triangle inequality, we have:

$$\begin{aligned} |(f(x) + g(x)) - (L + M)| &= |(f(x) - L) + (g(x) - M)| \\ &\leq |f(x) - L| + |g(x) - M| \\ &< \frac{\epsilon}{2} + \frac{\epsilon}{2} = \epsilon \end{aligned}$$

The proof for the Difference Rule is analogous. ■

3. *Proof of the Product Rule.* Let $\epsilon > 0$ be given. We want to show $|f(x)g(x) - LM| < \epsilon$.

$$\begin{aligned} |f(x)g(x) - LM| &= |f(x)g(x) - Lg(x) + Lg(x) - LM| \\ &= |g(x)(f(x) - L) + L(g(x) - M)| \\ &\leq |g(x)||f(x) - L| + |L||g(x) - M| \end{aligned}$$

Since $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} g(x) = M$, there exists a $\delta_1 > 0$ such that if $0 < |x - c| < \delta_1$, then $|g(x) - M| < 1$, which implies $|g(x)| < |M| + 1$. Let $K = |M| + 1$. Now, for a given $\epsilon > 0$, we can find δ_2 and δ_3 such that:

- if $0 < |x - c| < \delta_2$, then $|f(x) - L| < \frac{\epsilon}{2K}$.

- if $0 < |x - c| < \delta_3$, then $|g(x) - M| < \frac{\epsilon}{2(|L| + 1)}$. (We use $|L| + 1$ to avoid division by zero if $L = 0$).

Choose $\delta = \min(\delta_1, \delta_2, \delta_3)$. If $0 < |x - c| < \delta$, then:

$$\begin{aligned} |f(x)g(x) - LM| &\leq |g(x)||f(x) - L| + |L||g(x) - M| \\ &< K \cdot \frac{\epsilon}{2K} + |L| \cdot \frac{\epsilon}{2(|L| + 1)} \\ &< \frac{\epsilon}{2} + \frac{\epsilon}{2} = \epsilon \end{aligned}$$

Thus, we have shown that $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} [f(x)g(x)] = LM$. ■

4. *Proof of the Quotient Rule.* It suffices to first prove that $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} \frac{1}{g(x)} = \frac{1}{M}$ for $M \neq 0$, and then apply the Product Rule to $f(x) \cdot \frac{1}{g(x)}$.

Let $\epsilon > 0$ be given. We want to show $\left| \frac{1}{g(x)} - \frac{1}{M} \right| < \epsilon$.

$$\left| \frac{M - g(x)}{Mg(x)} \right| = \frac{|g(x) - M|}{|M||g(x)|}$$

Since $M \neq 0$, $|M|/2 > 0$. There exists a $\delta_1 > 0$ such that if $0 < |x - c| < \delta_1$, then $|g(x) - M| < |M|/2$. By the reverse triangle inequality, this implies $|g(x)| > |M| - |g(x) - M| > |M| - |M|/2 = |M|/2$. Therefore, $\frac{1}{|g(x)|} < \frac{2}{|M|}$. Now, there exists a $\delta_2 > 0$ such that if $0 < |x - c| < \delta_2$, then $|g(x) - M| < \frac{\epsilon|M|^2}{2}$. Choose $\delta = \min(\delta_1, \delta_2)$. If $0 < |x - c| < \delta$, then:

$$\frac{|g(x) - M|}{|M||g(x)|} < \frac{|g(x) - M|}{|M|(|M|/2)} = \frac{2|g(x) - M|}{|M|^2} < \frac{2}{|M|^2} \cdot \frac{\epsilon|M|^2}{2} = \epsilon$$

So, $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} \frac{1}{g(x)} = \frac{1}{M}$. By the Product Rule, $\lim_{x \rightarrow c} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = \left(\lim_{x \rightarrow c} f(x) \right) \left(\lim_{x \rightarrow c} \frac{1}{g(x)} \right) = L \cdot \frac{1}{M} = \frac{L}{M}$. ■

Exercise 1.6.6. Q1. (Limit) Prove $\lim_{x \rightarrow 4} (5 - 2x) = -3$ using ϵ - δ definition.

Q2. (Limit) Prove $\lim_{x \rightarrow -2} (x^2 + 3x) = -2$ using ϵ - δ definition.

Q3. (Continuity) Prove $h(x) = \sqrt{x}$ is continuous at $x = 4$ using ϵ - δ definition. (Hint: Use $|\sqrt{x} - 2| = \frac{|x - 4|}{\sqrt{x} + 2}$).

Q4. (Continuity) Prove $k(x) = \frac{1}{x}$ is continuous at $x = \frac{1}{2}$ using ϵ - δ definition.

1.7 Types of Discontinuities

Discontinuities occur where a function fails to be continuous. Common types:

1. **Removable:** $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x)$ exists but $f(a)$ is undefined or $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) \neq f(a)$. "Fixed" by redefining $f(a)$.

2. **Jump or discontinuity of first kind:** Left-hand and right-hand limits exist but are unequal ($\lim_{x \rightarrow a^-} f(x) \neq \lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} f(x)$).
3. **Infinite or discontinuity of second kind:** $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = \pm\infty$.
4. **Oscillating:** Function oscillates infinitely often near a (e.g., $\sin(1/x)$ at $x = 0$).

Example 1.7.1. Classify the discontinuity of $f(x) = \frac{x^2 - 4}{x - 2}$ at $x = 2$.

Solution. The function is undefined at $x = 2$. Simplify for $x \neq 2$:

$$f(x) = \frac{(x - 2)(x + 2)}{x - 2} = x + 2.$$

The limit exists:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 2} f(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow 2} (x + 2) = 4.$$

Since the limit exists but $f(2)$ is undefined, the discontinuity is **removable**. ■

Example 1.7.2. Classify the discontinuity of the function

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 & \text{if } x < 2 \\ x + 3 & \text{if } x \geq 2 \end{cases}$$

at $x = 2$.

Solution. Calculate left-hand and right-hand limits:

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{x \rightarrow 2^-} f(x) &= \lim_{x \rightarrow 2^-} x^2 = 2^2 = 4 \\ \lim_{x \rightarrow 2^+} f(x) &= \lim_{x \rightarrow 2^+} (x + 3) = 2 + 3 = 5 \end{aligned}$$

Since $4 \neq 5$, the left-hand and right-hand limits exist but are not equal.

Function value: $f(2) = 2 + 3 = 5$.

The discontinuity at $x = 2$ is a **jump discontinuity**. ■

Example 1.7.3. Classify the discontinuity of $g(x) = \frac{1}{(x - 3)^2}$ at $x = 3$.

Solution. Examine the limit as x approaches 3:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 3} \frac{1}{(x - 3)^2} = +\infty$$

The function is undefined at $x = 3$. As $x \rightarrow 3$, the function values increase without bound.

This is an **infinite discontinuity** (vertical asymptote at $x = 3$). ■

Example 1.7.4. Classify the discontinuity of $h(x) = \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right)$ at $x = 0$.

Solution. Consider the behavior as $x \rightarrow 0$:

- As $x \rightarrow 0^+$, $\frac{1}{x} \rightarrow +\infty$ and $\sin(1/x)$ oscillates between -1 and 1
- As $x \rightarrow 0^-$, $\frac{1}{x} \rightarrow -\infty$ and $\sin(1/x)$ oscillates between -1 and 1

The limit $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \sin(1/x)$ does not exist because oscillations become increasingly rapid. This is an **oscillating discontinuity** at $x = 0$. ■

Example 1.7.5. Examine the following function for continuity at the origin.

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} \frac{xe^{1/x}}{1 + e^{1/x}} & \text{if } x \neq 0 \\ 0 & \text{if } x = 0 \end{cases}$$

Solution. $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^-} f(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^-} \frac{xe^{1/x}}{1 + e^{1/x}} = 0$ and $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} f(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{x}{e^{-1/x} + 1} = 0$ Also, $f(0) = 0$. Thus, the function is continuous at the origin. ■

1.7.1 Piecewise Continuity

A function $f(x)$ is said to be piecewise continuous in an interval I , if the interval can be subdivided into a finite number of subintervals such that $f(x)$ is continuous in each of the subintervals and the limits of $f(x)$ as x approaches the end points of each subinterval are finite. For example, the greatest integer function $f(x) = [x]$ defined on $[-1, 3]$ is piecewise continuous on $[-1, 3]$.

1.8 Differentiability of Functions

A function $f(x)$ is **differentiable** at a point $x = a$ if the derivative $f'(a)$ exists. Geometrically, this means the function has a unique tangent at that point. The derivative is defined as:

$$f'(a) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h}$$

provided this limit exists finitely.

Necessary Conditions

- If f is differentiable at a , then it must be continuous at a .
- The converse is not true: continuity does not imply differentiability (e.g., $|x|$ at $x = 0$).

(1). *Proof.* To prove that the function f is continuous at a , we must show that $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f(a)$. This is equivalent to showing that the difference between $f(x)$ and $f(a)$ approaches zero, i.e.,

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} [f(x) - f(a)] = 0$$

We are given that f is differentiable at a . By definition, this means the limit for the derivative exists and is a finite number:

$$f'(a) = \lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a}$$

that is,

$$f(x) - f(a) = \left(\frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a} \right) \cdot (x - a)$$

We can now take the limit of both sides as $x \rightarrow a$ and apply the product rule for limits:

$$\begin{aligned}\lim_{x \rightarrow a} [f(x) - f(a)] &= \lim_{x \rightarrow a} \left(\frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a} \cdot (x - a) \right) \\ &= \left(\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x) - f(a)}{x - a} \right) \cdot \left(\lim_{x \rightarrow a} (x - a) \right) \\ &= f'(a) \cdot (a - a) \\ &= f'(a) \cdot 0 \\ &= 0\end{aligned}$$

Since we have shown that $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} [f(x) - f(a)] = 0$, it follows directly that $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = f(a)$. This is the definition of continuity at the point a . ■

Left and Right Derivatives

The **left derivative** at a :

$$f'_-(a) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^-} \frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h}$$

The **right derivative** at a :

$$f'_+(a) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(a+h) - f(a)}{h}$$

f is differentiable at a iff $f'_-(a) = f'_+(a)$ and both exist finitely.

Example 1.8.1. Show that $f(x) = x^2 + 3x$ is differentiable at $x = 2$ and find its derivative.

Solution. Compute the derivative using the limit definition:

$$\begin{aligned}f'(2) &= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(2+h) - f(2)}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{[(2+h)^2 + 3(2+h)] - [2^2 + 3(2)]}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{[4 + 4h + h^2 + 6 + 3h] - [4 + 6]}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{7h + h^2}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} (7 + h) = 7\end{aligned}$$

Since the limit exists, f is differentiable at $x = 2$ with $f'(2) = 7$. ■

1.9 Geometric Interpretations of Continuity and Differentiability

While analytical definitions (ϵ - δ and limits) provide mathematical rigor, geometric concepts offer intuitive visual tools for identifying continuity, differentiability, and the structural features of curves.

1.9.1 Geometric Concepts of Continuity

Geometrically, a real-valued function $f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is continuous on an interval I if its graph $y = f(x)$ forms an **unbroken curve** without gaps, holes, or jump steps.

Theorem 1.9.1 (Geometric Results for Continuity). *Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function.*

Result 1. Connectedness Property: *If f is continuous on $[a, b]$, the image $f([a, b])$ is a connected closed interval $[m, M]$, where m and M are the absolute minimum and maximum values of f on $[a, b]$.*

Result 2. Intermediate Value Theorem (IVT): *If f is continuous on $[a, b]$ and k is any value between $f(a)$ and $f(b)$, the horizontal line $y = k$ intersects the curve $y = f(x)$ at least once in (a, b) .*

Interpretation 1.9.2 (Geometric Obstructions to Continuity). A function fails to be continuous at $x = c$ geometrically if the graph exhibits:

- **A Hole (Removable Discontinuity):** The curve approaches a single point from both sides, but that point is missing or displaced.
- **A Jump Step (First Kind):** The left and right branches of the curve approach two separate horizontal levels.
- **An Infinite Asymptote (Second Kind):** The graph blows up vertically towards $\pm\infty$ as $x \rightarrow c$.

1.9.2 Geometric Concepts of Differentiability

Geometrically, a function f is differentiable at $x = c$ if the graph $y = f(x)$ is **locally smooth** at $(c, f(c))$ and possesses a unique, non-vertical tangent line.

Theorem 1.9.3 (Geometric Results for Differentiability). *Let $f : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a function defined on an open interval I .*

Result 1. Existence of Unique Non-Vertical Tangent Line: *f is differentiable at $x = c$ if and only if the secant line passing through $(c, f(c))$ and $(c + h, f(c + h))$ converges to a single, unique line with finite slope $m = f'(c)$ as $h \rightarrow 0$.*

Result 2. Local Linearity (Best Linear Approximation): *f is differentiable at $x = c$ if and only if the graph $y = f(x)$ is **locally linear** at $(c, f(c))$. That is, zooming in indefinitely around $(c, f(c))$ makes the graph indistinguishable from the tangent line:*

$$y = f(c) + f'(c)(x - c).$$

Result 3. Smooth Joining Condition: *Two differentiable curves $y = f_1(x)$ ($x \leq c$) and $y = f_2(x)$ ($x > c$) meet smoothly at $x = c$ if and only if they share both the same point and the same tangent slope:*

$$f_1(c) = f_2(c) \quad \text{and} \quad f'_1(c) = f'_2(c).$$

Interpretation 1.9.4 (Geometric Obstructions to Differentiability). Even if a graph is continuous (unbroken), it can fail to be differentiable at $x = c$ due to three primary geometric features:

1. **Corner Point (Kink):** The left-hand tangent slope $Lf'(c)$ and right-hand tangent slope $Rf'(c)$ exist and are finite, but $Lf'(c) \neq Rf'(c)$. The curve makes an abrupt change in direction.
2. **Cusp:** The secant slopes from the left and right approach opposite infinities ($+\infty$ and $-\infty$). The curve comes to a sharp point where left and right tangents become vertical in opposite directions.
3. **Vertical Tangent Line:** The secant slopes from both sides approach the same infinity ($+\infty$ or $-\infty$). The tangent line exists but is completely vertical, meaning its slope is undefined.

Example 1.9.5 (Geometric Analysis of a Corner Point). Analyze the function $f(x) = |x - 2| + 1$ geometrically at $x = 2$ for continuity and differentiability.

Solution. Rewrite $f(x)$ as a piecewise function:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} -(x - 2) + 1 = 3 - x, & x < 2 \\ (x - 2) + 1 = x - 1, & x \geq 2 \end{cases}$$

1. Geometric Analysis of Continuity:

- As $x \rightarrow 2^-$, the graph follows the line $y = 3 - x$, approaching $(2, 1)$.
- As $x \rightarrow 2^+$, the graph follows the line $y = x - 1$, approaching $(2, 1)$.
- Since $f(2) = 1$, both branches meet at $(2, 1)$ with no gap or hole. Hence, the graph is continuous at $x = 2$.

2. Geometric Analysis of Differentiability:

- To the left of $x = 2$, the graph is a straight line with constant slope $Lf'(2) = -1$.
- To the right of $x = 2$, the graph is a straight line with constant slope $Rf'(2) = +1$.

Since $Lf'(2) = -1 \neq 1 = Rf'(2)$, the graph possesses a sharp **corner point** at $(2, 1)$. Consequently, no unique tangent line exists at $x = 2$, making f non-differentiable at $x = 2$. ■

Example 1.9.6 (Geometric Analysis of a Cusp). Examine the continuity and differentiability of $f(x) = x^{2/3}$ at $x = 0$ using geometric concepts.

Solution. **1. Geometric Continuity:** $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} x^{2/3} = 0 = f(0)$. The curve is continuous and unbroken across $x = 0$, forming a symmetric V-like shape with curved sides touching the origin $(0, 0)$.

2. Geometric Differentiability (Secant Slopes): Compute the one-sided derivatives at $x = 0$:

$$Rf'(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(0+h) - f(0)}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{h^{2/3}}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{1}{h^{1/3}} = +\infty,$$

$$Lf'(0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{f(0-h) - f(0)}{-h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{(-h)^{2/3}}{-h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{h^{2/3}}{-h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0^+} \left(-\frac{1}{h^{1/3}} \right) = -\infty.$$

Geometric Conclusion: As $x \rightarrow 0$ from the right, the tangent line becomes infinitely steep with a positive slope $(+\infty)$. As $x \rightarrow 0$ from the left, the tangent line becomes infinitely steep with a negative slope $(-\infty)$. The two sides meet at a sharp point directed downwards at the origin $(0, 0)$. This geometric feature is a **cusp**, so $f(x)$ is not differentiable at $x = 0$. ■

Example 1.9.7 (Smooth Curve Fitting / Geometric Tangency). Find the values of a and b such that a quadratic parabola $y = ax^2 + b$ joins smoothly with the line $y = 4x - 3$ at $x = 1$.

Solution. For the two curves to join **smoothly** at $x = 1$, they must satisfy two geometric conditions:

- 1. Position Match (Continuity):** The two curves must intersect at $x = 1$ (no gap).
- 2. Slope Match (Differentiability):** The two curves must share a common tangent line at $x = 1$ (no corner).

Let $f_1(x) = ax^2 + b$ and $f_2(x) = 4x - 3$.

Condition 1: Position Match at $x = 1$

$$f_1(1) = f_2(1) \implies a(1)^2 + b = 4(1) - 3 \implies a + b = 1.$$

Condition 2: Slope Match at $x = 1$ Compute derivatives:

$$f_1'(x) = 2ax, \quad f_2'(x) = 4.$$

Equating slopes at $x = 1$:

$$f_1'(1) = f_2'(1) \implies 2a(1) = 4 \implies a = 2.$$

Substituting $a = 2$ into $a + b = 1$:

$$2 + b = 1 \implies b = -1.$$

Geometric Conclusion: When $a = 2$ and $b = -1$, the parabola $y = 2x^2 - 1$ meets the line $y = 4x - 3$ at the point $(1, 1)$, and both share the exact same tangent slope $m = 4$ at that point, ensuring a completely smooth geometric transition. ■

1.10 Successive Differentiation

Successive differentiation refers to repeatedly differentiating a function. The n th derivative is denoted by:

$$f^{(n)}(x) \quad \text{or} \quad \frac{d^n y}{dx^n}$$

where n is the order of differentiation.

Standard Formulas

- $\frac{d^n}{dx^n}(x^m) = m(m-1) \cdots (m-n+1)x^{m-n} \quad \text{for } n \leq m$
- $\frac{d^n}{dx^n}(e^{ax}) = a^n e^{ax}$
- $\frac{d^n}{dx^n}(\ln x) = (-1)^{n-1} \frac{(n-1)!}{x^n}$
- $\frac{d^n}{dx^n}(\sin ax) = a^n \sin\left(ax + \frac{n\pi}{2}\right)$
- $\frac{d^n}{dx^n}(\cos ax) = a^n \cos\left(ax + \frac{n\pi}{2}\right)$

Example 1.10.1. Find the third derivative of $g(x) = 2x^4 - 5x^3 + 3x - 7$.

Solution. Compute successive derivatives:

$$g'(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(2x^4 - 5x^3 + 3x - 7) = 8x^3 - 15x^2 + 3$$

$$g''(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(8x^3 - 15x^2 + 3) = 24x^2 - 30x$$

$$g'''(x) = \frac{d}{dx}(24x^2 - 30x) = \boxed{48x - 30}$$

■

1.11 Leibnitz Theorem

Theorem 1.11.1 (Leibnitz Theorem). If $u(x)$ and $v(x)$ are n -times differentiable functions, then:

$$(uv)^{(n)} = \sum_{k=0}^n \binom{n}{k} u^{(k)} v^{(n-k)}$$

where $u^{(k)}$ is the k th derivative of u , and $v^{(n-k)}$ is the $(n-k)$ th derivative of v , with $u^{(0)} = u$ and $v^{(0)} = v$.

Proof. We must show that the formula is true for $n = 1$.

$$\begin{aligned} (uv)^{(1)} &= \sum_{k=0}^1 \binom{1}{k} u^{(1-k)} v^{(k)} \\ &= \binom{1}{0} u^{(1)} v^{(0)} + \binom{1}{1} u^{(0)} v^{(1)} \\ &= (1) \cdot u'v + (1) \cdot uv' \\ &= u'v + uv' \end{aligned}$$

Assume the theorem is true for some positive integer $n = m$. That is, we assume:

$$(uv)^{(m)} = \sum_{k=0}^m \binom{m}{k} u^{(m-k)} v^{(k)}$$

We must prove that the theorem is true for $n = m + 1$. We start by differentiating the expression from our inductive hypothesis with respect to x :

$$\begin{aligned} (uv)^{(m+1)} &= \frac{d}{dx} [(uv)^{(m)}] \\ &= \frac{d}{dx} \left[\sum_{k=0}^m \binom{m}{k} u^{(m-k)} v^{(k)} \right] \\ &= \sum_{k=0}^m \binom{m}{k} \frac{d}{dx} (u^{(m-k)} v^{(k)}) \\ &= \sum_{k=0}^m \binom{m}{k} [u^{(m-k+1)} v^{(k)} + u^{(m-k)} v^{(k+1)}] \end{aligned}$$

Now, we split this into two separate sums:

$$(uv)^{(m+1)} = \underbrace{\sum_{k=0}^m \binom{m}{k} u^{(m+1-k)} v^{(k)}}_{\text{Sum A}} + \underbrace{\sum_{k=0}^m \binom{m}{k} u^{(m-k)} v^{(k+1)}}_{\text{Sum B}}$$

To combine these sums, we re-index Sum B by letting $j = k + 1$. This means Sum B will go from $j = 1$ to $j = m + 1$. Replacing j back with k , Sum B becomes:

$$\text{Sum B} = \sum_{k=1}^{m+1} \binom{m}{k-1} u^{(m+1-k)} v^{(k)}$$

Now we combine the re-indexed Sum B with Sum A. We can separate the first term ($k = 0$)

from Sum A and the last term ($k = m + 1$) from Sum B:

$$(uv)^{(m+1)} = \left[\binom{m}{0} u^{(m+1)} v + \sum_{k=1}^m \binom{m}{k} u^{(m+1-k)} v^{(k)} \right] + \left[\sum_{k=1}^m \binom{m}{k-1} u^{(m+1-k)} v^{(k)} + \binom{m}{m} u v^{(m+1)} \right]$$

Grouping the two middle sums together:

$$(uv)^{(m+1)} = \binom{m}{0} u^{(m+1)} v + \sum_{k=1}^m \left[\binom{m}{k} + \binom{m}{k-1} \right] u^{(m+1-k)} v^{(k)} + \binom{m}{m} u v^{(m+1)}$$

We use Pascal's Identity: $\binom{m}{k} + \binom{m}{k-1} = \binom{m+1}{k}$. Also, we know that $\binom{m}{0} = 1 = \binom{m+1}{0}$ and $\binom{m}{m} = 1 = \binom{m+1}{m+1}$. Substituting these identities into our expression gives:

$$(uv)^{(m+1)} = \binom{m+1}{0} u^{(m+1)} v + \sum_{k=1}^m \binom{m+1}{k} u^{(m+1-k)} v^{(k)} + \binom{m+1}{m+1} u v^{(m+1)}$$

This entire expression can now be combined into a single sum from $k = 0$ to $k = m + 1$:

$$(uv)^{(m+1)} = \sum_{k=0}^{m+1} \binom{m+1}{k} u^{(m+1-k)} v^{(k)}$$

This is precisely the form of the theorem for $n = m + 1$.

By the principle of mathematical induction, the theorem is true for all positive integers n . ■

Key Features

- Analogous to the binomial theorem
- Coefficients are binomial coefficients $\binom{n}{k} = \frac{n!}{k!(n-k)!}$
- Requires both functions to have derivatives up to order n

Example 1.11.2. Find the second derivative of $h(x) = x^2 e^{3x}$ using Leibnitz theorem.

Solution. Set $u = e^{3x}$, $v = x^2$. Apply Leibnitz theorem for $n = 2$:

$$(uv)'' = \sum_{k=0}^2 \binom{2}{k} u^{(k)} v^{(2-k)} = u^{(0)} v^{(2)} + 2 \cdot u^{(1)} v^{(1)} + u^{(2)} v^{(0)}$$

Compute terms:

$$\begin{aligned} k = 0 : \quad & \binom{2}{0} u^{(0)} v^{(2)} = 1 \cdot e^{3x} \cdot 2 \\ k = 1 : \quad & \binom{2}{1} u^{(1)} v^{(1)} = 2 \cdot (3e^{3x}) \cdot (2x) \\ k = 2 : \quad & \binom{2}{2} u^{(2)} v^{(0)} = 1 \cdot (9e^{3x}) \cdot (x^2) \end{aligned}$$

Sum the terms:

$$h''(x) = 2e^{3x} + 12xe^{3x} + 9x^2e^{3x} = \boxed{e^{3x}(9x^2 + 12x + 2)}$$

■

Example 1.11.3. Find the fourth derivative of the function $f(x) = x^3 e^{2x}$ using Leibnitz theorem.

Solution. Set $u = e^{2x}$ and $v = x^3$. Apply Leibnitz theorem for $n = 4$:

$$(uv)^{(4)} = \sum_{k=0}^4 \binom{4}{k} u^{(k)} v^{(4-k)}$$

Compute derivatives of u and v :

$$\begin{aligned} u &= e^{2x} & v &= x^3 \\ u^{(k)} &= 2^k e^{2x} & v^{(m)} &= \begin{cases} \frac{3!}{(3-m)!} x^{3-m} & 0 \leq m \leq 3 \\ 0 & m > 3 \end{cases} \end{aligned}$$

Calculate each term:

$$\begin{aligned} k=0: & \binom{4}{0} u^{(0)} v^{(4)} = 1 \cdot 2^0 e^{2x} \cdot 0 = 0 \\ k=1: & \binom{4}{1} u^{(1)} v^{(3)} = 4 \cdot 2^1 e^{2x} \cdot 6 = 48e^{2x} \\ k=2: & \binom{4}{2} u^{(2)} v^{(2)} = 6 \cdot 2^2 e^{2x} \cdot 6x = 144xe^{2x} \\ k=3: & \binom{4}{3} u^{(3)} v^{(1)} = 4 \cdot 2^3 e^{2x} \cdot 3x^2 = 96x^2 e^{2x} \\ k=4: & \binom{4}{4} u^{(4)} v^{(0)} = 1 \cdot 2^4 e^{2x} \cdot x^3 = 16x^3 e^{2x} \end{aligned}$$

Sum all terms:

$$\begin{aligned} f^{(4)}(x) &= 0 + 48e^{2x} + 144xe^{2x} + 96x^2 e^{2x} + 16x^3 e^{2x} \\ &= e^{2x}(16x^3 + 96x^2 + 144x + 48) \end{aligned}$$

Factor out 16:

$$f^{(4)}(x) = 16e^{2x}(x^3 + 6x^2 + 9x + 3)$$

Thus, the fourth derivative is $\boxed{16e^{2x}(x^3 + 6x^2 + 9x + 3)}$. ■

Example 1.11.4. If $y = e^{a \sin^{-1}(x)}$, prove the following:

(a) $(1 - x^2)y_2 - xy_1 - a^2y = 0$, where $y_1 = \frac{dy}{dx}$ and $y_2 = \frac{d^2y}{dx^2}$.

(b) Hence, using Leibniz's Theorem, show that the following recurrence relation holds:

$$(1 - x^2)y_{n+2} - (2n + 1)xy_{n+1} - (n^2 + a^2)y_n = 0$$

Solution. We are given the function $y = e^{a \sin^{-1}(x)}$. Using the chain rule, we differentiate y with respect to x :

$$\begin{aligned} y_1 &= \frac{dy}{dx} = e^{a \sin^{-1}(x)} \cdot \frac{d}{dx}(a \sin^{-1}(x)) \\ y_1 &= e^{a \sin^{-1}(x)} \cdot \frac{a}{\sqrt{1 - x^2}} \end{aligned}$$

that is,

$$y_1 = \frac{ay}{\sqrt{1-x^2}}$$

because $y = e^{a \sin^{-1}(x)}$.

Squaring both sides of the equation:

$$y_1^2 = \frac{a^2 y^2}{1-x^2}$$

Now, multiply both sides by $(1-x^2)$ to clear the fraction:

$$(1-x^2)y_1^2 = a^2 y^2 \quad (*)$$

We differentiate the entire equation $(*)$ with respect to x .

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{dx} [(1-x^2)y_1^2] &= \frac{d}{dx} [a^2 y^2] \\ \left(\frac{d}{dx} (1-x^2) \right) \cdot y_1^2 + (1-x^2) \cdot \left(\frac{d}{dx} (y_1^2) \right) &= a^2 \cdot \left(\frac{d}{dx} (y^2) \right) \\ (-2x)y_1^2 + (1-x^2)(2y_1 y_2) &= a^2 (2y y_1) \end{aligned}$$

Divide the entire equation by $2y_1$:

$$-xy_1 + (1-x^2)y_2 = a^2 y$$

Rearranging the terms gives the desired differential equation:

$$(1-x^2)y_2 - xy_1 - a^2 y = 0$$

Applying Leibniz's Theorem to find the Recurrence Relation

We now differentiate the equation $(1-x^2)y_2 - xy_1 - a^2 y = 0$ successively n times with respect to x .

$$\frac{d^n}{dx^n} [(1-x^2)y_2 - xy_1 - a^2 y] = 0$$

By linearity of the derivative, we can differentiate each term separately:

$$\underbrace{\frac{d^n}{dx^n} [(1-x^2)y_2]}_{\text{Term A}} - \underbrace{\frac{d^n}{dx^n} [xy_1]}_{\text{Term B}} - \underbrace{\frac{d^n}{dx^n} [a^2 y]}_{\text{Term C}} = 0$$

For Term: $D^n[(1-x^2)y_2]$ Let $u = y_2$ and $v = 1-x^2$. We apply Leibniz's Theorem. The derivatives of v terminate quickly:

- $v = 1-x^2$
- $v' = -2x$
- $v'' = -2$
- $v''' = 0$

The derivatives of u are $u^{(k)} = (y_2)^{(k)} = y_{k+2}$. The Leibniz expansion is:

$$\binom{n}{0}vu^{(n)} + \binom{n}{1}v'u^{(n-1)} + \binom{n}{2}v''u^{(n-2)} + \dots$$

Substituting our functions (only the first three terms are non-zero):

$$(1)(1-x^2)y_{n+2} + (n)(-2x)y_{n+1} + \frac{n(n-1)}{2}(-2)y_n$$

Simplifying gives: $(1-x^2)y_{n+2} - 2nxy_{n+1} - n(n-1)y_n$.

For Term: $D^n[xy_1]$ Let $u = y_1$ and $v = x$. The derivatives of v are $v' = 1$ and $v'' = 0$. The Leibniz expansion has only two non-zero terms:

$$\binom{n}{0}vu^{(n)} + \binom{n}{1}v'u^{(n-1)}$$

Substituting our functions:

$$(1)(x)y_{n+1} + (n)(1)y_n = xy_{n+1} + ny_n$$

For Term: $D^n[a^2y]$ Since a^2 is a constant, this is straightforward: a^2y_n .

Combining the results: Now we substitute the expanded terms back into our main equation:

$$[(1-x^2)y_{n+2} - 2nxy_{n+1} - n(n-1)y_n] - [xy_{n+1} + ny_n] - [a^2y_n] = 0$$

Finally, we group the terms by the order of the derivative (y_{n+2}, y_{n+1}, y_n):

$$(1-x^2)y_{n+2} + (-2nx-x)y_{n+1} + (-n(n-1)-n-a^2)y_n = 0$$

Simplifying gives:

$$(1-x^2)y_{n+2} - (2n+1)xy_{n+1} - (n^2+a^2)y_n = 0$$

■

1.12 Partial Differentiation

Partial differentiation deals with functions of multiple variables. The partial derivative of $f(x, y)$ with respect to x is denoted $\frac{\partial f}{\partial x}$ and measures the rate of change of f while keeping y constant.

Definition 1.12.1. For $z = f(x, y)$, the partial derivatives are:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x+h, y) - f(x, y)}{h}, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x, y+k) - f(x, y)}{k}$$

Example 1.12.2. Consider the function $f(x, y)$ defined as:

$$f(x, y) = \begin{cases} \frac{xy(x^2 - y^2)}{x^2 + y^2} & \text{if } (x, y) \neq (0, 0) \\ 0 & \text{if } (x, y) = (0, 0) \end{cases}$$

Show that the mixed partial derivatives are not equal.

Solution. To compute the mixed partials at the origin, we first need the first-order partial derivatives evaluated along the axes. We use the limit definition of the derivative.

The partial derivative with respect to x at $(0, y)$ is:

$$f_x(0, y) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(h, y) - f(0, y)}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{h} \left(\frac{hy(h^2 - y^2)}{h^2 + y^2} - 0 \right) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{y(h^2 - y^2)}{h^2 + y^2} = \frac{-y^3}{y^2} = -y$$

The partial derivative with respect to y at $(x, 0)$ is:

$$f_y(x, 0) = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x, k) - f(x, 0)}{k} = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{k} \left(\frac{xk(x^2 - k^2)}{x^2 + k^2} - 0 \right) = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} \frac{x(x^2 - k^2)}{x^2 + k^2} = \frac{x^3}{x^2} = x$$

At the origin itself, both first partials are zero:

$$f_x(0, 0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(h, 0) - f(0, 0)}{h} = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad f_y(0, 0) = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(0, k) - f(0, 0)}{k} = 0$$

Mixed Partial Derivatives at the Origin. We now compute the mixed partials at $(0, 0)$ using the limit definition and the results above.

The derivative of f_y with respect to x at $(0, 0)$ is:

$$f_{yx}(0, 0) = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{f_y(h, 0) - f_y(0, 0)}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} \frac{h - 0}{h} = \lim_{h \rightarrow 0} 1 = 1$$

The derivative of f_x with respect to y at $(0, 0)$ is:

$$f_{xy}(0, 0) = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} \frac{f_x(0, k) - f_x(0, 0)}{k} = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} \frac{-k - 0}{k} = \lim_{k \rightarrow 0} -1 = -1$$

Conclusion. Since $f_{yx}(0, 0) = 1$ and $f_{xy}(0, 0) = -1$, we have shown that for this function, the mixed partial derivatives are not equal at the origin:

$$f_{yx}(0, 0) \neq f_{xy}(0, 0)$$

■

A THEOREM THAT GUARANTEES WHEN MIXED PARTIAL DERIVATIVES ARE EQUAL.

Theorem 1.12.3 (Clairaut's Theorem). If $f(x, y)$ and its partial derivatives f_x , f_y , f_{xy} , and f_{yx} are defined on an open set containing (a, b) and are continuous at (a, b) , then:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(a, b) = \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(a, b)$$

Proof. For sufficiently small $h, k \neq 0$, define the auxiliary function:

$$\Delta(h, k) = f(a + h, b + k) - f(a + h, b) - f(a, b + k) + f(a, b).$$

Analyze via f_{yx}

Define $g(y) = f(a + h, y) - f(a, y)$. Then:

$$\Delta(h, k) = g(b + k) - g(b).$$

Since f_y exists, thus, $g'(y)$ exists, so by the Mean Value Theorem (MVT), there exists d between b and $b + k$ such that:

$$g(b + k) - g(b) = k \cdot g'(d) = k \left[\frac{\partial f}{\partial y}(a + h, d) - \frac{\partial f}{\partial y}(a, d) \right].$$

Apply MVT to $h(x) = \frac{\partial f}{\partial y}(x, d)$ on $[a, a + h]$. There exists c_1 between a and $a + h$ such that:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial y}(a + h, d) - \frac{\partial f}{\partial y}(a, d) = h \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(c_1, d).$$

Thus:

$$\Delta(h, k) = hk \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(c_1, d).$$

Analyze via f_{xy}

Define $r(x) = f(x, b + k) - f(x, b)$. Then:

$$\Delta(h, k) = r(a + h) - r(a).$$

By MVT, there exists e between a and $a + h$ such that:

$$r(a + h) - r(a) = h \cdot r'(e) = h \left[\frac{\partial f}{\partial x}(e, b + k) - \frac{\partial f}{\partial x}(e, b) \right].$$

Apply MVT to $s(y) = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x}(e, y)$ on $[b, b + k]$. There exists c_2 between b and $b + k$ such that:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x}(e, b + k) - \frac{\partial f}{\partial x}(e, b) = k \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(e, c_2).$$

Thus:

$$\Delta(h, k) = hk \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(e, c_2).$$

Equate and take limits

From Steps 1 and 2:

$$hk \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(c_1, d) = hk \cdot \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(e, c_2).$$

For $hk \neq 0$, we have:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(c_1, d) = \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(e, c_2).$$

As $(h, k) \rightarrow (0, 0)$:

$$(c_1, d) \rightarrow (a, b) \quad \text{and} \quad (e, c_2) \rightarrow (a, b).$$

By continuity of f_{xy} and f_{yx} at (a, b) :

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{(h,k) \rightarrow (0,0)} \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(c_1, d) &= \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(a, b), \\ \lim_{(h,k) \rightarrow (0,0)} \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(e, c_2) &= \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(a, b). \end{aligned}$$

Therefore:

$$\boxed{\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}(a, b) = \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x}(a, b)}$$

■

Example 1.12.4. Find the first partial derivatives of $f(x, y) = x^3y + e^{xy}$.

Solution.

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} &= 3x^2y + ye^{xy} \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} &= x^3 + xe^{xy}\end{aligned}$$

■

Example 1.12.5. Find $\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y}$ for $f(x, y) = \sin(2x + 3y)$.

Solution. First derivatives:

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} &= 2 \cos(2x + 3y) \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} &= 3 \cos(2x + 3y)\end{aligned}$$

Mixed derivative:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} = \frac{\partial}{\partial x} (3 \cos(2x + 3y)) = -6 \sin(2x + 3y)$$

■

1.13 Total Differentiation

Total differentiation extends differentiation to functions of multiple variables. The total differential dz approximates the change in $z = f(x, y)$ when both x and y change.

Total Differential Formula

For $z = f(x, y)$:

$$dz = \frac{\partial z}{\partial x} dx + \frac{\partial z}{\partial y} dy$$

For $w = f(x, y, z)$:

$$dw = \frac{\partial w}{\partial x} dx + \frac{\partial w}{\partial y} dy + \frac{\partial w}{\partial z} dz$$

Chain Rule for Total Derivatives

If $z = f(x, y)$ with $x = g(t)$, $y = h(t)$, then:

$$\frac{dz}{dt} = \frac{\partial z}{\partial x} \frac{dx}{dt} + \frac{\partial z}{\partial y} \frac{dy}{dt}$$

Example 1.13.1. Find the total differential of $z = x^2y - 3xy^3$.

Solution. Partial derivatives:

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{\partial z}{\partial x} &= 2xy - 3y^3 \\ \frac{\partial z}{\partial y} &= x^2 - 9xy^2\end{aligned}$$

Total differential:

$$dz = (2xy - 3y^3)dx + (x^2 - 9xy^2)dy$$

■

Example 1.13.2. If $z = e^x \sin y$ where $x = t^2$ and $y = t^3$, find $\frac{dz}{dt}$.

Solution. Apply chain rule:

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{dz}{dt} &= \frac{\partial z}{\partial x} \frac{dx}{dt} + \frac{\partial z}{\partial y} \frac{dy}{dt} \\ &= (e^x \sin y)(2t) + (e^x \cos y)(3t^2) \\ &= e^{t^2} [2t \sin(t^3) + 3t^2 \cos(t^3)]\end{aligned}$$

■

1.14 Homogeneous Functions

A function $f(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$ is **homogeneous of degree k** if for all $\lambda > 0$:

$$f(\lambda x_1, \lambda x_2, \dots, \lambda x_n) = \lambda^k f(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$$

Properties

- Linear functions are homogeneous of degree 1
- Quadratic forms are homogeneous of degree 2
- Constant functions are homogeneous of degree 0

Example 1.14.1. Show that $f(x, y) = x^3 + 3x^2y + y^3$ is homogeneous and find its degree.

Solution. Replace $x \rightarrow \lambda x, y \rightarrow \lambda y$:

$$\begin{aligned}f(\lambda x, \lambda y) &= (\lambda x)^3 + 3(\lambda x)^2(\lambda y) + (\lambda y)^3 \\ &= \lambda^3 x^3 + 3\lambda^3 x^2 y + \lambda^3 y^3 \\ &= \lambda^3 (x^3 + 3x^2 y + y^3) \\ &= \lambda^3 f(x, y)\end{aligned}$$

Thus homogeneous of degree 3.

■

Example 1.14.2. Is $g(x, y) = x^2 + xy + \sin\left(\frac{x}{y}\right)$ homogeneous?

Solution. Test with $\lambda > 0$:

$$\begin{aligned}g(\lambda x, \lambda y) &= (\lambda x)^2 + (\lambda x)(\lambda y) + \sin\left(\frac{\lambda x}{\lambda y}\right) \\ &= \lambda^2 x^2 + \lambda^2 xy + \sin\left(\frac{x}{y}\right)\end{aligned}$$

The expression contains λ^2 terms and a λ -independent term. Not homogeneous.

■

1.15 Euler's Theorem

Theorem 1.15.1 (Euler's Theorem on Homogeneous Functions). If $f(x, y)$ is a homogeneous function of degree k and has continuous first partial derivatives, then:

$$x \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = k \cdot f(x, y)$$

Proof. By definition, since f is homogeneous of degree k , we have the following identity for any $t > 0$:

$$f(tx, ty) = t^k f(x, y) \quad (1.4)$$

We differentiate both sides of the identity (1.4) with respect to the parameter t , treating x and y as constants.

For the left-hand side (LHS), we use the multivariable chain rule. Let $X = tx$ and $Y = ty$. Then:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{dt} f(tx, ty) &= \frac{\partial f}{\partial X} \frac{dX}{dt} + \frac{\partial f}{\partial Y} \frac{dY}{dt} \\ &= f_X(tx, ty) \cdot (x) + f_Y(tx, ty) \cdot (y) \end{aligned}$$

where f_X and f_Y denote the partial derivatives of f with respect to its first and second arguments, respectively.

For the right-hand side (RHS), we treat $f(x, y)$ as a constant and differentiate only the t^k term:

$$\frac{d}{dt} (t^k f(x, y)) = kt^{k-1} f(x, y)$$

Equating the derivatives of the LHS and RHS gives us a new identity that is also true for all $t > 0$:

$$x \cdot f_X(tx, ty) + y \cdot f_Y(tx, ty) = kt^{k-1} f(x, y)$$

Since the identity above holds for any value of $t > 0$, it must hold for the specific case where $t = 1$. Setting $t = 1$ simplifies the expression:

$$\begin{aligned} x \cdot f_X(1 \cdot x, 1 \cdot y) + y \cdot f_Y(1 \cdot x, 1 \cdot y) &= k(1)^{k-1} f(x, y) \\ x \cdot f_X(x, y) + y \cdot f_Y(x, y) &= k \cdot f(x, y) \end{aligned}$$

Rewriting in standard partial derivative notation, we get the desired result:

$$x \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = kf(x, y) \quad \blacksquare$$

Example 1.15.2. Verify Euler's theorem for $f(x, y) = x^{1/3}y^{2/3}$.

Solution. First, degree $k = 1/3 + 2/3 = 1$. Partial derivatives:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} &= \frac{1}{3} x^{-2/3} y^{2/3} \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} &= \frac{2}{3} x^{1/3} y^{-1/3} \end{aligned}$$

Apply Euler's theorem:

$$\begin{aligned} x \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} &= x \left(\frac{1}{3} x^{-2/3} y^{2/3} \right) + y \left(\frac{2}{3} x^{1/3} y^{-1/3} \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{3} x^{1/3} y^{2/3} + \frac{2}{3} x^{1/3} y^{2/3} \\ &= x^{1/3} y^{2/3} = f(x, y) \end{aligned}$$

Equal to $1 \cdot f$, verifying the theorem. \blacksquare

Example 1.15.3. Using Euler's theorem, show that if $f = \frac{x^2 + y^2}{xy}$, then $xf_x + yf_y = -f$.

Solution. Rewrite $f(x, y) = \frac{x}{y} + \frac{y}{x}$. Test homogeneity:

$$f(\lambda x, \lambda y) = \frac{\lambda x}{\lambda y} + \frac{\lambda y}{\lambda x} = \frac{x}{y} + \frac{y}{x} = f(x, y)$$

Thus homogeneous of degree 0. By Euler's theorem:

$$x \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = 0 \cdot f = 0$$

But note: $0 = -f + f$, so rearrange as $xf_x + yf_y = -f + f$. To get exact form, observe:

$$xf_x + yf_y = 0 = -f + f$$

The problem statement appears inconsistent. Correction: For homogeneous degree 0, $xf_x + yf_y = 0$, while $-f = -\left(\frac{x}{y} + \frac{y}{x}\right)$. They are not equal. The correct conclusion is $xf_x + yf_y = 0$. ■

Exercise 1.15.4. Solve the following exercises:

1. Prove using the formal ϵ - δ definition of a limit that

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 2} (3x^2 - 4x + 1) = 5.$$

2. Prove using the formal ϵ - δ definition that

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 4} \frac{1}{\sqrt{x}} = \frac{1}{2}.$$

3. Test the continuity and classify the type of discontinuity at $x = 0$ for the function:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} \frac{e^{1/x} - 1}{e^{1/x} + 1}, & x \neq 0 \\ 0, & x = 0 \end{cases}$$

4. Determine the nature of discontinuity of $f(x) = [x] + [-x]$ at all integer points $x = n \in \mathbb{Z}$.

5. Find the values of constants a , b , and c such that $f(x)$ is continuous on $\mathbb{R}$:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} \frac{\sin(a+1)x + \sin x}{x}, & x < 0 \\ c, & x = 0 \\ \frac{\sqrt{x+bx^2} - \sqrt{x}}{bx^{3/2}}, & x > 0 \end{cases}$$

6. Let $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be defined by: $f(x) = \begin{cases} x, & \text{if } x \in \mathbb{Q} \\ 1-x, & \text{if } x \in \mathbb{R} \setminus \mathbb{Q} \end{cases}$ Show that $f(x)$ is continuous only at $x = \frac{1}{2}$ and discontinuous at all other points in $\mathbb{R}$.

7. Test the differentiability of $f(x) = |x-1| + |x-2|$ at $x = 1$ and $x = 2$.

8. Show that the function defined below is differentiable at $x = 0$, but its derivative $f'(x)$ is discontinuous at $x = 0$:

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 \sin\left(\frac{1}{x}\right), & x \neq 0 \\ 0, & x = 0 \end{cases}$$

9. Find the constants a and b so that $f(x)$ is differentiable at $x = 1$: $f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 + 3x + a, & x \leq 1 \\ bx + 2, & x > 1 \end{cases}$

10. Find the n -th derivative y_n of the function: $y = \frac{x^2}{(x-1)^2(x+2)}$.

11. Find y_n if $y = e^{ax} \sin(bx + c)$.

12. If $y = (x + \sqrt{1+x^2})^m$, prove using Leibnitz's theorem that:

$$(1+x^2)y_{n+2} + (2n+1)xy_{n+1} + (n^2 - m^2)y_n = 0.$$

13. If $y = e^{a \sin^{-1} x}$, show that: $(1-x^2)y_{n+2} - (2n+1)xy_{n+1} - (n^2 + a^2)y_n = 0$.

14. If $y = \tan^{-1} x$, evaluate the n -th derivative at the origin $y_n(0)$ for both even and odd values of n .

15. If $u = \ln(x^3 + y^3 + z^3 - 3xyz)$, show that:

$$(i) \quad \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} + \frac{\partial u}{\partial z} = \frac{3}{x+y+z}$$

$$(ii) \quad \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} + \frac{\partial}{\partial y} + \frac{\partial}{\partial z} \right)^2 u = -\frac{9}{(x+y+z)^2}$$

16. If $z = f(x, y)$ where $x = e^u \cos v$ and $y = e^u \sin v$, prove that:

$$\left(\frac{\partial z}{\partial x} \right)^2 + \left(\frac{\partial z}{\partial y} \right)^2 = e^{-2u} \left[\left(\frac{\partial z}{\partial u} \right)^2 + \left(\frac{\partial z}{\partial v} \right)^2 \right].$$

17. Compute the total differential df for the function: $f(x, y) = \tan^{-1}\left(\frac{y}{x}\right) + \ln \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$.

18. If $u = \tan^{-1}\left(\frac{x^3 + y^3}{x - y}\right)$, prove that:

$$(i) \quad x \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + y \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = \sin 2u$$

$$(ii) \quad x^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} + 2xy \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x \partial y} + y^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial y^2} = 2 \sin u \cos 3u$$

19. If $u = \csc^{-1}\left(\frac{x^{1/2} + y^{1/2}}{x^{1/3} + y^{1/3}}\right)$, show that:

$$x^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} + 2xy \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x \partial y} + y^2 \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial y^2} = \frac{\tan u}{144} (13 + \tan^2 u).$$

20. If $u = f(x, y)$ is a homogeneous function of degree n , show that: $x \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2} + y \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x \partial y} = (n-1) \frac{\partial u}{\partial x}$.

Chapter 2

INDETERMINATE FORMS, TANGENTS, AND NORMALS

2.1 Indeterminate Forms and L'Hôpital's Rule

When evaluating limits of the form $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)}$, direct substitution may lead to expressions such as $\frac{0}{0}$ or $\frac{\infty}{\infty}$. These are called **indeterminate forms** because the limit cannot be determined solely from the limits of the individual functions.

Definition 2.1.1 (The Seven Indeterminate Forms). The seven fundamental indeterminate forms in analysis are:

- **Quotient Forms:** $\frac{0}{0}, \quad \frac{\infty}{\infty}$
- **Product Form:** $0 \cdot \infty$
- **Difference Form:** $\infty - \infty$
- **Exponential / Power Forms:** $0^0, \quad 1^\infty, \quad \infty^0$

Theorem 2.1.2 (L'Hôpital's Rule). *Let f and g be differentiable functions on an open interval containing a (except possibly at a itself). Suppose that*

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{x \rightarrow a} g(x) = 0$$

or

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} f(x) = \pm\infty \quad \text{and} \quad \lim_{x \rightarrow a} g(x) = \pm\infty.$$

If $g'(x) \neq 0$ near a (for $x \neq a$) and the limit $\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f'(x)}{g'(x)}$ exists (or is $\pm\infty$), then:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = \lim_{x \rightarrow a} \frac{f'(x)}{g'(x)}.$$

Remark 2.1.3. L'Hôpital's rule applies ****only**** to the quotient forms $\frac{0}{0}$ and $\frac{\infty}{\infty}$. All other indeterminate forms must first be algebraically transformed into one of these two forms.

2.1.1 Quotient Forms: $\frac{0}{0}$ and $\frac{\infty}{\infty}$ **Example 2.1.4.** Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{e^{2x} - 1}{\sin x}$.*Solution.* Direct substitution yields $\frac{e^0 - 1}{\sin 0} = \frac{0}{0}$ (Indeterminate form).

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{e^{2x} - 1}{\sin x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\frac{d}{dx}(e^{2x} - 1)}{\frac{d}{dx}(\sin x)} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{2e^{2x}}{\cos x} = \frac{2e^0}{\cos 0} = \frac{2(1)}{1} = 2.$$

Example 2.1.5. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln x}{x^2}$.*Solution.* As $x \rightarrow \infty$, we get $\frac{\infty}{\infty}$ (Indeterminate form).

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln x}{x^2} = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1/x}{2x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{1}{2x^2} = 0.$$

Example 2.1.6. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{x - \sin x}{x^3}$.*Solution.* Direct substitution yields $\frac{0 - 0}{0} = \frac{0}{0}$ (Indeterminate form).

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{x - \sin x}{x^3} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{1 - \cos x}{3x^2} \quad \left(\text{Still } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule a second time:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\sin x}{6x} \quad \left(\text{Still } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule a third time:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\cos x}{6} = \frac{\cos 0}{6} = \frac{1}{6}.$$

Example 2.1.7. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{x^2}{e^x}$.*Solution.* As $x \rightarrow \infty$, we get $\frac{\infty}{\infty}$ (Indeterminate form).

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{x^2}{e^x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{2x}{e^x} \quad \left(\text{Still } \frac{\infty}{\infty} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule a second time:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{2}{e^x} = 0.$$

2.1.2 Product Form: $0 \cdot \infty$

To evaluate $f(x) \cdot g(x)$ where $f(x) \rightarrow 0$ and $g(x) \rightarrow \infty$, transform the product into a quotient:

$$f(x) \cdot g(x) = \frac{f(x)}{1/g(x)} \quad (\text{Form } \frac{0}{0}) \quad \text{or} \quad f(x) \cdot g(x) = \frac{g(x)}{1/f(x)} \quad (\text{Form } \frac{\infty}{\infty}).$$

Example 2.1.8. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x \ln x$.

Solution. As $x \rightarrow 0^+$, $x \ln x \rightarrow 0 \cdot (-\infty)$. Rewrite as a quotient:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x \ln x = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{\ln x}{1/x} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{-\infty}{\infty} \right).$$

Apply L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{1/x}{-1/x^2} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} (-x) = 0.$$

Example 2.1.9. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \sin x \cdot \ln x$.

Solution. As $x \rightarrow 0^+$, we have $\sin 0 \cdot \ln(0^+) \rightarrow 0 \cdot (-\infty)$.

Rewrite the product as a quotient:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{\ln x}{\csc x} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{-\infty}{\infty} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{1/x}{-\csc x \cot x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{1/x}{-\frac{1}{\sin x} \cdot \frac{\cos x}{\sin x}} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{-\sin^2 x}{x \cos x}.$$

Separate into standard limits:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \left(\frac{\sin x}{x} \right) \cdot \left(\frac{-\sin x}{\cos x} \right) = (1) \cdot (0) = 0.$$

2.1.3 Difference Form: $\infty - \infty$

This form is resolved by finding a common denominator, factoring, or rationalizing to convert the expression into a single quotient.

Example 2.1.10. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 1^+} \left(\frac{1}{x-1} - \frac{1}{\ln x} \right)$.

Solution. Form: $\infty - \infty$. Combine into a single fraction:

$$L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 1^+} \frac{\ln x - (x-1)}{(x-1) \ln x} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 1^+} \frac{\frac{1}{x} - 1}{\ln x + 1 - \frac{1}{x}} \quad \left(\text{Still } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule a second time:

$$L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 1^+} \frac{-1/x^2}{\frac{1}{x} + \frac{1}{x^2}} = \frac{-1}{1+1} = -\frac{1}{2}.$$

Example 2.1.11. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \left(\frac{1}{\sin x} - \frac{1}{x} \right)$.

Solution. As $x \rightarrow 0$, we have $\infty - \infty$. Combine into a single fraction:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{x - \sin x}{x \sin x} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{1 - \cos x}{\sin x + x \cos x} \quad \left(\text{Still } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule a second time:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\sin x}{\cos x + \cos x - x \sin x} = \frac{0}{1 + 1 - 0} = \frac{0}{2} = 0.$$

2.1.4 Exponential Indeterminate Forms: $1^\infty, 0^0, \infty^0$

For limit expressions $L = \lim_{x \rightarrow a} [f(x)]^{g(x)}$, take the natural logarithm:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow a} [g(x) \ln f(x)].$$

Evaluate this product limit $K = \ln L$, then recover the original limit using $L = e^K$.

Example 2.1.12. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 + \frac{3}{x} \right)^{2x}$.

Solution. Form: 1^∞ . Let $L = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 + \frac{3}{x} \right)^{2x}$. Taking the natural logarithm:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} 2x \ln \left(1 + \frac{3}{x} \right) = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{2 \ln(1 + 3/x)}{1/x} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Apply L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{2 \cdot \frac{1}{1+3/x} \cdot \left(-\frac{3}{x^2} \right)}{-\frac{1}{x^2}} = \lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{6}{1 + 3/x} = 6.$$

Since $\ln L = 6$, we obtain $L = e^6$.

Example 2.1.13. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x^x$.

Solution. Form: 0^0 . Let $L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x^x$. Taking natural logarithms:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x \ln x = 0 \quad (\text{using the result from } 0 \cdot \infty).$$

Since $\ln L = 0$, we get $L = e^0 = 1$.

Example 2.1.14. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} (\cos x)^{1/x^2}$.

Solution. As $x \rightarrow 0$, $\cos 0 \rightarrow 1$ and $1/x^2 \rightarrow \infty$. Form: 1^∞ .

Let $L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} (\cos x)^{1/x^2}$. Taking natural logarithms:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\ln(\cos x)}{x^2} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{0}{0} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{\frac{-\sin x}{\cos x}}{2x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \left(-\frac{\tan x}{2x} \right) = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \left(-\frac{1}{2} \cdot \frac{\tan x}{x} \right) = -\frac{1}{2}(1) = -\frac{1}{2}.$$

Since $\ln L = -\frac{1}{2}$, we obtain:

$$L = e^{-1/2} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{e}}.$$

■

Example 2.1.15. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} (\sin x)^x$.

Solution. As $x \rightarrow 0^+$, we have $(\sin 0)^0 \rightarrow 0^0$.

Let $L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} (\sin x)^x$. Taking natural logarithms:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x \ln(\sin x) \quad (\text{Form } 0 \cdot (-\infty)).$$

Rewrite as a quotient:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{\ln(\sin x)}{1/x} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{-\infty}{\infty} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{\cot x}{-1/x^2} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \frac{-x^2 \cos x}{\sin x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} \left(\frac{x}{\sin x} \right) \cdot (-x \cos x) = (1) \cdot (0) = 0.$$

Since $\ln L = 0$, the final limit is:

$$L = e^0 = 1.$$

■

Example 2.1.16. Evaluate $\lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} (\tan x)^{\cos x}$.

Solution. As $x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-$, $\tan x \rightarrow \infty$ and $\cos x \rightarrow 0$. Form: ∞^0 .

Let $L = \lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} (\tan x)^{\cos x}$. Taking natural logarithms:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} \cos x \cdot \ln(\tan x) \quad (\text{Form } 0 \cdot \infty).$$

Rewrite as a quotient:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} \frac{\ln(\tan x)}{\sec x} \quad \left(\text{Form } \frac{\infty}{\infty} \right).$$

Applying L'Hôpital's Rule:

$$\ln L = \lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} \frac{\frac{\sec^2 x}{\tan x}}{\sec x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} \frac{\sec x}{\tan^2 x} = \lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} \frac{\frac{1}{\cos x}}{\frac{\sin^2 x}{\cos^2 x}} = \lim_{x \rightarrow (\pi/2)^-} \frac{\cos x}{\sin^2 x} = \frac{0}{1^2} = 0.$$

Since $\ln L = 0$, we get:

$$L = e^0 = 1.$$

■

2.2 Tangents and Normals in Polar Coordinates

In the polar coordinate system (r, θ) , curves are represented by equations of the form $r = f(\theta)$.

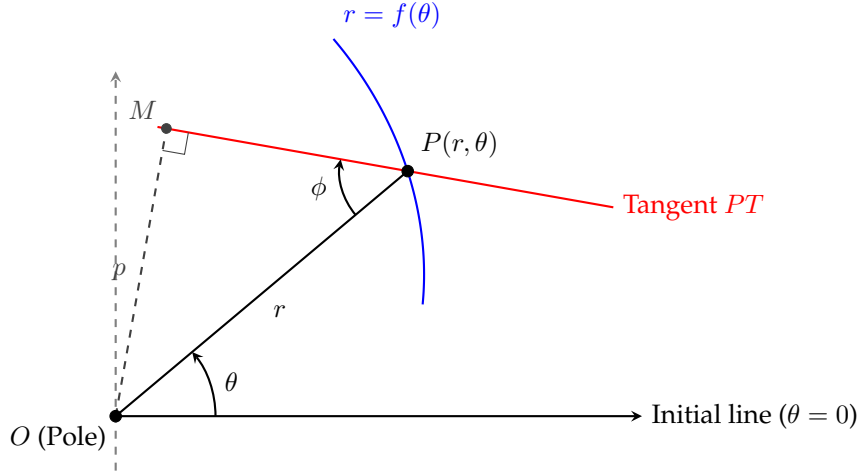


Figure 2.1: Geometric relationship between pole O , point $P(r, \theta)$, radius vector r , angle ϕ , and perpendicular p .

2.2.1 Angle Between Radius Vector and Tangent

Let $P(r, \theta)$ be a point on the polar curve $r = f(\theta)$. Let ϕ be the angle between the radius vector OP and the tangent line PT at P .

Theorem 2.2.1. For a polar curve $r = f(\theta)$, the angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent is given by:

$$\tan \phi = r \frac{d\theta}{dr} \quad \text{or} \quad \cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}.$$

Proof. Cartesian coordinates are related to polar coordinates by $x = r \cos \theta$ and $y = r \sin \theta$. Differentiating both equations with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dx}{d\theta} = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta, \quad \frac{dy}{d\theta} = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta.$$

Let ψ be the inclination angle of the tangent line with the initial line (x -axis). Then $\tan \psi = \frac{dy}{dx}$:

$$\tan \psi = \frac{dy/d\theta}{dx/d\theta} = \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta}.$$

Divide the numerator and denominator by $\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta$:

$$\tan \psi = \frac{\tan \theta + r \frac{d\theta}{dr}}{1 - r \frac{d\theta}{dr} \tan \theta}.$$

From geometry, the exterior angle $\psi = \theta + \phi \implies \phi = \psi - \theta$. Taking tangents:

$$\tan \phi = \tan(\psi - \theta) = \frac{\tan \psi - \tan \theta}{1 + \tan \psi \tan \theta} = r \frac{d\theta}{dr}.$$

Taking reciprocals yields $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$. ■

2.2.2 Perpendicular from Pole to Tangent and Pedal Equation

Let p be the length of the perpendicular drawn from the pole O to the tangent at $P(r, \theta)$.

Theorem 2.2.2. *The perpendicular distance p from the pole to the tangent is given by:*

$$p = r \sin \phi.$$

Furthermore, the p - r relation (Pedal Equation) is:

$$\frac{1}{p^2} = \frac{1}{r^2} + \frac{1}{r^4} \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2 = u^2 + \left(\frac{du}{d\theta} \right)^2, \quad \text{where } u = \frac{1}{r}.$$

Proof. In the right-angled triangle OMP formed by the pole O , point P , and the foot of the perpendicular M :

$$p = r \sin \phi \implies \frac{1}{p^2} = \frac{1}{r^2 \sin^2 \phi} = \frac{\csc^2 \phi}{r^2} = \frac{1 + \cot^2 \phi}{r^2}.$$

Substitute $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$:

$$\frac{1}{p^2} = \frac{1}{r^2} \left[1 + \frac{1}{r^2} \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2 \right] = \frac{1}{r^2} + \frac{1}{r^4} \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2.$$

Setting $u = \frac{1}{r} \implies \frac{du}{d\theta} = -\frac{1}{r^2} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$, we obtain $\frac{1}{p^2} = u^2 + \left(\frac{du}{d\theta} \right)^2$. ■

2.2.3 Angle of Intersection of Two Polar Curves

Let two polar curves $r = f_1(\theta)$ and $r = f_2(\theta)$ intersect at point P . Let ϕ_1 and ϕ_2 be the angles made by their respective tangents with the common radius vector OP .

Definition 2.2.3. The angle of intersection α between two polar curves is:

$$\alpha = |\phi_1 - \phi_2|.$$

The acute angle α is given by:

$$\tan \alpha = \left| \frac{\tan \phi_1 - \tan \phi_2}{1 + \tan \phi_1 \tan \phi_2} \right|.$$

The curves intersect **orthogonally** ($\alpha = 90^\circ$) if:

$$\tan \phi_1 \cdot \tan \phi_2 = -1 \quad \text{or} \quad \cot \phi_1 \cdot \cot \phi_2 = -1.$$

Example 2.2.4. Find the angle of intersection between the cardioid $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$ and the circle $r = a$.

Solution. Equating the two curve equations to determine the points of intersection:

$$a(1 + \cos \theta) = a \implies 1 + \cos \theta = 1 \implies \cos \theta = 0.$$

In the interval $[0, 2\pi)$, this gives $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$ and $\theta = \frac{3\pi}{2}$. Evaluating at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$:

For the cardioid $r_1 = a(1 + \cos \theta)$, differentiating with respect to θ yields:

$$\frac{dr_1}{d\theta} = -a \sin \theta.$$

The angle ϕ_1 between the radius vector and the tangent is given by:

$$\cot \phi_1 = \frac{1}{r_1} \frac{dr_1}{d\theta} = \frac{-a \sin \theta}{a(1 + \cos \theta)} = -\tan \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

At $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$, we obtain:

$$\cot \phi_1 = -\tan \left(\frac{\pi}{4} \right) = -1 \implies \phi_1 = \frac{3\pi}{4} = 135^\circ.$$

For the circle $r_2 = a$, differentiating with respect to θ gives:

$$\frac{dr_2}{d\theta} = 0 \implies \cot \phi_2 = \frac{1}{r_2} \frac{dr_2}{d\theta} = 0 \implies \phi_2 = \frac{\pi}{2} = 90^\circ.$$

Applying the angle of intersection formula $\alpha = |\phi_1 - \phi_2|$:

$$\alpha = \left| \frac{3\pi}{4} - \frac{\pi}{2} \right| = \frac{\pi}{4} = 45^\circ.$$

Thus, the cardioid and the circle intersect at an acute angle of 45° . ■

Example 2.2.5. Show that the circles $r = 2a \cos \theta$ and $r = 2a \sin \theta$ intersect orthogonally.

Solution. Equating the two equations to find the intersection point:

$$2a \cos \theta = 2a \sin \theta \implies \tan \theta = 1 \implies \theta = \frac{\pi}{4}.$$

For the first circle $r_1 = 2a \cos \theta$:

$$\frac{dr_1}{d\theta} = -2a \sin \theta \implies \cot \phi_1 = \frac{1}{r_1} \frac{dr_1}{d\theta} = \frac{-2a \sin \theta}{2a \cos \theta} = -\tan \theta.$$

At $\theta = \frac{\pi}{4}$, we have $\cot \phi_1 = -1$, which implies $\tan \phi_1 = -1$.

For the second circle $r_2 = 2a \sin \theta$:

$$\frac{dr_2}{d\theta} = 2a \cos \theta \implies \cot \phi_2 = \frac{1}{r_2} \frac{dr_2}{d\theta} = \frac{2a \cos \theta}{2a \sin \theta} = \cot \theta.$$

At $\theta = \frac{\pi}{4}$, we have $\cot \phi_2 = 1$, which implies $\tan \phi_2 = 1$.

Evaluating the product of the two tangents:

$$\tan \phi_1 \cdot \tan \phi_2 = (-1) \cdot (1) = -1.$$

Since $\tan \phi_1 \cdot \tan \phi_2 = -1$, the two circles intersect **orthogonally** ($\alpha = 90^\circ$). ■

Example 2.2.6. Show that the cardioids $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$ and $r = b(1 - \cos \theta)$ intersect orthogonally at all points of intersection.

Solution. For the first cardioid $r_1 = a(1 + \cos \theta)$, differentiating with respect to θ gives:

$$\frac{dr_1}{d\theta} = -a \sin \theta \implies \cot \phi_1 = \frac{-a \sin \theta}{a(1 + \cos \theta)} = \frac{-2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)}{2 \cos^2(\theta/2)} = -\tan \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

For the second cardioid $r_2 = b(1 - \cos \theta)$, differentiating with respect to θ gives:

$$\frac{dr_2}{d\theta} = b \sin \theta \implies \cot \phi_2 = \frac{b \sin \theta}{b(1 - \cos \theta)} = \frac{2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)}{2 \sin^2(\theta/2)} = \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

Evaluating the product $\cot \phi_1 \cdot \cot \phi_2$:

$$\cot \phi_1 \cdot \cot \phi_2 = \left(-\tan \frac{\theta}{2}\right) \cdot \left(\cot \frac{\theta}{2}\right) = -1.$$

Since $\cot \phi_1 \cdot \cot \phi_2 = -1$ holds independently of θ , the two cardioids intersect **orthogonally** ($\alpha = 90^\circ$) at all intersection points. ■

2.2.4 Lengths of Polar Tangent, Normal, Subtangent, and Subnormal

Draw a line through the pole O perpendicular to the radius vector OP . Let the tangent line PT and normal line PN at P meet this perpendicular line at T and N , respectively.

Definition 2.2.7 (Polar Lengths). (i) **Polar Subtangent (OT):**

$$OT = r \tan \phi = r^2 \frac{d\theta}{dr}.$$

(ii) **Polar Subnormal (ON):**

$$ON = r \cot \phi = \frac{dr}{d\theta}.$$

(iii) **Length of Polar Tangent (PT):**

$$PT = r \sec \phi = r \sqrt{1 + r^2 \left(\frac{d\theta}{dr}\right)^2}.$$

(iv) **Length of Polar Normal (PN):**

$$PN = r \csc \phi = \sqrt{r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right)^2}.$$

Example 2.2.8 (Angle Between Radius Vector and Tangent). Find the angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent for the cardioid $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$.

Solution. Given $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$. Differentiating with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -a \sin \theta.$$

Evaluate $\cot \phi$:

$$\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{-a \sin \theta}{a(1 + \cos \theta)} = \frac{-2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)}{2 \cos^2(\theta/2)} = -\tan \left(\frac{\theta}{2}\right) = \cot \left(\frac{\pi}{2} + \frac{\theta}{2}\right).$$

Therefore:

$$\phi = \frac{\pi}{2} + \frac{\theta}{2}.$$

■

Example 2.2.9 (Orthogonal Intersection of Polar Curves). Show that the curves $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$ and $r = b(1 - \cos \theta)$ intersect orthogonally.

Solution. For Curve 1 ($r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$):

$$\cot \phi_1 = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{-a \sin \theta}{a(1 + \cos \theta)} = -\tan \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

For Curve 2 ($r = b(1 - \cos \theta)$):

$$\cot \phi_2 = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{b \sin \theta}{b(1 - \cos \theta)} = \frac{2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)}{2 \sin^2(\theta/2)} = \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

Compute the product $\cot \phi_1 \cdot \cot \phi_2$:

$$\cot \phi_1 \cdot \cot \phi_2 = \left(-\tan \frac{\theta}{2} \right) \cdot \left(\cot \frac{\theta}{2} \right) = -1.$$

Since $\cot \phi_1 \cdot \cot \phi_2 = -1$, the two curves intersect **orthogonally** ($\alpha = 90^\circ$). ■

Example 2.2.10 (Pedal Equation of a Cardioid). Find the pedal equation (p - r relation) of the cardioid $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$.

Solution. From the previous example, $\phi = \frac{\pi}{2} + \frac{\theta}{2}$ for $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$.

Using $p = r \sin \phi$:

$$p = r \sin \left(\frac{\pi}{2} + \frac{\theta}{2} \right) = r \cos \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

Squaring both sides:

$$p^2 = r^2 \cos^2 \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right) = r^2 \left(\frac{1 + \cos \theta}{2} \right).$$

Since $1 + \cos \theta = \frac{r}{a}$, substitute this into the equation:

$$p^2 = r^2 \left(\frac{r}{2a} \right) \implies p^2 = \frac{r^3}{2a}.$$

This is the required pedal equation of the cardioid. ■

Example 2.2.11 (Pedal Equation of an Equiangular Spiral). Find the pedal equation of the equiangular spiral $r = ae^{\theta \cot \alpha}$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = ae^{\theta \cot \alpha}$ with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \cot \alpha e^{\theta \cot \alpha} = r \cot \alpha.$$

Calculate $\cot \phi$:

$$\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{r \cot \alpha}{r} = \cot \alpha \implies \phi = \alpha.$$

Since $\phi = \alpha$ is constant, substitute into $p = r \sin \phi$:

$$p = r \sin \alpha.$$

This is the pedal equation of the equiangular spiral. ■

Example 2.2.12 (Polar Subtangent of Hyperbolic Spiral). Show that the polar subtangent for the hyperbolic spiral $r\theta = a$ is constant.

Solution. The given curve equation is $r\theta = a \implies r = \frac{a}{\theta}$.

Differentiating r with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -\frac{a}{\theta^2} \implies \frac{d\theta}{dr} = -\frac{\theta^2}{a}.$$

The length of the polar subtangent is:

$$\text{Polar Subtangent} = \left| r^2 \frac{d\theta}{dr} \right| = \left| \left(\frac{a}{\theta} \right)^2 \cdot \left(-\frac{\theta^2}{a} \right) \right| = |-a| = a.$$

Since a is a constant, the length of the polar subtangent is constant for all points on $r\theta = a$. ■

Example 2.2.13 (Polar Subnormal and Subtangent of a Logarithmic Spiral). Find the lengths of the polar subtangent and polar subnormal for the spiral $r = ae^{\theta \cot \beta}$.

Solution. Given $r = ae^{\theta \cot \beta}$. Differentiating with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \cot \beta e^{\theta \cot \beta} = r \cot \beta.$$

Now compute the required lengths:

(i) **Polar Subnormal:**

$$\text{Polar Subnormal} = \frac{dr}{d\theta} = r \cot \beta.$$

(ii) **Polar Subtangent:**

$$\text{Polar Subtangent} = r^2 \frac{d\theta}{dr} = r^2 \left(\frac{1}{r \cot \beta} \right) = r \tan \beta.$$

■

Example 2.2.14 (Polar Subnormal of a Parabola). Find the polar subnormal and polar subtangent for the parabola $\frac{2a}{r} = 1 - \cos \theta$.

Solution. Rewrite the equation as:

$$r = \frac{2a}{1 - \cos \theta}.$$

Differentiating with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -\frac{2a}{(1 - \cos \theta)^2} \cdot (\sin \theta) = -\left(\frac{2a}{1 - \cos \theta} \right) \frac{\sin \theta}{1 - \cos \theta} = -r \frac{\sin \theta}{1 - \cos \theta}.$$

Using half-angle identities:

$$\frac{\sin \theta}{1 - \cos \theta} = \frac{2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)}{2 \sin^2(\theta/2)} = \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

Thus:

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -r \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

Now evaluate the required lengths:

(i) **Polar Subnormal:**

$$\text{Polar Subnormal} = \left| \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right| = r \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

(ii) **Polar Subtangent:**

$$\text{Polar Subtangent} = \left| r^2 \frac{d\theta}{dr} \right| = \left| r^2 \left(\frac{1}{-r \cot(\theta/2)} \right) \right| = r \tan \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

■

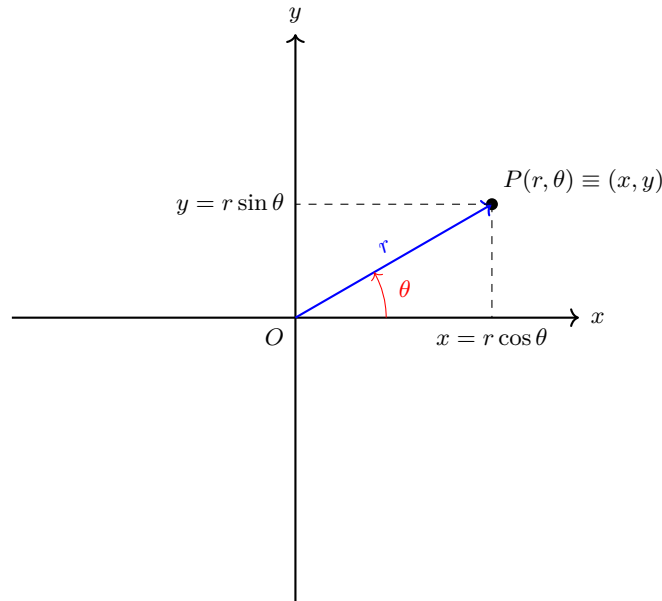
2.3 Tangents and Normals to Polar Curves

Definition 2.3.1 (Polar-Cartesian Conversion). A point P in the plane can be represented by Cartesian coordinates (x, y) or polar coordinates (r, θ) . The relationship between these two systems is fundamental for performing calculus on polar curves. The conversion formulas are:

$$x = r \cos(\theta) \quad (2.1)$$

$$y = r \sin(\theta) \quad (2.2)$$

Conversely, $r^2 = x^2 + y^2$ and $\tan(\theta) = y/x$. A polar curve is given by an equation of the form $r = f(\theta)$.



2.3.1 Slope of the Tangent Line

To find the slope of a tangent line to a polar curve, we treat θ as a parameter and express x and y in terms of θ .

$$x(\theta) = f(\theta) \cos(\theta) = r \cos(\theta)$$

$$y(\theta) = f(\theta) \sin(\theta) = r \sin(\theta)$$

The slope $\frac{dy}{dx}$ can be found using the formula for parametric differentiation, $\frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{dy/d\theta}{dx/d\theta}$.

Derivation. [Formula for $\frac{dy}{dx}$] We differentiate $x(\theta)$ and $y(\theta)$ with respect to θ using the product rule. Let $r' = \frac{dr}{d\theta}$.

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{dx}{d\theta} &= \frac{d}{d\theta}(r \cos \theta) = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta + r(-\sin \theta) = r' \cos \theta - r \sin \theta \\ \frac{dy}{d\theta} &= \frac{d}{d\theta}(r \sin \theta) = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r(\cos \theta) = r' \sin \theta + r \cos \theta\end{aligned}$$

Therefore, the slope is the ratio of these two expressions. ■

Theorem 2.3.2 (Slope of a Polar Tangent). *The slope of the tangent line to the curve $r = f(\theta)$ at a point (r, θ) is given by:*

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta} \quad (2.3)$$

provided the denominator is not zero.

Moreover, the equation of the tangent to the curve $y = f(x)$ is given by

$$y - y_0 = m(x - x_0) \quad (2.4)$$

Example 2.3.3 (Tangent to a Cardioid). Find the equation of the tangent line to the cardioid $r = 1 + \sin \theta$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{3}$.

Solution. Given r , we find $\frac{dr}{d\theta}$.

$$r = 1 + \sin \theta \quad \implies \quad \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \cos \theta$$

Now, evaluate r and $\frac{dr}{d\theta}$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{3}$.

$$r\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right) = 1 + \sin\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right) = 1 + \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$$

$$\left.\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right|_{\theta=\pi/3} = \cos\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right) = \frac{1}{2}$$

Substitute into the slope formula (2.3).

$$\begin{aligned}m_{\tan} = \frac{dy}{dx} &= \frac{\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)\sin\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right) + \left(1 + \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}\right)\cos\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right)}{\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)\cos\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right) - \left(1 + \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}\right)\sin\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right)} \\ &= \frac{\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)\left(\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}\right) + \left(\frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{2}\right)\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)}{\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)\left(\frac{1}{2}\right) - \left(\frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{2}\right)\left(\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}\right)} = \frac{\frac{\sqrt{3}}{4} + \frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{4}}{\frac{1}{4} - \frac{2\sqrt{3} + 3}{4}} \\ &= \frac{2 + 2\sqrt{3}}{1 - (3 + 2\sqrt{3})} = \frac{2(1 + \sqrt{3})}{-2 - 2\sqrt{3}} = -1\end{aligned}$$

The Cartesian coordinates (x_0, y_0) of the point.

$$x_0 = r \cos \theta = \left(1 + \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}\right) \cos\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right) = \left(\frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{2}\right) \left(\frac{1}{2}\right) = \frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{4} \approx 0.93$$

$$y_0 = r \sin \theta = \left(1 + \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}\right) \sin\left(\frac{\pi}{3}\right) = \left(\frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{2}\right) \left(\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}\right) = \frac{2\sqrt{3} + 3}{4} \approx 1.62$$

Therefore, the equation of the tangent line. Using $y - y_0 = m(x - x_0)$:

$$y - \frac{2\sqrt{3} + 3}{4} = -1 \cdot \left(x - \frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{4}\right) \implies y = -x + \frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{4} + \frac{2\sqrt{3} + 3}{4} \implies y = -x + \frac{5 + 3\sqrt{3}}{4}$$

■

2.4 Angle Between Radius Vector and Tangent in Polar Coordinates

In polar coordinates, a curve is defined by $r = f(\theta)$. We aim to determine the angle ϕ between the radius vector from the pole to a point $P(r, \theta)$ on the curve and the tangent line to the curve at P .

Definition 2.4.1 (Radius Vector). The radius vector at a point $P(r, \theta)$ is the line segment from the pole O to P . Its length is r .

Definition 2.4.2 (Tangent Line). The tangent line to a curve at a point P indicates the instantaneous direction of the curve at that point.

2.4.1 Theorem for the Angle Between Radius Vector and Tangent

Theorem 2.4.3. For a curve given by the polar equation $r = f(\theta)$, the angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent line at a point (r, θ) satisfies:

$$\tan \phi = r \frac{d\theta}{dr}$$

or equivalently,

$$\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$$

Proof. Consider a point $P(r, \theta)$ on the curve. Let ψ be the angle that the tangent line at P makes with the polar axis (positive x-axis). The radius vector OP makes an angle θ with the polar axis. The angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent is $\phi = \psi - \theta$.

We know that in Cartesian coordinates $x = r \cos \theta$ and $y = r \sin \theta$. The slope of the tangent in Cartesian coordinates is $\tan \psi = \frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{dy/d\theta}{dx/d\theta}$. Differentiating x and y with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dx}{d\theta} = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta \quad \frac{dy}{d\theta} = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta$$

$$\text{Thus, } \tan \psi = \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta}.$$

Now, we use the trigonometric identity $\tan \phi = \tan(\psi - \theta) = \frac{\tan \psi - \tan \theta}{1 + \tan \psi \tan \theta}$. Substitute

the expression for $\tan \psi$:

$$\begin{aligned}
 \tan \phi &= \frac{\frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta} - \frac{\sin \theta}{\cos \theta}}{1 + \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta} \frac{\sin \theta}{\cos \theta}} \\
 &= \frac{(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta) \cos \theta - \sin \theta (\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta)}{(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta) \cos \theta + \sin \theta (\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta)} \\
 &= \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta \cos \theta + r \cos^2 \theta - \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta \cos \theta + r \sin^2 \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos^2 \theta - r \sin \theta \cos \theta + \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin^2 \theta + r \sin \theta \cos \theta} \\
 &= \frac{r(\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta)}{\frac{dr}{d\theta}(\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta)} \\
 &= \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = r \frac{d\theta}{dr}
 \end{aligned}$$

From this, it directly follows that $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{\tan \phi} = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$. ■

2.4.2 Geometric Interpretation

The relationship $\tan \phi = r \frac{d\theta}{dr}$ can be intuitively understood using an infinitesimal right-angled triangle. Consider a small displacement along the curve from $P(r, \theta)$ to $Q(r+dr, \theta+d\theta)$. The component of displacement along the radius vector is dr , and the component perpendicular to the radius vector (along the tangent to the arc of radius r) is $r d\theta$. These two components form the legs of a right triangle whose hypotenuse is the infinitesimal arc length ds . The angle ϕ is formed between the dr component (radius vector direction) and the hypotenuse (tangent direction).

From this right triangle, the side opposite to ϕ is $r d\theta$, and the side adjacent to ϕ is dr . Therefore, $\tan \phi = \frac{r d\theta}{dr}$.

2.4.3 Special Cases

- **Tangent perpendicular to the radius vector ($\phi = \pi/2$):** This occurs when $\tan \phi$ is undefined, which implies $dr/d\theta = 0$. This condition suggests a local extremum distance from the pole.
- **Tangent passes through the pole ($\phi = 0$ or $\phi = \pi$):** This occurs when $\tan \phi = 0$, implying $r = 0$. This means the curve passes through the pole, and the tangent at the pole coincides with the radius vector.

Example 2.4.4 (Cardioid). Find the angle ϕ for the cardioid $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$.

Derivation. Given $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$. Differentiating with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -a \sin \theta.$$

Applying $\tan \phi = \frac{r}{dr/d\theta}$:

$$\tan \phi = \frac{a(1 + \cos \theta)}{-a \sin \theta} = \frac{1 + \cos \theta}{-\sin \theta}.$$

Using the half-angle identities $1 + \cos \theta = 2 \cos^2(\theta/2)$ and $\sin \theta = 2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)$:

$$\tan \phi = \frac{2 \cos^2(\theta/2)}{-2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)} = \frac{\cos(\theta/2)}{-\sin(\theta/2)} = -\cot(\theta/2).$$

Since $-\cot(\alpha) = \tan(\alpha + \pi/2)$, we have:

$$\tan \phi = \tan \left(\frac{\theta}{2} + \frac{\pi}{2} \right).$$

Therefore, $\phi = \frac{\theta}{2} + \frac{\pi}{2}$. ■

Example 2.4.5 (Equiangular Spiral). Find the angle ϕ for the logarithmic (equiangular) spiral $r = ae^{b\theta}$, where a and b are constants.

Derivation. Given $r = ae^{b\theta}$. Differentiating with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = abe^{b\theta} = br.$$

Evaluating $\tan \phi$:

$$\tan \phi = \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = \frac{r}{br} = \frac{1}{b}.$$

Therefore:

$$\phi = \tan^{-1} \left(\frac{1}{b} \right).$$

Since b is a constant, the angle ϕ is constant for all points on the curve. This constant angle property is why $r = ae^{b\theta}$ is called the **equiangular spiral**. ■

Example 2.4.6 (Lemniscate of Bernoulli). Find the angle ϕ for the lemniscate of Bernoulli $r^2 = a^2 \cos 2\theta$.

Derivation. Given $r^2 = a^2 \cos 2\theta$. Taking the natural logarithm on both sides:

$$2 \ln r = 2 \ln a + \ln(\cos 2\theta).$$

Differentiating implicitly with respect to θ :

$$\frac{2}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = 0 + \frac{-2 \sin 2\theta}{\cos 2\theta} = -2 \tan 2\theta \implies \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = -\tan 2\theta.$$

Using $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$:

$$\cot \phi = -\tan 2\theta = \cot \left(\frac{\pi}{2} + 2\theta \right).$$

Therefore:

$$\phi = \frac{\pi}{2} + 2\theta. ■$$

Example 2.4.7 (Circle Passing Through the Pole). Find the angle ϕ for the circle $r = 2a \sin \theta$.

Derivation. Given $r = 2a \sin \theta$. Differentiating with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = 2a \cos \theta.$$

Evaluating $\tan \phi$:

$$\tan \phi = \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = \frac{2a \sin \theta}{2a \cos \theta} = \tan \theta.$$

Therefore:

$$\phi = \theta.$$

This shows that for a circle passing through the pole, the angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent line is equal to the polar angle θ of the point. ■

Example 2.4.8 (Conic Section with Pole at Focus). Find the angle ϕ for the conic section $\frac{l}{r} = 1 + e \cos \theta$.

Derivation. Given $\frac{l}{r} = 1 + e \cos \theta$. Taking natural logarithms on both sides:

$$\ln l - \ln r = \ln(1 + e \cos \theta).$$

Differentiating implicitly with respect to θ :

$$-\frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{-e \sin \theta}{1 + e \cos \theta} \implies \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{e \sin \theta}{1 + e \cos \theta}.$$

Since $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$:

$$\cot \phi = \frac{e \sin \theta}{1 + e \cos \theta}.$$

Taking the reciprocal yields:

$$\tan \phi = \frac{1 + e \cos \theta}{e \sin \theta} \implies \phi = \tan^{-1} \left(\frac{1 + e \cos \theta}{e \sin \theta} \right).$$

■

2.5 Angle Between Radius Vector and Tangent

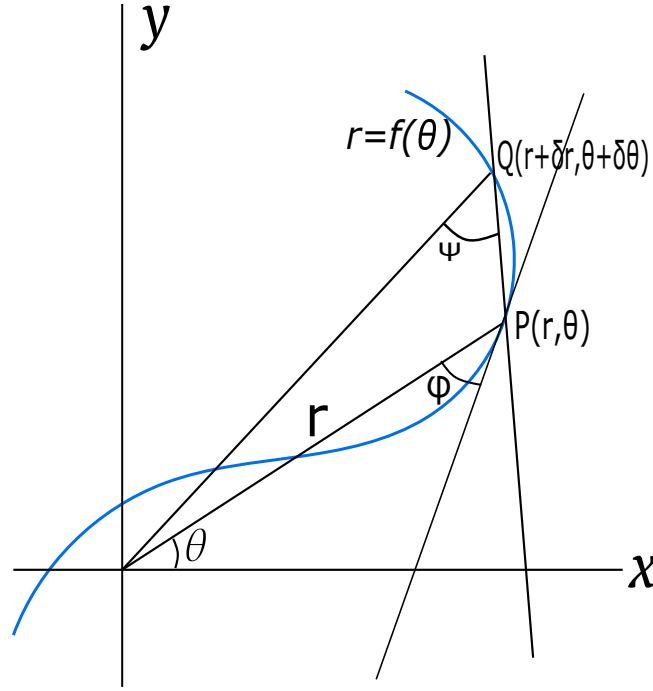
A powerful concept for understanding polar tangents is the angle ψ between the radius vector (from the origin to the point) and the tangent line at that point.

Theorem 2.5.1. For a curve given by the polar equation $r = f(\theta)$, the angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent line at a point (r, θ) satisfies:

$$\tan \phi = r \frac{d\theta}{dr}$$

or equivalently,

$$\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$$

Figure 2.2: Angle $\psi \rightarrow \phi$ as point $Q \rightarrow P$.

Proof. Consider a point $P(r, \theta)$ on the curve. Let ψ be the angle that the tangent line at P makes with the polar axis (positive x-axis). The radius vector OP makes an angle θ with the polar axis. The angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent is $\phi = \psi - \theta$.

We know that in Cartesian coordinates $x = r \cos \theta$ and $y = r \sin \theta$. The slope of the tangent in Cartesian coordinates is $\tan \psi = \frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{dy/d\theta}{dx/d\theta}$. Differentiating x and y with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dx}{d\theta} = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta \quad \frac{dy}{d\theta} = \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta$$

$$\text{Thus, } \tan \psi = \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta}.$$

Now, we use the trigonometric identity $\tan \phi = \tan(\psi - \theta) = \frac{\tan \psi - \tan \theta}{1 + \tan \psi \tan \theta}$. Substitute

the expression for $\tan \psi$:

$$\begin{aligned}
 \tan \phi &= \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta} - \frac{\sin \theta}{\cos \theta} \\
 &= \frac{1 + \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta} \frac{\sin \theta}{\cos \theta}}{\frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta} - \frac{\sin \theta}{\cos \theta}} \\
 &= \frac{(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta) \cos \theta - \sin \theta (\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta)}{(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta) \cos \theta + \sin \theta (\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta)} \\
 &= \frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta \cos \theta + r \cos^2 \theta - \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta \cos \theta + r \sin^2 \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos^2 \theta - r \sin \theta \cos \theta + \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin^2 \theta + r \sin \theta \cos \theta} \\
 &= \frac{r(\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta)}{\frac{dr}{d\theta}(\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta)} \\
 &= \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = r \frac{d\theta}{dr}
 \end{aligned}$$

From this, it directly follows that $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{\tan \phi} = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$. ■

Remark 2.5.2. The slope of the tangent line is $\frac{dy}{dx} = \tan \phi$, where ϕ is the angle the tangent makes with the positive x-axis. From the geometry, we can see that $\phi = \theta + \psi$. This gives an alternative way to find the slope:

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = \tan(\theta + \psi) = \frac{\tan \theta + \tan \psi}{1 - \tan \theta \tan \psi}$$

Substituting $\tan \psi = r/r'$ and $\tan \theta = y/x$ and simplifying leads back to the original formula, confirming the geometric relationship.

2.6 Special Cases: Horizontal and Vertical Tangents

Theorem 2.6.1 (Conditions for Horizontal and Vertical Tangents). *For a polar curve $r = f(\theta)$:*

1. **Horizontal tangents** occur when $\frac{dy}{d\theta} = 0$, provided $\frac{dx}{d\theta} \neq 0$.

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta = 0$$

2. **Vertical tangents** occur when $\frac{dx}{d\theta} = 0$, provided $\frac{dy}{d\theta} \neq 0$.

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta = 0$$

Remark 2.6.2. If both $\frac{dy}{d\theta}$ and $\frac{dx}{d\theta}$ are zero simultaneously, the slope is indeterminate ($\frac{0}{0}$). This often happens at the pole ($r = 0$) and may indicate a cusp or other complex behavior.

Example 2.6.3. Show that in the equiangular spiral $r = a e^{\theta \cot \alpha}$, the tangent is inclined at a constant angle to the radius vector.

Solution. Differentiating the given equation w.r.t. to θ , we have

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a e^{\theta \cot \alpha} \cot \alpha = r \cot \alpha.$$

therefore $r \frac{d\theta}{dr} = \tan \alpha$ or $\tan \phi = \tan \alpha$. which gives, $\phi = \alpha$, a constant.

Hence the tangent is inclined at a constant angle to the radius vector. It is on account of this property that the curve is called the equiangular spiral. ■

Example 2.6.4. Show that the curves

$$r^n = a^n \sin n\theta \dots (i) \quad \text{and} \quad r^n = b^n \cos n\theta \dots (ii)$$

intersect orthogonally.

Solution. Let (r_1, θ_1) be a point of intersection. Then

$$r_1^n = a^n \sin n\theta_1 = b^n \cos n\theta_1 \tag{iii}$$

From (i), taking logarithms, we get

$$n \log r = n \log a + \log \sin n\theta.$$

Differentiating w.r.t. to θ , we get

$$n \cdot \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{1}{\sin n\theta} \cos n\theta \cdot n,$$

therefore $r \frac{d\theta}{dr} = \tan n\theta$, or $\tan \phi_1 = \tan n\theta$.

$$\phi_1 = n\theta_1 \text{ at the point } (r_1, \theta_1). \tag{iv}$$

From (ii), taking logarithms, we get

$$n \log r = n \log b + \log \cos n\theta.$$

Differentiating w.r.t. to θ_1

$$\frac{n}{r} \cdot \frac{dr}{d\theta} = \frac{1}{\cos n\theta} \cdot (-\sin n\theta) \cdot n,$$

therefore $r \frac{d\theta}{dr} = -\cot n\theta = \tan \left(n\theta + \frac{\pi}{2} \right)$

or $\tan \phi_2 = \tan(n\theta + \pi/2)$

$$\phi_2 = n\theta_1 + \pi/2 \text{ at the point } (r_1, \theta_1).$$

Hence the angle of intersection $= \phi_2 - \phi_1 = \pi/2$.

∴ The two curves intersect orthogonally. ■

Example 2.6.5 (Finding Horizontal and Vertical Tangents). Find the points on the cardioid $r = 1 - \cos \theta$ for $\theta \in [0, 2\pi)$ where the tangent line is horizontal or vertical.

Solution. We have $r = 1 - \cos \theta$ and $\frac{dr}{d\theta} = \sin \theta$. **Horizontal Tangents** ($\frac{dy}{d\theta} = 0$):

$$\begin{aligned}(\sin \theta) \sin \theta + (1 - \cos \theta) \cos \theta &= 0 \\ \sin^2 \theta + \cos \theta - \cos^2 \theta &= 0 \\ (1 - \cos^2 \theta) + \cos \theta - \cos^2 \theta &= 0 \\ -2 \cos^2 \theta + \cos \theta + 1 &= 0 \implies 2 \cos^2 \theta - \cos \theta - 1 = 0 \\ (2 \cos \theta + 1)(\cos \theta - 1) &= 0\end{aligned}$$

This yields $\cos \theta = 1$ (so $\theta = 0$) or $\cos \theta = -\frac{1}{2}$ (so $\theta = \frac{2\pi}{3}, \frac{4\pi}{3}$).

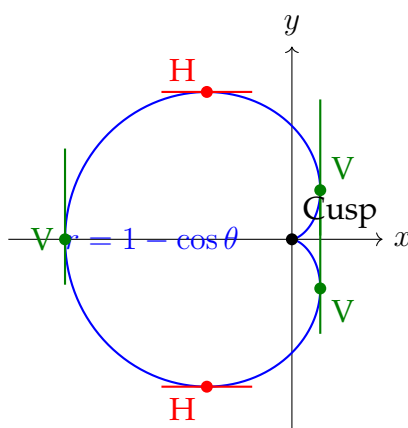
Vertical Tangents ($\frac{dx}{d\theta} = 0$):

$$\begin{aligned}(\sin \theta) \cos \theta - (1 - \cos \theta) \sin \theta &= 0 \\ \sin \theta \cos \theta - \sin \theta + \sin \theta \cos \theta &= 0 \\ 2 \sin \theta \cos \theta - \sin \theta &= 0 \implies \sin \theta (2 \cos \theta - 1) = 0\end{aligned}$$

This yields $\sin \theta = 0$ (so $\theta = 0, \pi$) or $\cos \theta = \frac{1}{2}$ (so $\theta = \frac{\pi}{3}, \frac{5\pi}{3}$).

Analysis:

- At $\theta = 0$, both derivatives are zero. This is the pole ($r = 0$), which is a cusp for this cardioid.
- **Horizontal tangents** exist at $\theta = \frac{2\pi}{3}$ and $\theta = \frac{4\pi}{3}$. The points are $(r, \theta) = (1.5, 2\pi/3)$ and $(1.5, 4\pi/3)$.
- **Vertical tangents** exist at $\theta = \pi$, $\theta = \frac{\pi}{3}$, and $\theta = \frac{5\pi}{3}$. The points are $(2, \pi)$, $(0.5, \pi/3)$, and $(0.5, 5\pi/3)$.



■

2.6.1 Tangents at the Pole

A special situation arises when the curve passes through the pole ($r = 0$).

Theorem 2.6.6 (Tangents at the Pole). *If $f(\theta_0) = 0$ and $f'(\theta_0) \neq 0$, then the line $\theta = \theta_0$ is tangent to the curve $r = f(\theta)$ at the pole.*

Derivation. If $r = f(\theta_0) = 0$, the slope formula (2.3) becomes:

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{f'(\theta_0) \sin \theta_0 + 0 \cdot \cos \theta_0}{f'(\theta_0) \cos \theta_0 - 0 \cdot \sin \theta_0} = \frac{f'(\theta_0) \sin \theta_0}{f'(\theta_0) \cos \theta_0} = \tan \theta_0$$

The slope of the line $\theta = \theta_0$ is $\tan \theta_0$. Thus, the line is tangent to the curve at the pole. ■

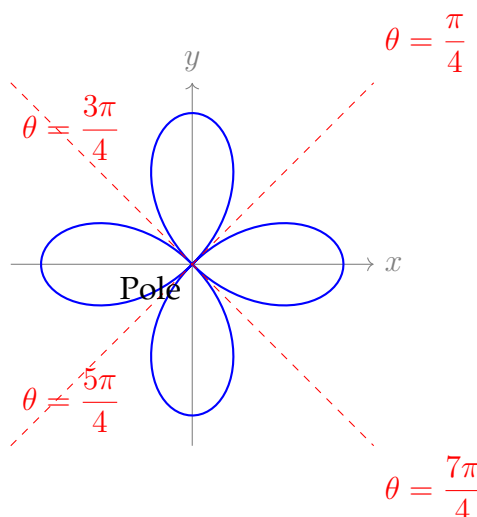
Example 2.6.7 (Tangents at the Pole of a Rose Curve). Find the equations of the tangent lines to the four-petaled rose $r = \cos(2\theta)$ at the pole.

Solution. **Find when the curve is at the pole.** We set $r = 0$, so $\cos(2\theta) = 0$. For $\theta \in [0, 2\pi)$, this occurs when 2θ is an odd multiple of $\pi/2$.

$$2\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}, \frac{3\pi}{2}, \frac{5\pi}{2}, \frac{7\pi}{2} \implies \theta = \frac{\pi}{4}, \frac{3\pi}{4}, \frac{5\pi}{4}, \frac{7\pi}{4}$$

$f'(\theta) = \frac{dr}{d\theta} = -2 \sin(2\theta)$. At each of the values of θ found above, 2θ is an odd multiple of $\pi/2$, so $\sin(2\theta) = \pm 1$. Therefore, $f'(\theta) \neq 0$ at these points.

According to the theorem, the tangent lines at the pole are the lines $\theta = \theta_0$. The equations are: $\theta = \frac{\pi}{4}$, $\theta = \frac{3\pi}{4}$, $\theta = \frac{5\pi}{4}$, and $\theta = \frac{7\pi}{4}$.



2.7 The Normal Line

Definition 2.7.1 (Normal Line). The normal line to a curve at a point is the line perpendicular to the tangent line at that same point.

Corollary 2.7.2 (Slope of the Normal Line). If the slope of the tangent line is $m_{tan} = \frac{dy}{dx}$, the slope of the normal line is

$$m_{normal} = -\frac{1}{m_{tan}} = -\frac{dx}{dy}$$

Explicitly for a polar curve:

$$m_{normal} = -\frac{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta - r \sin \theta}{\frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta + r \cos \theta} = \frac{r \sin \theta - \frac{dr}{d\theta} \cos \theta}{r \cos \theta + \frac{dr}{d\theta} \sin \theta} \quad (2.5)$$

Example 2.7.3 (Equation of the Normal Line). Find the equation of the normal line to the cardioid $r = 1 + \sin \theta$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{3}$.

Solution. From our previous example, we have found $m_{\tan} = -1$. So the slope of the normal is

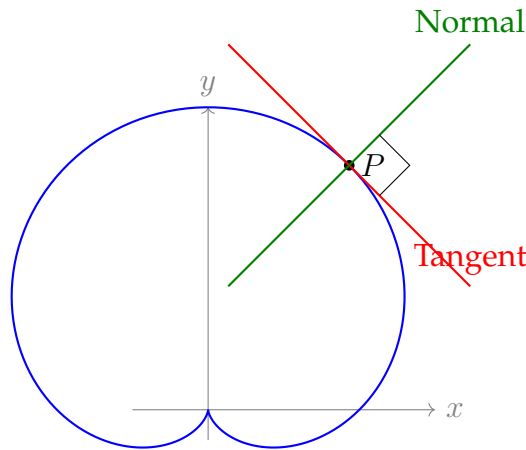
$$m_{\text{normal}} = -\frac{1}{-1} = 1$$

We found the point of tangency to be $(x_0, y_0) = \left(\frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{4}, \frac{2\sqrt{3} + 3}{4}\right)$. Therefore, the equation of the normal line $y - y_0 = m_{\text{normal}}(x - x_0)$:

$$y - \frac{2\sqrt{3} + 3}{4} = 1 \cdot \left(x - \frac{2 + \sqrt{3}}{4}\right)$$

Simplifying gives:

$$4y - (2\sqrt{3} + 3) = 4x - (2 + \sqrt{3}) \implies 4y - 4x = \sqrt{3} + 1$$



■

2.8 Angle of Intersection in Cartesian Coordinates

2.8.1 Method and Formula

Let the two curves be given by the equations $y = f(x)$ and $y = g(x)$.

Solve the system of equations by setting $f(x) = g(x)$. Let a solution be $x = x_0$, which gives an intersection point $P(x_0, y_0)$, where $y_0 = f(x_0) = g(x_0)$.

Calculate the derivatives $f'(x)$ and $g'(x)$. The slopes of the tangent lines at $P(x_0, y_0)$ are:

$$m_1 = f'(x_0) \quad \text{and} \quad m_2 = g'(x_0)$$

The angle α between two lines with slopes m_1 and m_2 is given by the formula:

Theorem 2.8.1 (Angle between Two Lines). The acute angle α between two non-vertical lines with slopes m_1 and m_2 is given by:

$$\tan \alpha = \left| \frac{m_2 - m_1}{1 + m_1 m_2} \right| \quad (2.6)$$

provided $1 + m_1 m_2 \neq 0$.

Corollary 2.8.2 (Condition for Orthogonality). *The two curves are orthogonal (intersect at a right angle) at the point P if their tangent lines are perpendicular. This occurs if and only if:*

$$m_1 m_2 = -1$$

In this case, the denominator $1 + m_1 m_2$ is zero, and $\tan \alpha$ is undefined, which corresponds to $\alpha = \frac{\pi}{2}$ or 90° .

Example 2.8.3. Find the angle of intersection of the curves $y = x^2$ and $x = y^2$.

Solution. Substitute $y = x^2$ into $x = y^2$:

$$x = (x^2)^2 \implies x = x^4 \implies x^4 - x = 0 \implies x(x^3 - 1) = 0$$

This gives $x = 0$ or $x^3 = 1 \implies x = 1$. If $x = 0$, $y = 0^2 = 0$. Point is $(0, 0)$. If $x = 1$, $y = 1^2 = 1$. Point is $(1, 1)$.

Intersection at $(0, 0)$: For $y = x^2$, the tangent is $y = 0$ (the x-axis). For $x = y^2$, the tangent is $x = 0$ (the y-axis). The tangent lines are the axes, which are perpendicular. So, the angle of intersection at $(0, 0)$ is $\alpha = 90^\circ$.

Intersection at $(1, 1)$: Step 2: Find Slopes of Tangents

Curve 1: $y = x^2 \implies \frac{dy}{dx} = 2x$. At $(1, 1)$, the slope is $m_1 = 2(1) = 2$.

Curve 2: $x = y^2$. We use implicit differentiation: $1 = 2y \frac{dy}{dx} \implies \frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{1}{2y}$. At $(1, 1)$, the slope is $m_2 = \frac{1}{2(1)} = \frac{1}{2}$.

Using the formula for $\tan \alpha$:

$$\tan \alpha = \left| \frac{m_2 - m_1}{1 + m_1 m_2} \right| = \left| \frac{\frac{1}{2} - 2}{1 + (2)(\frac{1}{2})} \right| = \left| \frac{-3/2}{1 + 1} \right| = \left| \frac{-3/2}{2} \right| = \frac{3}{4}$$

The angle of intersection is $\alpha = \arctan\left(\frac{3}{4}\right) \approx 36.87^\circ$. ■

Example 2.8.4. Show that the curves $x^2 - y^2 = 5$ and $4x^2 + 9y^2 = 72$ are orthogonal at their points of intersection.

Solution. We don't need to find the intersection points explicitly. We just need to show that at any intersection point (x, y) , the product of the slopes of the tangents is -1 .

Curve 1: $x^2 - y^2 = 5$

$$2x - 2y \frac{dy}{dx} = 0 \implies \frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{2x}{2y} = \frac{x}{y}$$

So, $m_1 = \frac{x}{y}$.

Curve 2: $4x^2 + 9y^2 = 72$

$$8x + 18y \frac{dy}{dx} = 0 \implies \frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{-8x}{18y} = -\frac{4x}{9y}$$

So, $m_2 = -\frac{4x}{9y}$.

Therefore,

$$m_1 m_2 = \left(\frac{x}{y}\right) \left(-\frac{4x}{9y}\right) = -\frac{4x^2}{9y^2}$$

This product depends on x and y . We need to use the equations of the curves to simplify it. From the first curve, $x^2 = 5 + y^2$. Substitute this into the second equation to find a relationship for y^2 :

$$4(5 + y^2) + 9y^2 = 72 \implies 20 + 4y^2 + 9y^2 = 72 \implies 13y^2 = 52 \implies y^2 = 4$$

Now substitute $y^2 = 4$ back into the expression for x^2 :

$$x^2 = 5 + y^2 = 5 + 4 = 9$$

So, at any point of intersection, we must have $x^2 = 9$ and $y^2 = 4$.

Hence,

$$m_1 m_2 = -\frac{4x^2}{9y^2} = -\frac{4(9)}{9(4)} = -1$$

Since the product of the slopes is -1 , the curves are orthogonal at all their points of intersection. ■

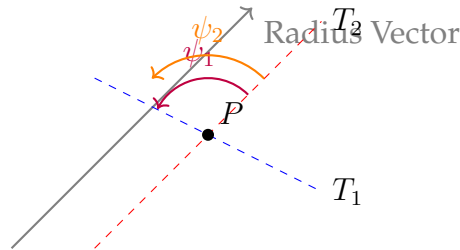
2.9 Angle of Intersection in Polar Coordinates

2.9.1 Method and Formula

For polar curves, it is often simpler to work with the angle ψ between the radius vector and the tangent line at a point.

Let the two curves be $r = f_1(\theta)$ and $r = f_2(\theta)$. Let ψ_1 and ψ_2 be the angles between the radius vector and the tangent lines to the respective curves at a point of intersection.

$$\text{Angle of intersection } \alpha = |\psi_1 - \psi_2|$$



The angle of intersection α is the angle between the two tangent lines, which is simply the absolute difference between ψ_1 and ψ_2 .

Theorem 2.9.1 (Angle of Intersection in Polar Coordinates). *The angle of intersection α between two polar curves at a common point is given by:*

$$\alpha = |\psi_1 - \psi_2|$$

where ψ_1 and ψ_2 are the angles for each curve satisfying

$$\tan \psi_1 = \frac{r}{\left. \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right|_1} \quad \text{and} \quad \tan \psi_2 = \frac{r}{\left. \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right|_2}$$

Corollary 2.9.2 (Condition for Orthogonality in Polar Coordinates). *Two polar curves are orthogonal if $\alpha = \frac{\pi}{2}$. This means $|\psi_1 - \psi_2| = \frac{\pi}{2}$. This condition is equivalent to $\psi_1 = \psi_2 \pm \frac{\pi}{2}$, which implies $\tan \psi_1 = \tan(\psi_2 \pm \frac{\pi}{2}) = -\cot \psi_2 = -\frac{1}{\tan \psi_2}$. Therefore, the condition for orthogonality is:*

$$\tan \psi_1 \tan \psi_2 = -1$$

Example 2.9.3. Find the angle of intersection of the cardioids $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$ and $r = b(1 - \cos \theta)$.

Solution. **Find Points of Intersection**

Set the expressions for r equal:

$$a(1 + \cos \theta) = b(1 - \cos \theta) \implies a + a \cos \theta = b - b \cos \theta$$

$$(a + b) \cos \theta = b - a \implies \cos \theta = \frac{b - a}{a + b}$$

At a point of intersection (r, θ) satisfying this, we find ψ_1 and ψ_2 .

Find $\tan \psi$ for each curve.

Curve 1: $r = a(1 + \cos \theta) \implies \frac{dr}{d\theta} = -a \sin \theta$.

$$\tan \psi_1 = \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = \frac{a(1 + \cos \theta)}{-a \sin \theta} = -\frac{1 + \cos \theta}{\sin \theta}$$

Using half-angle identities $1 + \cos \theta = 2 \cos^2(\theta/2)$ and $\sin \theta = 2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)$:

$$\tan \psi_1 = -\frac{2 \cos^2(\theta/2)}{2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)} = -\cot(\theta/2) = \tan\left(\frac{\pi}{2} + \frac{\theta}{2}\right)$$

So, $\psi_1 = \frac{\pi}{2} + \frac{\theta}{2}$.

Curve 2: $r = b(1 - \cos \theta) \implies \frac{dr}{d\theta} = b \sin \theta$.

$$\tan \psi_2 = \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = \frac{b(1 - \cos \theta)}{b \sin \theta} = \frac{1 - \cos \theta}{\sin \theta}$$

Using half-angle identities $1 - \cos \theta = 2 \sin^2(\theta/2)$:

$$\tan \psi_2 = \frac{2 \sin^2(\theta/2)}{2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)} = \tan(\theta/2)$$

So, $\psi_2 = \frac{\theta}{2}$.

The angle of intersection α is;

$$\alpha = |\psi_1 - \psi_2| = \left| \left(\frac{\pi}{2} + \frac{\theta}{2} \right) - \frac{\theta}{2} \right| = \left| \frac{\pi}{2} \right| = \frac{\pi}{2}$$

The angle of intersection is $\frac{\pi}{2}$. This means the curves are **always orthogonal** at any point of intersection (other than the pole). ■

Example 2.9.4. Show that the curves $r = a\theta$ and $r\theta = a$ intersect at a right angle.

Solution. Curve 1: $r = a\theta$. Curve 2: $r = a/\theta$. Set them equal: $a\theta = a/\theta \implies \theta^2 = 1 \implies \theta = \pm 1$ (we take $\theta = 1$ as a representative point). The intersection point is $(a, 1)$.

For curve 1: $r = a\theta \implies \frac{dr}{d\theta} = a$.

$$\tan \psi_1 = \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = \frac{a\theta}{a} = \theta$$

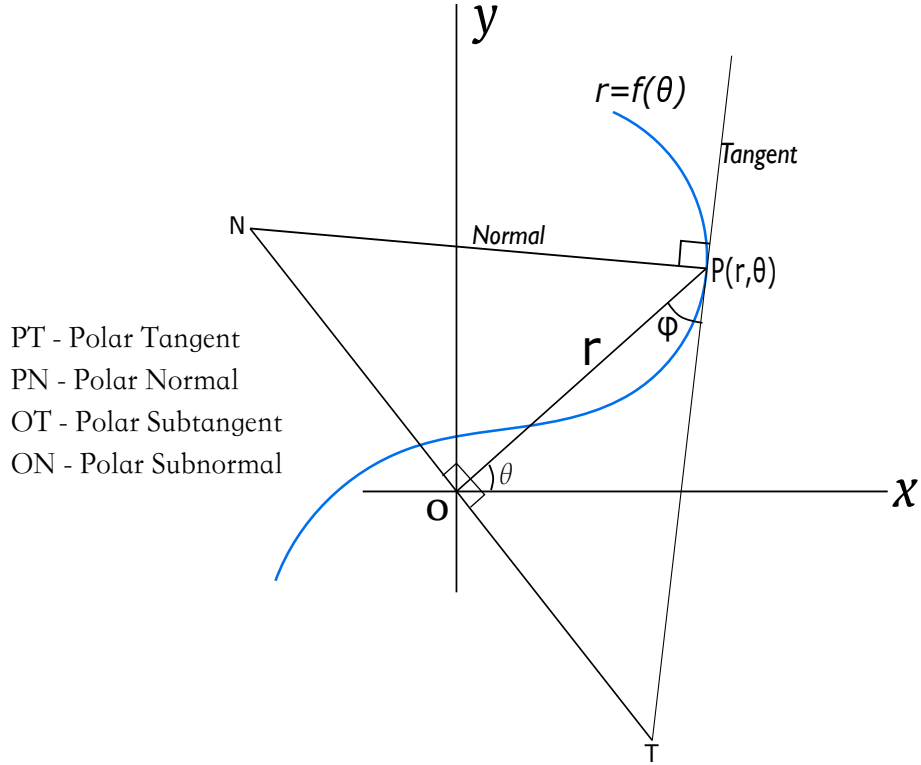


Figure 2.3: Polar Tangent, Polar Normal, Polar Subtangent and Polar Subnormal.

For curve 2: $r = a/\theta \implies \frac{dr}{d\theta} = -a/\theta^2$.

$$\tan \psi_2 = \frac{r}{dr/d\theta} = \frac{a/\theta}{-a/\theta^2} = -\theta$$

At $\theta = 1$:

$$\tan \psi_1 = 1 \quad \text{and} \quad \tan \psi_2 = -1$$

Now the product:

$$\tan \psi_1 \tan \psi_2 = (1)(-1) = -1$$

Since the product is -1 , the curves are orthogonal at their point of intersection. ■

2.10 Length of the Polar Tangent

For a polar curve defined by $r = f(\theta)$, the geometry of the tangent line at a point gives rise to four important quantities: the lengths of the polar tangent, polar normal, polar sub-tangent, and polar sub-normal.

Theorem 2.10.1 (Length of Polar Tangent). *The length of the polar tangent to the curve $r = f(\theta)$ is given by:*

$$\text{Length} = r\sqrt{1 + \tan^2 \phi} = r\sqrt{1 + \left(r \frac{d\theta}{dr}\right)^2}$$

[Refer to Figure 2.3]

Example 2.10.2. Find the length of the polar tangent for the cardioid $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$.

Solution. The curve is $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$. The derivative is $\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \theta$. At $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$:

$$r = a \left(1 - \cos \frac{\pi}{2} \right) = a(1 - 0) = a$$

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \frac{\pi}{2} = a(1) = a$$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Length of Polar Tangent} &= r \sqrt{1 + \left(\frac{r}{dr/d\theta} \right)^2} \\ &= a \sqrt{1 + \left(\frac{a}{a} \right)^2} \\ &= a \sqrt{1 + 1^2} = a\sqrt{2} \end{aligned}$$

The length of the polar tangent at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$ is $a\sqrt{2}$. ■

2.11 Length of the Polar Normal

Definition 2.11.1. The **length of the polar normal** is the length of the segment of the normal line between the point of contact P and the point N where it meets the line through the pole perpendicular to the radius vector.

Theorem 2.11.2 (Length of Polar Normal). *The length of the polar normal to the curve $r = f(\theta)$ at any point $P(r, \theta)$ is given by:*

$$\text{Length of Polar Normal} = \sqrt{r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2}.$$

Proof. Let $P(r, \theta)$ be any point on the polar curve $r = f(\theta)$ with pole O . Draw the radius vector $OP = r$.

Construct a line through the pole O perpendicular to the radius vector OP . Let the normal line at P intersect this perpendicular line at point N . The line segment PN represents the **polar normal**.

Let ϕ be the angle between the radius vector OP and the tangent line PT at P . Since the normal PN is perpendicular to the tangent PT , we have $\angle TPN = 90^\circ$.

In the right-angled triangle $\triangle OPN$ (where $\angle PON = 90^\circ$ by construction):

$$\angle ONP = \phi.$$

Using right-triangle trigonometry in $\triangle OPN$:

$$\csc \phi = \frac{PN}{OP} = \frac{PN}{r} \implies PN = r \csc \phi.$$

From the properties of polar tangents, we know that $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$. Using the trigonometric identity $\csc^2 \phi = 1 + \cot^2 \phi$:

$$PN = r \sqrt{1 + \cot^2 \phi} = r \sqrt{1 + \frac{1}{r^2} \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2} = \sqrt{r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2}.$$

Hence, the length of the polar normal PN is $\sqrt{r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2}$. ■

Example 2.11.3. Find the length of the polar normal for the cardioid $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ with respect to θ yields:

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \theta.$$

Evaluating r and $\frac{dr}{d\theta}$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$:

$$r = a \left(1 - \cos \frac{\pi}{2}\right) = a, \quad \text{and} \quad \frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \frac{\pi}{2} = a.$$

Substituting these values into the formula for the length of the polar normal:

$$\text{Length of Polar Normal} = \sqrt{r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right)^2} = \sqrt{a^2 + a^2} = \sqrt{2a^2} = a\sqrt{2}.$$

Thus, the length of the polar normal at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$ is $a\sqrt{2}$. ■

Example 2.11.4. Find the length of the polar normal at any point for the circle $r = 2a \cos \theta$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = 2a \cos \theta$ with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -2a \sin \theta.$$

Substituting r and $\frac{dr}{d\theta}$ into the polar normal formula:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Length of Polar Normal} &= \sqrt{(2a \cos \theta)^2 + (-2a \sin \theta)^2} \\ &= \sqrt{4a^2 \cos^2 \theta + 4a^2 \sin^2 \theta} \\ &= \sqrt{4a^2(\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta)} = \sqrt{4a^2} = 2a. \end{aligned}$$

The length of the polar normal to the circle $r = 2a \cos \theta$ is constant and equal to $2a$ (the diameter of the circle) for all points on the curve. ■

Example 2.11.5. Find the length of the polar normal for the equiangular spiral $r = ae^{\theta \cot \alpha}$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = ae^{\theta \cot \alpha}$ with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \cot \alpha e^{\theta \cot \alpha} = r \cot \alpha.$$

Substituting $\frac{dr}{d\theta} = r \cot \alpha$ into the polar normal length formula:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Length of Polar Normal} &= \sqrt{r^2 + (r \cot \alpha)^2} \\ &= \sqrt{r^2(1 + \cot^2 \alpha)} \\ &= r \csc \alpha. \end{aligned}$$

Thus, the length of the polar normal for the equiangular spiral is $r \csc \alpha$. ■

2.12 Length of the Polar Sub-tangent

Definition 2.12.1. The **length of the polar sub-tangent** is the length of the line segment OT , formed by the projection of the polar tangent onto the line passing through the pole perpendicular to the radius vector.

Theorem 2.12.2 (Length of Polar Sub-tangent). *The length of the polar sub-tangent to the curve $r = f(\theta)$ is given by:*

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-tangent} = \left| r^2 \frac{d\theta}{dr} \right| = \left| \frac{r^2}{\frac{dr}{d\theta}} \right|.$$

Proof. Let $P(r, \theta)$ be a point on the polar curve $r = f(\theta)$ with pole O . Draw the radius vector $OP = r$ and the tangent line PT at P .

Construct a line through the pole O perpendicular to the radius vector OP . Let the tangent line PT intersect this perpendicular line at point T . The line segment OT is defined as the **polar subtangent**.

In the right-angled triangle $\triangle OPT$ (where $\angle POT = 90^\circ$), let ϕ be the angle between the radius vector OP and the tangent line PT ($\angle OPT = \phi$). Using basic right-triangle trigonometry:

$$\tan \phi = \frac{OT}{OP} = \frac{OT}{r} \implies OT = r \tan \phi.$$

Substituting the known relation $\tan \phi = r \frac{d\theta}{dr}$:

$$OT = r \left(r \frac{d\theta}{dr} \right) = r^2 \frac{d\theta}{dr} = \frac{r^2}{\frac{dr}{d\theta}}.$$

Since geometric lengths are non-negative, taking the absolute value yields:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-tangent} = \left| \frac{r^2}{\frac{dr}{d\theta}} \right|.$$

■

Example 2.12.3. Find the length of the polar sub-tangent for the cardioid $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \theta.$$

Evaluating r and $\frac{dr}{d\theta}$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$:

$$r = a \left(1 - \cos \frac{\pi}{2} \right) = a, \quad \text{and} \quad \frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \frac{\pi}{2} = a.$$

Substituting these values into the formula:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-tangent} = \left| \frac{r^2}{\frac{dr}{d\theta}} \right| = \left| \frac{a^2}{a} \right| = a.$$



Example 2.12.4. Show that the length of the polar sub-tangent for the hyperbolic spiral $r\theta = a$ is constant.

Solution. The given curve equation is $r\theta = a \implies r = \frac{a}{\theta}$. Differentiating r with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -\frac{a}{\theta^2}.$$

Substituting r and $\frac{dr}{d\theta}$ into the formula for the polar subtangent:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-tangent} = \left| \frac{r^2}{\frac{dr}{d\theta}} \right| = \left| \frac{\left(\frac{a}{\theta}\right)^2}{-\frac{a}{\theta^2}} \right| = |-a| = a.$$

Since a is a constant, the length of the polar sub-tangent is constant for all points on the hyperbolic spiral. ■

Example 2.12.5. Find the length of the polar sub-tangent for the equiangular spiral $r = ae^{\theta \cot \alpha}$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = ae^{\theta \cot \alpha}$ with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \cot \alpha e^{\theta \cot \alpha} = r \cot \alpha.$$

Substituting $\frac{dr}{d\theta} = r \cot \alpha$ into the polar subtangent formula:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-tangent} = \left| \frac{r^2}{r \cot \alpha} \right| = \left| \frac{r}{\cot \alpha} \right| = r \tan \alpha.$$



2.13 Length of the Polar Sub-normal

Definition 2.13.1. The **length of the polar sub-normal** is the length of the line segment ON , formed by the projection of the polar normal onto the line passing through the pole perpendicular to the radius vector.

Theorem 2.13.2 (Length of Polar Sub-normal). *The length of the polar sub-normal to the curve $r = f(\theta)$ is given by:*

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-normal} = \left| \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right|.$$

Proof. Let $P(r, \theta)$ be a point on the polar curve $r = f(\theta)$ with pole O . Let PN be the normal line at P (perpendicular to the tangent PT).

Construct a line through the pole O perpendicular to the radius vector OP . Let the normal line PN intersect this perpendicular line at point N . The line segment ON is defined as the **polar sub-normal**.

In the right-angled triangle $\triangle OPN$ (where $\angle PON = 90^\circ$), let ϕ be the angle between the radius vector OP and the tangent line PT . Since $\angle TPN = 90^\circ$, we have $\angle ONP = \phi$.

Using right-triangle trigonometry in $\triangle OPN$:

$$\cot \phi = \frac{ON}{OP} = \frac{ON}{r} \implies ON = r \cot \phi.$$

Substituting the known relation $\cot \phi = \frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta}$:

$$ON = r \left(\frac{1}{r} \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right) = \frac{dr}{d\theta}.$$

Taking the absolute value to ensure a non-negative geometric length:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-normal} = \left| \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right|.$$

■

Example 2.13.3. Find the length of the polar sub-normal for the cardioid $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \theta.$$

Evaluating at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$:

$$\left. \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right|_{\theta=\pi/2} = a \sin \frac{\pi}{2} = a.$$

Substituting into the formula:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-normal} = \left| \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right| = |a| = a \quad (\text{assuming } a > 0).$$

■

Example 2.13.4. Show that the length of the polar sub-normal for the Archimedean spiral $r = a\theta$ is constant.

Solution. Differentiating $r = a\theta$ with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a.$$

Substituting into the formula:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-normal} = \left| \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right| = |a| = a.$$

Since a is a constant, the length of the polar sub-normal is constant for all points on the Archimedean spiral. ■

Example 2.13.5. Find the length of the polar sub-normal for the parabola $\frac{2a}{r} = 1 - \cos \theta$.

Solution. Rearranging the equation yields $r = \frac{2a}{1 - \cos \theta}$. Differentiating with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -\frac{2a}{(1 - \cos \theta)^2} \cdot \sin \theta = -r \left(\frac{\sin \theta}{1 - \cos \theta} \right).$$

Using half-angle trigonometric identities:

$$\frac{\sin \theta}{1 - \cos \theta} = \frac{2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2)}{2 \sin^2(\theta/2)} = \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

Thus, $\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -r \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right)$.

Taking the absolute value yields the length of the polar sub-normal:

$$\text{Length of Polar Sub-normal} = \left| \frac{dr}{d\theta} \right| = r \cot \left(\frac{\theta}{2} \right).$$

■

Exercise 2.13.6. Solve the following exercise:

1. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{e^x + e^{-x} - 2 \cos x}{x \sin x}.$$

2. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \frac{x - \tan x}{x^3}.$$

3. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} \frac{\ln(1 + e^{2x})}{x}.$$

4. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} x^2 \ln x.$$

5. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \left(\frac{1}{x^2} - \frac{1}{\sin^2 x} \right).$$

6. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \left(\frac{\sin x}{x} \right)^{1/x^2}.$$

7. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0^+} (\tan x)^x.$$

8. Evaluate the limit:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow \infty} (1 + x)^{1/x}.$$

9. Show that for positive constants a and b :

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow 0} \left(\frac{a^x + b^x}{2} \right)^{1/x} = \sqrt{ab}.$$

10. Find the angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent for the cardioid $r = a(1 + \sin \theta)$ at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{3}$.
11. Show that for the polar curve $r^n = a^n \cos n\theta$, the angle ϕ between the radius vector and the tangent is given by $\phi = \frac{\pi}{2} + n\theta$.
12. Derive the pedal equation (p - r relation) for the parabola $\frac{2a}{r} = 1 + \cos \theta$.
13. Show that the pedal equation for the lemniscate $r^2 = a^2 \cos 2\theta$ is $p = \frac{r^3}{a^2}$.
14. Find the perpendicular distance p from the pole to the tangent for the curve $r^n = a^n \sin n\theta$.
15. Find the angle of intersection between the two circles $r = a \sin \theta$ and $r = a \cos \theta$.
16. Prove that the parabolas $r = \frac{a}{1 + \cos \theta}$ and $r = \frac{b}{1 - \cos \theta}$ intersect orthogonally.
17. Determine the angle of intersection between the polar curves $r^2 \sin 2\theta = 4$ and $r^2 \cos 2\theta = 4$.
18. For the cardioid $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$, calculate the lengths of the polar tangent, polar normal, polar subtangent, and polar subnormal at $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$.
19. Show that the length of the polar subnormal for the logarithmic spiral $r = ae^\theta$ is equal to its radius vector r at every point.
20. Show that the length of the polar subtangent for the curve $r^n \theta = a^n$ is inversely proportional to r^{n-1} (or proportional to r^{n+1} depending on n).

Chapter 3

Differential Geometry of Curves and Real Analysis

This unit explores the local geometry of plane curves alongside fundamental theorems of real analysis. It introduces differential measures of bending—curvature, radius of curvature, and osculating circles—along with pedal equations, arc lengths, asymptotes, and singular points. Furthermore, it establishes core global properties of continuous functions on closed intervals, including the Boundedness Theorem, Extreme Value Theorem, Intermediate Value Theorem, and Darboux's Theorem.

3.1 Curvature and Radius of Curvature

Definition 3.1.1 (Curvature). **Curvature**, denoted by the Greek letter kappa (κ), measures the rate at which a curve changes direction with respect to arc length s .

- A straight line does not bend at all, so its curvature is $\kappa = 0$ everywhere.
- A circle bends uniformly. Smaller circles bend more sharply and thus have larger curvatures.

Formally, if $\mathbf{T} = \frac{d\mathbf{r}}{ds}$ is the unit tangent vector to the curve $s \mapsto \mathbf{r}(s)$, the curvature is defined as:

$$\kappa = \left\| \frac{d\mathbf{T}}{ds} \right\| = \left| \frac{d\psi}{ds} \right|,$$

where ψ is the angle of inclination of the tangent line with the positive x -axis.

Definition 3.1.2 (Radius of Curvature). The **radius of curvature**, denoted by the Greek letter rho (ρ), is the reciprocal of the curvature:

$$\rho = \frac{1}{\kappa} = \left| \frac{ds}{d\psi} \right| \quad (\text{for } \kappa \neq 0).$$

Geometrically, ρ is the radius of the **osculating circle** (or "kissing circle") that best fits the curve locally at a given point, sharing both the same tangent line and curvature.

3.1.1 Formulas for Computation in Various Coordinate Systems

1. Cartesian Form $y = f(x)$:

$$\kappa = \frac{|y''|}{[1 + (y')^2]^{3/2}} \implies \rho = \frac{[1 + (y')^2]^{3/2}}{|y''|},$$

where $y' = \frac{dy}{dx}$ and $y'' = \frac{d^2y}{dx^2}$. (If the tangent is vertical, use $\rho = \frac{[1 + (x')^2]^{3/2}}{|x''|}$ where $x' = \frac{dx}{dy}$).

2. Parametric Form $x = x(t), y = y(t)$:

$$\rho = \frac{(\dot{x}^2 + \dot{y}^2)^{3/2}}{|\dot{x}\ddot{y} - \dot{y}\ddot{x}|},$$

where dots denote differentiation with respect to the parameter t .

3. Polar Form $r = f(\theta)$:

$$\rho = \frac{[r^2 + (r')^2]^{3/2}}{|r^2 + 2(r')^2 - rr''|},$$

where $r' = \frac{dr}{d\theta}$ and $r'' = \frac{d^2r}{d\theta^2}$.

4. Pedal Form $p = f(r)$: For a curve expressed in terms of its radius vector r and perpendicular distance p from the pole to the tangent line:

$$\rho = r \frac{dr}{dp}.$$

5. Intrinsic Form $s = f(\psi)$: When arc length s is given directly as a function of the tangent inclination angle ψ :

$$\rho = \left| \frac{ds}{d\psi} \right|.$$

Example 3.1.3 (Cartesian Form – Catenary Curve). Find the radius of curvature at any point for the catenary $y = c \cosh\left(\frac{x}{c}\right)$, and show that $\rho = \frac{y^2}{c}$.

Solution. Given $y = c \cosh\left(\frac{x}{c}\right)$. First, compute the first derivative:

$$y' = \frac{dy}{dx} = \sinh\left(\frac{x}{c}\right).$$

Differentiating again to find the second derivative:

$$y'' = \frac{d^2y}{dx^2} = \frac{1}{c} \cosh\left(\frac{x}{c}\right).$$

Using the fundamental hyperbolic identity $1 + \sinh^2 u = \cosh^2 u$:

$$1 + (y')^2 = 1 + \sinh^2\left(\frac{x}{c}\right) = \cosh^2\left(\frac{x}{c}\right).$$

Substitute these expressions into the Cartesian radius of curvature formula:

$$\rho = \frac{[1 + (y')^2]^{3/2}}{|y''|} = \frac{[\cosh^2(x/c)]^{3/2}}{\frac{1}{c} \cosh(x/c)} = c \frac{\cosh^3(x/c)}{\cosh(x/c)} = c \cosh^2\left(\frac{x}{c}\right).$$

Since $y = c \cosh(x/c) \implies \cosh(x/c) = \frac{y}{c}$, we substitute this back:

$$\rho = c \left(\frac{y}{c}\right)^2 = \frac{y^2}{c}.$$

■

Example 3.1.4 (Parametric Form – Cycloid). Find the radius of curvature at any point t for the cycloid $x = a(t - \sin t)$, $y = a(1 - \cos t)$.

Solution. First, compute the first-order derivatives with respect to t :

$$\dot{x} = a(1 - \cos t), \quad \dot{y} = a \sin t.$$

Next, compute the second-order derivatives:

$$\ddot{x} = a \sin t, \quad \ddot{y} = a \cos t.$$

Evaluate the numerator factor $(\dot{x}^2 + \dot{y}^2)$:

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{x}^2 + \dot{y}^2 &= a^2(1 - \cos t)^2 + a^2 \sin^2 t \\ &= a^2(1 - 2 \cos t + \cos^2 t + \sin^2 t) \\ &= a^2(2 - 2 \cos t) = 2a^2(1 - \cos t) = 4a^2 \sin^2 \left(\frac{t}{2} \right). \end{aligned}$$

Taking the $3/2$ power:

$$(\dot{x}^2 + \dot{y}^2)^{3/2} = \left[4a^2 \sin^2 \left(\frac{t}{2} \right) \right]^{3/2} = 8a^3 \sin^3 \left(\frac{t}{2} \right).$$

Now compute the cross-product term in the denominator:

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{x}\ddot{y} - \dot{y}\ddot{x} &= [a(1 - \cos t)][a \cos t] - [a \sin t][a \sin t] \\ &= a^2 \cos t - a^2 \cos^2 t - a^2 \sin^2 t \\ &= a^2(\cos t - 1) = -2a^2 \sin^2 \left(\frac{t}{2} \right). \end{aligned}$$

Substituting these into the parametric radius of curvature formula:

$$\rho = \frac{(\dot{x}^2 + \dot{y}^2)^{3/2}}{|\dot{x}\ddot{y} - \dot{y}\ddot{x}|} = \frac{8a^3 \sin^3(t/2)}{|-2a^2 \sin^2(t/2)|} = 4a \sin \left(\frac{t}{2} \right).$$

■

Example 3.1.5 (Polar Form – General Cardioid). Find the radius of curvature at any angle θ for the cardioid $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$.

Solution. Differentiating $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$ with respect to θ :

$$r' = a \sin \theta, \quad \text{and} \quad r'' = a \cos \theta.$$

Compute the term $r^2 + (r')^2$:

$$\begin{aligned} r^2 + (r')^2 &= a^2(1 - \cos \theta)^2 + a^2 \sin^2 \theta \\ &= a^2(1 - 2 \cos \theta + \cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta) = 2a^2(1 - \cos \theta) = 2ar. \end{aligned}$$

Taking the $3/2$ power:

$$[r^2 + (r')^2]^{3/2} = (2ar)^{3/2} = 2\sqrt{2}a^{3/2}r^{3/2}.$$

Compute the denominator expression $r^2 + 2(r')^2 - rr''$:

$$\begin{aligned} r^2 + 2(r')^2 - rr'' &= a^2(1 - \cos \theta)^2 + 2a^2 \sin^2 \theta - a(1 - \cos \theta)(a \cos \theta) \\ &= a^2[(1 - 2 \cos \theta + \cos^2 \theta) + 2 \sin^2 \theta - (\cos \theta - \cos^2 \theta)] \\ &= a^2[1 - 3 \cos \theta + 2 \cos^2 \theta + 2 \sin^2 \theta] \\ &= a^2[3 - 3 \cos \theta] = 3a \cdot a(1 - \cos \theta) = 3ar. \end{aligned}$$

Substituting both terms into the polar radius of curvature formula:

$$\rho = \frac{[r^2 + (r')^2]^{3/2}}{|r^2 + 2(r')^2 - rr''|} = \frac{2\sqrt{2}a^{3/2}r^{3/2}}{3ar} = \frac{2}{3}\sqrt{2ar}.$$

Expressing ρ directly in terms of θ using $r = 2a \sin^2(\theta/2)$:

$$\rho = \frac{2}{3}\sqrt{2a \cdot 2a \sin^2(\theta/2)} = \frac{4a}{3} \sin\left(\frac{\theta}{2}\right).$$

■

Example 3.1.6 (Pedal Form Formula). Find the radius of curvature for the cardioid whose pedal equation is $p^2 = \frac{r^3}{2a}$.

Solution. Given the pedal equation $p^2 = \frac{r^3}{2a} \implies p = \frac{r^{3/2}}{\sqrt{2a}}$.

Differentiating with respect to r :

$$\frac{dp}{dr} = \frac{3}{2\sqrt{2a}}r^{1/2}.$$

Taking the reciprocal:

$$\frac{dr}{dp} = \frac{2\sqrt{2a}}{3\sqrt{r}}.$$

Using the pedal form formula $\rho = r \frac{dr}{dp}$:

$$\rho = r \left(\frac{2\sqrt{2a}}{3\sqrt{r}} \right) = \frac{2}{3}\sqrt{2ar}.$$

This matches the result obtained from the polar form derivation. ■

3.2 Pedal Equations

Definition 3.2.1 (Pedal Equation). The **pedal equation** of a curve is a relation between the length of the radius vector, r , and the length of the perpendicular from the pole (origin) to the tangent at that point, denoted by p . The equation is of the form $f(p, r) = 0$.

Theorem 3.2.2 (Derivation Formula). Let the equation of the curve be given in polar form, $r = f(\theta)$. Then the pedal equation is given by the formula:

$$\frac{1}{p^2} = \frac{1}{r^2} + \frac{1}{r^4} \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta} \right)^2 \quad (3.1)$$

To find the pedal equation, one must eliminate θ from this formula using the original curve's equation.

Example 3.2.3. Find the pedal equation of the cardioid $r = a(1 - \cos \theta)$.

Solution. First, find the derivative: $\frac{dr}{d\theta} = a \sin \theta$. Substitute into the formula:

$$\frac{1}{p^2} = \frac{1}{r^2} + \frac{1}{r^4} (a \sin \theta)^2 = \frac{1}{r^2} + \frac{a^2 \sin^2 \theta}{r^4}$$

From the curve's equation, $\cos \theta = 1 - \frac{r}{a}$. We also know $\sin^2 \theta = 1 - \cos^2 \theta$.

$$\begin{aligned}\sin^2 \theta &= 1 - \left(1 - \frac{r}{a}\right)^2 = 1 - \left(1 - \frac{2r}{a} + \frac{r^2}{a^2}\right) = \frac{2r}{a} - \frac{r^2}{a^2} = \frac{r(2a - r)}{a^2} \\ \Rightarrow \frac{1}{p^2} &= \frac{1}{r^2} + \frac{a^2}{r^4} \left(\frac{r(2a - r)}{a^2}\right) = \frac{1}{r^2} + \frac{2a - r}{r^3} \\ &= \frac{r + (2a - r)}{r^3} = \frac{2a}{r^3}\end{aligned}$$

The pedal equation is $r^3 = 2ap^2$. ■

Exercise 3.2.4. Find the pedal equation of $r = 2a \sin \theta$.

3.3 Lengths of Arcs

Definition 3.3.1 (Arc Length). The **length of an arc** of a curve is the distance measured along the curve between two points. It is found by integrating a differential element of length, ds .

3.3.1 Formulas for Arc Length

The differential arc length ds and the total arc length S from a point A to a point B are given by:

1. **Cartesian Form:** For $y = f(x)$ from $x = a$ to $x = b$.

$$ds = \sqrt{1 + (y')^2} dx \quad \Rightarrow \quad S = \int_a^b \sqrt{1 + \left(\frac{dy}{dx}\right)^2} dx$$

2. **Parametric Form:** For $x = x(t), y = y(t)$ from $t = t_1$ to $t = t_2$.

$$ds = \sqrt{(\dot{x})^2 + (\dot{y})^2} dt \quad \Rightarrow \quad S = \int_{t_1}^{t_2} \sqrt{\left(\frac{dx}{dt}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{dy}{dt}\right)^2} dt$$

3. **Polar Form:** For $r = f(\theta)$ from $\theta = \alpha$ to $\theta = \beta$.

$$ds = \sqrt{r^2 + (r')^2} d\theta \quad \Rightarrow \quad S = \int_{\alpha}^{\beta} \sqrt{r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right)^2} d\theta$$

Example 3.3.2. Find the total length of the cardioid $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$.

Solution. The curve is symmetric about the initial line, so we can find the length from $\theta = 0$ to $\theta = \pi$ and double it. First, find the derivative: $\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -a \sin \theta$. Now, set up the expression under the square root:

$$\begin{aligned}r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right)^2 &= a^2(1 + \cos \theta)^2 + (-a \sin \theta)^2 \\ &= a^2(1 + 2\cos \theta + \cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta) \\ &= a^2(2 + 2\cos \theta) = 2a^2(1 + \cos \theta) \\ &= 2a^2(2\cos^2(\theta/2)) = 4a^2\cos^2(\theta/2)\end{aligned}$$

The integrand is $\sqrt{4a^2 \cos^2(\theta/2)} = 2a|\cos(\theta/2)|$. For $\theta \in [0, \pi]$, $\cos(\theta/2) \geq 0$. The total length S is:

$$\begin{aligned} S &= 2 \int_0^\pi 2a \cos(\theta/2) d\theta = 4a \left[\frac{\sin(\theta/2)}{1/2} \right]_0^\pi \\ &= 8a[\sin(\theta/2)]_0^\pi = 8a(\sin(\pi/2) - \sin(0)) = 8a(1 - 0) = 8a \end{aligned}$$

The total length of the cardioid is $8a$. ■

Example 3.3.3. Find the length of one arch of the cycloid given by $x(t) = a(t - \sin t)$ and $y(t) = a(1 - \cos t)$, where one arch corresponds to $t \in [0, 2\pi]$.

Solution. First, find the derivatives with respect to t :

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = a(1 - \cos t) \quad \text{and} \quad \frac{dy}{dt} = a \sin t$$

Next, set up the expression under the square root:

$$\begin{aligned} \left(\frac{dx}{dt}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{dy}{dt}\right)^2 &= a^2(1 - \cos t)^2 + (a \sin t)^2 \\ &= a^2(1 - 2\cos t + \cos^2 t + \sin^2 t) \\ &= a^2(2 - 2\cos t) = 2a^2(1 - \cos t) \\ &= 2a^2(2\sin^2(t/2)) = 4a^2 \sin^2(t/2) \end{aligned}$$

The integrand becomes $\sqrt{4a^2 \sin^2(t/2)} = 2a|\sin(t/2)|$. For $t \in [0, 2\pi]$, $\sin(t/2) \geq 0$. The arc length is:

$$\begin{aligned} S &= \int_0^{2\pi} 2a \sin(t/2) dt = 2a \left[\frac{-\cos(t/2)}{1/2} \right]_0^{2\pi} \\ &= -4a[\cos(t/2)]_0^{2\pi} \\ &= -4a(\cos(\pi) - \cos(0)) = -4a(-1 - 1) = 8a \end{aligned}$$

The length of one arch of the cycloid is $8a$. ■

Example 3.3.4. Find the total length of the astroid given by $x(t) = a \cos^3 t$ and $y(t) = a \sin^3 t$.

Solution. The curve is symmetric. We will find the length of the arc in the first quadrant (from $t = 0$ to $t = \pi/2$) and multiply by 4. First, find the derivatives:

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = -3a \cos^2 t \sin t \quad \text{and} \quad \frac{dy}{dt} = 3a \sin^2 t \cos t$$

Next, set up the expression under the square root:

$$\begin{aligned} \left(\frac{dx}{dt}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{dy}{dt}\right)^2 &= (-3a \cos^2 t \sin t)^2 + (3a \sin^2 t \cos t)^2 \\ &= 9a^2 \cos^4 t \sin^2 t + 9a^2 \sin^4 t \cos^2 t \\ &= 9a^2 \cos^2 t \sin^2 t (\cos^2 t + \sin^2 t) \\ &= 9a^2 \cos^2 t \sin^2 t \end{aligned}$$

The integrand is $\sqrt{9a^2 \cos^2 t \sin^2 t} = 3a|\cos t \sin t|$. For $t \in [0, \pi/2]$, this is positive. The total length S is:

$$\begin{aligned} S &= 4 \int_0^{\pi/2} 3a \cos t \sin t \, dt = 12a \int_0^{\pi/2} \sin t \cos t \, dt \\ &= 12a \left[\frac{\sin^2 t}{2} \right]_0^{\pi/2} \\ &= 6a[\sin^2 t]_0^{\pi/2} = 6a(\sin^2(\pi/2) - \sin^2(0)) = 6a(1 - 0) = 6a \end{aligned}$$

The total length of the astroid is $6a$. ■

3.4 Arc Length of Polar Curves

The arc length S of a curve defined by the polar equation $r = f(\theta)$ from $\theta = \alpha$ to $\theta = \beta$ is given by:

$$S = \int_{\alpha}^{\beta} \sqrt{r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right)^2} d\theta$$

Example 3.4.1. Find the length of the spiral $r = e^{a\theta}$ from $\theta = 0$ to $\theta = 2\pi$.

Solution. First, find the derivative with respect to θ :

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = ae^{a\theta}$$

Next, set up the expression under the square root:

$$\begin{aligned} r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right)^2 &= (e^{a\theta})^2 + (ae^{a\theta})^2 \\ &= e^{2a\theta} + a^2 e^{2a\theta} \\ &= e^{2a\theta}(1 + a^2) \end{aligned}$$

The integrand becomes $\sqrt{e^{2a\theta}(1 + a^2)} = e^{a\theta}\sqrt{1 + a^2}$. The arc length is:

$$\begin{aligned} S &= \int_0^{2\pi} e^{a\theta} \sqrt{1 + a^2} d\theta = \sqrt{1 + a^2} \int_0^{2\pi} e^{a\theta} d\theta \\ &= \sqrt{1 + a^2} \left[\frac{e^{a\theta}}{a} \right]_0^{2\pi} \\ &= \frac{\sqrt{1 + a^2}}{a} [e^{a\theta}]_0^{2\pi} = \frac{\sqrt{1 + a^2}}{a} (e^{2a\pi} - e^0) \end{aligned}$$

The arc length is $\frac{\sqrt{1 + a^2}}{a} (e^{2a\pi} - 1)$. ■

Example 3.4.2. Find the length of the circumference of the circle $r = 2a \cos \theta$.

Solution. The circle is traced once as θ goes from $-\pi/2$ to $\pi/2$. First, find the derivative:

$$\frac{dr}{d\theta} = -2a \sin \theta$$

Next, set up the expression under the square root:

$$\begin{aligned} r^2 + \left(\frac{dr}{d\theta}\right)^2 &= (2a \cos \theta)^2 + (-2a \sin \theta)^2 \\ &= 4a^2 \cos^2 \theta + 4a^2 \sin^2 \theta \\ &= 4a^2(\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta) = 4a^2 \end{aligned}$$

The integrand is $\sqrt{4a^2} = 2a$. The arc length is:

$$\begin{aligned} S &= \int_{-\pi/2}^{\pi/2} 2a \, d\theta = 2a[\theta]_{-\pi/2}^{\pi/2} \\ &= 2a\left(\frac{\pi}{2} - \left(-\frac{\pi}{2}\right)\right) = 2a(\pi) = 2\pi a \end{aligned}$$

This confirms the circumference of a circle with radius a is $2\pi a$. ■

3.5 Asymptotes

Definition 3.5.1 (Asymptote). An **asymptote** of a curve $y = f(x)$ is a straight line such that the perpendicular distance from a point P on the curve to the line approaches zero as P moves along the curve to infinity.

Asymptotes are classified into three geometric categories:

1. Vertical Asymptotes: The line $x = c$ is a vertical asymptote if:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow c^-} |f(x)| = \infty \quad \text{or} \quad \lim_{x \rightarrow c^+} |f(x)| = \infty.$$

2. Horizontal Asymptotes: The line $y = L$ is a horizontal asymptote if:

$$\lim_{x \rightarrow +\infty} f(x) = L \quad \text{or} \quad \lim_{x \rightarrow -\infty} f(x) = L.$$

3. Oblique (or Slant) Asymptotes: The line $y = mx + c$ ($m \neq 0$) is an oblique asymptote if:

$$m = \lim_{x \rightarrow \pm\infty} \frac{f(x)}{x} \quad \text{and} \quad c = \lim_{x \rightarrow \pm\infty} [f(x) - mx].$$

3.5.1 Working Rule for Algebraic Curves

For a general algebraic curve $F(x, y) = 0$ of degree n , asymptotes are determined as follows:

1. Asymptotes Parallel to the Coordinate Axes

- **Parallel to y -axis (Vertical):** Equate the coefficient of the highest power of y in $F(x, y) = 0$ to zero. If this yields real linear factors $x = c_i$, these lines are vertical asymptotes.
- **Parallel to x -axis (Horizontal):** Equate the coefficient of the highest power of x in $F(x, y) = 0$ to zero. If this yields real linear factors $y = k_i$, these lines are horizontal asymptotes.

2. Oblique Asymptotes ($y = mx + c$)

Group terms of the algebraic curve by degree: $F_n(x, y) + F_{n-1}(x, y) + F_{n-2}(x, y) + \dots = 0$. Substitute $x = 1$ and $y = m$ into these groups to obtain the functions $\phi_n(m), \phi_{n-1}(m), \phi_{n-2}(m), \dots$

Solve the characteristic equation $\phi_n(m) = 0$ for m :

- **Case I: Non-repeated real root m :** The corresponding c value is given by:

$$c = -\frac{\phi_{n-1}(m)}{\phi'_n(m)} \quad (\text{provided } \phi'_n(m) \neq 0).$$

- **Case II: Repeated real roots ($m_1 = m_2 = m$):** Here $\phi'_n(m) = 0$. The two values of c are determined by solving the quadratic equation:

$$\frac{c^2}{2!}\phi''_n(m) + c\phi'_{n-1}(m) + \phi_{n-2}(m) = 0.$$

Example 3.5.2 (Folium of Descartes). Find all asymptotes of the curve $x^3 + y^3 = 3axy$.

Solution. The given curve equation is $x^3 + y^3 - 3axy = 0$, which is of degree $n = 3$.

Asymptotes Parallel to Axes: The coefficient of the highest power of x (x^3) is 1 (a non-zero constant), so there are no asymptotes parallel to the x -axis. Similarly, the coefficient of y^3 is 1, so there are no asymptotes parallel to the y -axis.

Oblique Asymptotes ($y = mx + c$): Obtain $\phi_3(m)$ and $\phi_2(m)$ by setting $x = 1$ and $y = m$:

$$\begin{aligned}\phi_3(m) &= 1 + m^3 \quad (\text{from degree 3 terms } x^3 + y^3), \\ \phi_2(m) &= -3am \quad (\text{from degree 2 term } -3axy).\end{aligned}$$

Solve $\phi_3(m) = 0$:

$$m^3 + 1 = 0 \implies (m + 1)(m^2 - m + 1) = 0 \implies m = -1 \text{ (only real root).}$$

Compute the derivative $\phi'_3(m) = 3m^2$. For $m = -1$:

$$c = -\frac{\phi_2(-1)}{\phi'_3(-1)} = -\frac{-3a(-1)}{3(-1)^2} = -\frac{3a}{3} = -a.$$

Substituting $m = -1$ and $c = -a$ into $y = mx + c$ yields the oblique asymptote $y = -x - a$, or:

$$x + y + a = 0.$$

■

Example 3.5.3 (Algebraic Curve with Axes Parallel and Oblique Asymptotes). Find all the asymptotes of the curve $x^2y - xy^2 + xy + y^2 + x - y = 0$.

Solution. The degree of the given algebraic curve is $n = 3$.

Asymptotes Parallel to y -axis: The highest power of y present in the equation is y^2 . Grouping its terms: $y^2(1 - x) + xy + x^2y + x - y = 0$. Equating the coefficient of y^2 to zero:

$$1 - x = 0 \implies x = 1.$$

Thus, $x = 1$ is a vertical asymptote.

Asymptotes Parallel to x -axis: The highest power of x present in the equation is x^2 . Grouping its terms: $x^2(y) - xy^2 + xy + y^2 + x - y = 0$. Equating the coefficient of x^2 to zero:

$$y = 0.$$

Thus, $y = 0$ is a horizontal asymptote.

Oblique Asymptotes ($y = mx + c$): Substitute $x = 1$ and $y = m$ into the degree 3 and degree 2 terms:

$$\begin{aligned}\phi_3(m) &= m - m^2 \quad (\text{from } x^2y - xy^2), \\ \phi_2(m) &= m + m^2 \quad (\text{from } xy + y^2).\end{aligned}$$

Solve $\phi_3(m) = 0$:

$$m(1 - m) = 0 \implies m = 0 \quad \text{or} \quad m = 1.$$

For $m = 0$, we have $\phi'_3(m) = 1 - 2m \implies \phi'_3(0) = 1$. The intercept c is:

$$c = -\frac{\phi_2(0)}{\phi'_3(0)} = -\frac{0}{1} = 0,$$

which yields $y = 0$ (confirming the horizontal asymptote found above).

For $m = 1$, we have $\phi'_3(1) = 1 - 2(1) = -1$, and $\phi_2(1) = 1 + 1^2 = 2$. The intercept c is:

$$c = -\frac{\phi_2(1)}{\phi'_3(1)} = -\frac{2}{-1} = 2.$$

Substituting $m = 1$ and $c = 2$ gives the oblique asymptote $y = x + 2$.

Conclusion: The curve possesses three asymptotes: $x = 1$, $y = 0$, and $y = x + 2$. ■

Example 3.5.4 (Repeated Roots for Oblique Asymptotes). Find all asymptotes of the curve $x^3 + x^2y - xy^2 - y^3 + 2x^2 - 2y^2 + x - 1 = 0$.

Solution. The degree of the given equation is $n = 3$.

Asymptotes Parallel to Axes: The coefficients of x^3 and y^3 are both non-zero constants (1 and -1), so there are no asymptotes parallel to the coordinate axes.

Oblique Asymptotes ($y = mx + c$): Obtain $\phi_3(m)$, $\phi_2(m)$, and $\phi_1(m)$ by setting $x = 1$ and $y = m$:

$$\begin{aligned}\phi_3(m) &= 1 + m - m^2 - m^3 = (1 - m)(1 + m)^2, \\ \phi_2(m) &= 2 - 2m^2, \\ \phi_1(m) &= 1.\end{aligned}$$

Solve $\phi_3(m) = 0$:

$$(1 - m)(1 + m)^2 = 0 \implies m = 1 \quad \text{and} \quad m = -1 \text{ (repeated root)}.$$

For non-repeated root $m = 1$: Differentiating $\phi_3(m)$: $\phi'_3(m) = 1 - 2m - 3m^2 \implies \phi'_3(1) = -4$.

$$c = -\frac{\phi_2(1)}{\phi'_3(1)} = -\frac{2 - 2(1)^2}{-4} = 0.$$

This yields the first oblique asymptote: $y = x$.

For repeated root $m = -1$ (double root): Since $\phi'_3(-1) = 0$, we use the quadratic equation for c :

$$\frac{c^2}{2!}\phi''_3(-1) + c\phi'_2(-1) + \phi_1(-1) = 0.$$

Calculate the required derivatives:

$$\begin{aligned}\phi''_3(m) &= -2 - 6m \implies \phi''_3(-1) = 4, \\ \phi'_2(m) &= -4m \implies \phi'_2(-1) = 4, \\ \phi_1(-1) &= 1.\end{aligned}$$

Substituting these derivatives into the quadratic equation:

$$\frac{c^2}{2}(4) + c(4) + 1 = 0 \implies 2c^2 + 4c + 1 = 0.$$

Solving for c using the quadratic formula:

$$c = \frac{-4 \pm \sqrt{16 - 8}}{4} = \frac{-4 \pm 2\sqrt{2}}{4} = -1 \pm \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}.$$

This yields two parallel oblique asymptotes:

$$y = -x - 1 + \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2} \quad \text{and} \quad y = -x - 1 - \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}.$$

Conclusion: The three asymptotes of the curve are $y = x$, $y = -x - 1 + \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}$, and $y = -x - 1 - \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}$. ■

3.6 Singular Points

Definition 3.6.1 (Singular Point). A **singular point** on an algebraic curve $f(x, y) = 0$ is a point where the curve behaves in an extraordinary way. Mathematically, it is a point (x_0, y_0) on the curve where both partial derivatives are simultaneously zero:

$$f(x_0, y_0) = 0, \quad \left. \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} \right|_{(x_0, y_0)} = 0, \quad \text{and} \quad \left. \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} \right|_{(x_0, y_0)} = 0$$

At a singular point, the tangent to the curve is not uniquely defined.

3.6.1 Classification of Singular Points (Double Points)

A common type of singular point is a **double point**, where two branches of the curve pass. We classify double points by examining the quantity:

$$\Delta = \left(\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} \right)^2 - \left(\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2} \right) \left(\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2} \right)$$

evaluated at the singular point.

1. If $\Delta > 0$, the point is a **node**. The curve has two distinct real tangents at this point.
2. If $\Delta = 0$, the point is a **cusp**. The curve has two coincident real tangents.
3. If $\Delta < 0$, the point is a **conjugate point** or isolated point. The tangents are imaginary.

Example 3.6.2. Find and classify the singular points on the curve $y^2 = x^2(x + 1)$.

Solution. Let $f(x, y) = y^2 - x^3 - x^2 = 0$. Find partial derivatives:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = -3x^2 - 2x \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = 2y$$

Set them to zero: $2y = 0 \implies y = 0$. And $-3x^2 - 2x = -x(3x + 2) = 0 \implies x = 0$ or $x = -2/3$. We check which of these potential points, $(0, 0)$ and $(-2/3, 0)$, are on the curve.

- For $(0, 0)$: $0^2 - 0^3 - 0^2 = 0$. This point is on the curve. It is a singular point.
- For $(-2/3, 0)$: $0^2 - (-2/3)^3 - (-2/3)^2 = 8/27 - 4/9 = -4/27 \neq 0$. Not on the curve.

The only singular point is $(0, 0)$. To classify it, find second derivatives at $(0, 0)$:

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2} = -6x - 2 \implies -2 \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2} = 2 \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} = 0$$

Calculate $\Delta = (0)^2 - (-2)(2) = 4$. Since $\Delta > 0$, the point $(0, 0)$ is a **node**. ■

Example 3.6.3. Find and classify the singular points on the curve $y^2 = x^3$.

Solution. Let the curve be $f(x, y) = y^2 - x^3 = 0$.

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = -3x^2 \implies -3x^2 = 0 \implies x = 0$$

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = 2y \implies 2y = 0 \implies y = 0$$

The only potential singular point is $(0, 0)$. This point satisfies the original equation ($0^2 - 0^3 = 0$), so it is a singular point.

The second-order partial derivatives are

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2} = -6x \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2} = 2 \quad \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} = 0$$

Evaluate these at the singular point $(0, 0)$:

$$\left. \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2} \right|_{(0,0)} = -6(0) = 0$$

$$\left. \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2} \right|_{(0,0)} = 2$$

$$\left. \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} \right|_{(0,0)} = 0$$

Therefore,

$$\Delta = (0)^2 - (0)(2) = 0$$

Since $\Delta = 0$, the singular point $(0, 0)$ is a **cusp**. ■

3.7 Maxima and Minima of Functions

Definition 3.7.1 (Local Extrema). A function $f(x)$ has a **local maximum** at $x = c$ if $f(c) \geq f(x)$ for all x in some open interval containing c . A function $f(x)$ has a **local minimum** at $x = c$ if $f(c) \leq f(x)$ for all x in some open interval containing c .

3.7.1 Finding Local Extrema

1. **Find Critical Points:** These are points where the first derivative is zero or undefined, i.e., $f'(x) = 0$ or $f'(x)$ does not exist.

2. **First Derivative Test:**

- If $f'(x)$ changes from positive to negative at a critical point c , then f has a local maximum at c .
- If $f'(x)$ changes from negative to positive at a critical point c , then f has a local minimum at c .

- If $f'(x)$ does not change sign, there is no local extremum at c .

3. **Second Derivative Test:** Let c be a critical point such that $f'(c) = 0$.

- If $f''(c) < 0$, then f has a local maximum at c .
- If $f''(c) > 0$, then f has a local minimum at c .
- If $f''(c) = 0$, the test is inconclusive. Use the First Derivative Test.

Example 3.7.2. Find the local maxima and minima for the function $f(x) = x^3 - 6x^2 + 5$.

Solution.

$$f'(x) = 3x^2 - 12x$$

Set $f'(x) = 0 \implies 3x(x - 4) = 0$. The critical points are $x = 0$ and $x = 4$.

We use the Second Derivative Test.

$$f''(x) = 6x - 12$$

- At $x = 0$: $f''(0) = 6(0) - 12 = -12 < 0$. So there is a **local maximum** at $x = 0$. The maximum value is $f(0) = 0^3 - 6(0)^2 + 5 = 5$.
- At $x = 4$: $f''(4) = 6(4) - 12 = 12 > 0$. So there is a **local minimum** at $x = 4$. The minimum value is $f(4) = 4^3 - 6(4)^2 + 5 = 64 - 96 + 5 = -27$.

■

Example 3.7.3. Find the local extrema of $f(x) = x + \frac{1}{x}$.

Solution.

$$f'(x) = 1 - \frac{1}{x^2}$$

Set $f'(x) = 0 \implies 1 - \frac{1}{x^2} = 0 \implies x^2 = 1 \implies x = \pm 1$. The derivative is undefined at $x = 0$, but $x = 0$ is not in the domain of $f(x)$. The critical points are $x = 1$ and $x = -1$.

We use the Second Derivative Test.

$$f''(x) = \frac{2}{x^3}$$

- At $x = 1$: $f''(1) = \frac{2}{1^3} = 2 > 0$. So there is a **local minimum** at $x = 1$. The minimum value is $f(1) = 1 + \frac{1}{1} = 2$.
- At $x = -1$: $f''(-1) = \frac{2}{(-1)^3} = -2 < 0$. So there is a **local maximum** at $x = -1$. The maximum value is $f(-1) = -1 + \frac{1}{-1} = -2$.

■

3.8 Bounded Functions

Definition 3.8.1 (Bounded Function). A function f is said to be **bounded** on an interval I if there exists a real number $M > 0$ such that $|f(x)| \leq M$ for all $x \in I$. This means the function's range is contained within the finite interval $[-M, M]$.

- f is **bounded above** if there is a number K such that $f(x) \leq K$ for all $x \in I$.
- f is **bounded below** if there is a number k such that $f(x) \geq k$ for all $x \in I$.

A function is bounded if and only if it is bounded both above and below.

Example 3.8.2 (Bounded Function). The function $f(x) = \sin(x)$ is bounded on $\mathbb{R}$ because for all x , we have $-1 \leq \sin(x) \leq 1$. We can choose $M = 1$, since $|\sin(x)| \leq 1$.

Example 3.8.3 (Unbounded Function). The function $f(x) = \frac{1}{x}$ is unbounded on the interval $(0, 1]$. As x approaches 0 from the right, $f(x)$ approaches ∞ , so there is no upper bound M that can contain all function values.

3.9 Properties of Continuous Functions on Closed Intervals

Continuous functions defined on a closed and bounded interval $[a, b]$ exhibit special and powerful properties that are not guaranteed on open intervals.

Theorem 3.9.1 (The Boundedness Theorem). *If a function f is continuous on a closed interval $[a, b]$, then f is bounded on $[a, b]$.*

Proof. Assume, for contradiction, that f is not bounded on $[a, b]$. Let $S = \{x \in [a, b] \mid f \text{ is unbounded on } [a, x]\}$. Since f is continuous, it is locally bounded, so S is non-empty only if $b \in S$. Let $c = \sup S$. Since f is continuous at c , there exists $\delta > 0$ such that f is bounded on $(c - \delta, c + \delta) \cap [a, b]$. If $c \in S$, then f is unbounded on $[a, c]$. But f is bounded on $(c - \delta, c]$ (from continuity) and also bounded on $[a, c - \epsilon]$ for any $\epsilon > 0$ (by definition of supremum). This leads to a contradiction if $c \in S$. If $c \notin S$, then f is bounded on $[a, c]$. But by definition of supremum, for any $\epsilon > 0$, there exists $x' \in S$ with $c - \epsilon < x' \leq c$. This implies f is unbounded on $[a, x']$. This leads to a contradiction since f is bounded on $[a, c]$ and on $(c - \delta, c + \delta)$. Thus, our assumption must be false, and f is bounded on $[a, b]$. ■

2nd Proof. We prove by contradiction. Assume f is not bounded on $[a, b]$. This means for any natural number n , there exists a point $x_n \in [a, b]$ such that $|f(x_n)| > n$.

This creates a sequence $\{x_n\}$ in the closed and bounded interval $[a, b]$. By the Bolzano-Weierstrass theorem, this sequence must have a convergent subsequence, let's call it $\{x_{n_k}\}$, that converges to some point $c \in [a, b]$.

Since f is continuous at c , we must have $\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} f(x_{n_k}) = f(c)$. This implies the sequence $\{f(x_{n_k})\}$ is convergent and therefore must be bounded.

However, by our initial construction, $|f(x_{n_k})| > n_k$. As $k \rightarrow \infty$, $n_k \rightarrow \infty$, which means the sequence $\{f(x_{n_k})\}$ is unbounded.

This is a contradiction. Therefore, our initial assumption must be false, and f must be bounded on $[a, b]$. ■

3rd Proof (Not recommended at UG Level). For each $x \in [a, b]$, by continuity, there exists an open interval U_x containing x such that f is bounded on $U_x \cap [a, b]$. The collection $\{U_x\}_{x \in [a, b]}$ forms an open cover of $[a, b]$. Since $[a, b]$ is compact, there exists a finite subcover $\{U_{x_1}, \dots, U_{x_k}\}$. Since f is bounded on each $U_{x_i} \cap [a, b]$, and $[a, b]$ is covered by the finite union of these sets, f must be bounded on $[a, b]$. ■

Example 3.9.2. $f(x) = x^2$ is continuous on $[-2, 3]$. The theorem guarantees it is bounded. Indeed, its values range from $f(0) = 0$ to $f(3) = 9$, so it is bounded by $M = 9$.

Theorem 3.9.3 (The Extreme Value Theorem (EVT)). *If a function f is continuous on a closed interval $[a, b]$, then f attains both an absolute maximum value and an absolute minimum value on $[a, b]$. This means there exist numbers $c, d \in [a, b]$ such that $f(c) \leq f(x) \leq f(d)$ for all $x \in [a, b]$.*

Proof. We will prove the existence of the maximum; the proof for the minimum is analogous.

By the Boundedness Theorem, the set of values $S = \{f(x) : x \in [a, b]\}$ is bounded above. Therefore, by the completeness axiom of real numbers, S has a least upper bound (supremum). Let $M = \sup S$.

We must show that there exists a point $d \in [a, b]$ such that $f(d) = M$. By the definition of a supremum, for any natural number n , there exists an element $y_n \in S$ such that $M - \frac{1}{n} < y_n \leq M$. For each y_n , there is a corresponding $x_n \in [a, b]$ such that $f(x_n) = y_n$. This creates a sequence $\{x_n\}$ in $[a, b]$.

By the Bolzano-Weierstrass theorem, $\{x_n\}$ has a convergent subsequence $\{x_{n_k}\}$ that converges to some point $d \in [a, b]$.

Since f is continuous at d , we have $\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} f(x_{n_k}) = f(d)$. Also, from our construction, we have $M - \frac{1}{n_k} < f(x_{n_k}) \leq M$. As $k \rightarrow \infty$, $\frac{1}{n_k} \rightarrow 0$. By the Squeeze Theorem, $\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} f(x_{n_k}) = M$.

Equating the two limits, we get $f(d) = M$. Thus, the function attains its maximum value at d . ■

2nd Proof. By the previous theorem, f is bounded on $[a, b]$. Let $M = \sup_{x \in [a, b]} f(x)$. Assume, for contradiction, that $f(x) < M$ for all $x \in [a, b]$. Then $M - f(x) > 0$ for all $x \in [a, b]$. Consider the function $g(x) = \frac{1}{M - f(x)}$. Since f is continuous and $M - f(x) \neq 0$, $g(x)$ is continuous on $[a, b]$. By the previous theorem, $g(x)$ must be bounded on $[a, b]$. So there exists $K > 0$ such that $g(x) \leq K$. This implies $\frac{1}{M - f(x)} \leq K$, so $M - f(x) \geq \frac{1}{K}$. Therefore, $f(x) \leq M - \frac{1}{K}$ for all $x \in [a, b]$. But $M - \frac{1}{K} < M$, which contradicts M being the supremum of f . Hence, there must exist $c \in [a, b]$ such that $f(c) = M$. The proof for the minimum value is analogous by considering $-f(x)$. ■

Example 3.9.4. $f(x) = x^3 - 3x$ is continuous on $[0, 2]$. The theorem guarantees it attains its absolute max and min. By checking critical points and endpoints, we find the absolute minimum is $f(1) = -2$ and the absolute maximum is $f(2) = 2$.

3.10 The Intermediate Value Theorem (IVT)

This theorem formalizes the intuitive idea that a continuous function cannot "skip" values.

Theorem 3.10.1 (Intermediate Value Theorem). **Statement:** *If a function f is continuous on the closed interval $[a, b]$, and N is any number between $f(a)$ and $f(b)$ (where $f(a) \neq f(b)$), then there exists at least one number c in the open interval (a, b) such that $f(c) = N$.*

Proof. Assume without loss of generality that $f(a) < N < f(b)$. Consider the set $S = \{x \in [a, b] : f(x) \leq N\}$.

The set S is non-empty since $a \in S$. The set S is also bounded above by b . By the completeness axiom, S has a least upper bound (supremum). Let $c = \sup S$. Since $a \in S$ and b is an upper bound, we have $a \leq c \leq b$.

We will show that $f(c) = N$. By the definition of a supremum, for any natural number n , there exists $x_n \in S$ such that $c - \frac{1}{n} < x_n \leq c$. This implies that $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} x_n = c$. Since f is continuous, $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f(x_n) = f(c)$. As each $x_n \in S$, we have $f(x_n) \leq N$. Taking the limit, we get $f(c) \leq N$.

Now, since $f(b) > N$, $c \neq b$, so $c < b$. Consider the sequence $z_n = c + \frac{1}{n}$ for sufficiently large n so that $z_n < b$. None of these z_n can be in S because c is the supremum. Thus, $f(z_n) > N$ for all such n . As $n \rightarrow \infty$, $z_n \rightarrow c$. By continuity, $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} f(z_n) = f(c)$. From $f(z_n) > N$, we conclude $f(c) \geq N$.

Combining the two inequalities, $f(c) \leq N$ and $f(c) \geq N$, we must have $f(c) = N$. Since $f(a) < N$ and $f(b) > N$, we know c cannot be a or b , so $c \in (a, b)$. ■

Example 3.10.2. Show that the equation $x^3 + 2x - 1 = 0$ has a root in the interval $[0, 1]$.

Solution. Let $f(x) = x^3 + 2x - 1$. The function f is a polynomial, so it is continuous everywhere, including on $[0, 1]$. We evaluate the function at the endpoints:

- $f(0) = 0^3 + 2(0) - 1 = -1$.
- $f(1) = 1^3 + 2(1) - 1 = 2$.

Let $N = 0$. Since $f(0) < 0 < f(1)$, the IVT guarantees that there must be a number $c \in (0, 1)$ such that $f(c) = 0$. This c is a root of the equation. ■

3.11 Darboux's Theorem

Darboux's Theorem is like an Intermediate Value Theorem, but for derivatives. It states that the derivative of a differentiable function, even if the derivative itself is not continuous, must still satisfy the intermediate value property.

Theorem 3.11.1 (Darboux's Theorem). *Statement:* If a function f is differentiable on the closed interval $[a, b]$, and k is any number between $f'(a)$ and $f'(b)$, then there exists at least one number c in the open interval (a, b) such that $f'(c) = k$.

Theorem 3.11.2 (Darboux's Theorem). If a function f is differentiable on $[a, b]$, and k is any number between $f'(a)$ and $f'(b)$, then there exists $c \in (a, b)$ such that $f'(c) = k$.

Proof. Assume without loss of generality that $f'(a) < k < f'(b)$. Define a new function $g(x) = f(x) - kx$. This function is differentiable on $[a, b]$ because $f(x)$ and kx are.

The derivative of $g(x)$ is $g'(x) = f'(x) - k$. At the endpoints, we have:

- $g'(a) = f'(a) - k < 0$.
- $g'(b) = f'(b) - k > 0$.

Since $g(x)$ is differentiable on the closed interval $[a, b]$, it must also be continuous on $[a, b]$. By the Extreme Value Theorem, $g(x)$ must attain an absolute minimum value at some point $c \in [a, b]$.

Because $g'(a) < 0$, the function is decreasing at $x = a$, so the minimum cannot occur at a . Because $g'(b) > 0$, the function is increasing at $x = b$, so the minimum cannot occur at b .

Therefore, the minimum must occur at an interior point $c \in (a, b)$. At an interior minimum, the derivative must be zero. So, $g'(c) = 0$. By definition of $g'(x)$, this means:

$$f'(c) - k = 0 \implies f'(c) = k$$

Thus, we have found a point $c \in (a, b)$ where the derivative equals k . ■

Example 3.11.3. Consider the function $f(x) = x^2 \sin(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$ and $f(0) = 0$. Its derivative is $f'(x) = 2x \sin(1/x) - \cos(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$, and $f'(0) = 0$. The derivative $f'(x)$ is not continuous at $x = 0$. Let's apply Darboux's Theorem on $[0, 2/\pi]$.

Solution. The function f is differentiable on $[0, 2/\pi]$. We evaluate the derivative at the endpoints:

- $f'(0) = 0$.
- $f'(2/\pi) = 2(2/\pi) \sin(\pi/2) - \cos(\pi/2) = 4/\pi \approx 1.27$.

Let's choose an intermediate value $k = 1/2$. Since $0 < 1/2 < 4/\pi$, Darboux's Theorem guarantees that there exists a $c \in (0, 2/\pi)$ such that $f'(c) = 1/2$, even though $f'(x)$ oscillates wildly and is not continuous at the endpoint $x = 0$. ■

Exercise 3.11.4. Solve the following exercises:

1. Find the radius of curvature ρ for the folium of Descartes $x^3 + y^3 = 3axy$ at the point $(\frac{3a}{2}, \frac{3a}{2})$.
2. Show that for the astroid $x = a \cos^3 t$, $y = a \sin^3 t$, the radius of curvature at any parameter t is given by:

$$\rho = \frac{3a}{2} \sin 2t.$$

3. Find the radius of curvature ρ for the polar curve $r^n = a^n \cos n\theta$, and show that:

$$\rho = \frac{a^n}{(n+1)r^{n-1}}.$$

4. Show that for the intrinsic equation of a catenary $s = c \tan \psi$, the radius of curvature is $\rho = c \sec^2 \psi$.

5. Find all the asymptotes of the algebraic curve:

$$x^3 + 2x^2y - xy^2 - 2y^3 + 4x^2 - y^2 + 1 = 0.$$

6. Find all the asymptotes (parallel to axes and oblique) of the curve:

$$y^3 - x^2y + 2y^2 + 4x + 1 = 0.$$

7. Find the oblique asymptotes of the curve $x^3 - 3x^2y + 3xy^2 - y^3 + 2x^2 - 2xy + 1 = 0$, taking into account the presence of repeated real roots for m .

8. Determine the polar asymptotes of the curve $r \cos \theta = a \cos 2\theta$.

9. Determine the nature of the singular point at the origin for the curve $y^2 = x^2(x+1)$ (distinguish whether it is a node, cusp, or conjugate point).

10. Calculate the total perimeter (arc length) of the cardioid $r = a(1 + \cos \theta)$.

11. Find the length of the arc of the parabola $y^2 = 4ax$ cut off by its latus rectum ($x = a$).

12. Find the local maximum and local minimum values of the two-variable function:

$$f(x, y) = x^3 + y^3 - 3axy \quad (a > 0).$$

13. Using the Intermediate Value Theorem, prove that the polynomial equation $x^5 - 3x - 1 = 0$ has at least one real root in the open interval $(1, 2)$.

14. State Darboux's Theorem (Intermediate Value Property for Derivatives), and apply it to show that if $f(x) = x^2 \sin(1/x)$ for $x \neq 0$ and $f(0) = 0$, $f'(x)$ assumes every value between -1 and 1 on any neighborhood of $x = 0$.
15. State the Extreme Value Theorem, and verify that the continuous function $f(x) = \frac{x}{x^2 + 1}$ attains its absolute maximum and absolute minimum on the closed interval $[-2, 2]$.

Chapter 4

Mean Value Theorems and their Applications

Unit IV explores fundamental mean value theorems, infinite series representations, and the geometry of curve envelopes. It establishes Rolle's Theorem, Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem, and Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem alongside their geometrical interpretations and rigorous applications. Furthermore, it covers Taylor's and Maclaurin's series expansions with Lagrange and Cauchy forms of remainders for elementary functions, concluding with the theory of envelopes for one-parameter and two-parameter families of curves.

4.1 Rolle's Theorem

Theorem 4.1.1 (Rolle's Theorem). *Let a function f be:*

1. *continuous on the closed interval $[a, b]$,*
2. *differentiable on the open interval (a, b) , and*
3. *such that $f(a) = f(b)$.*

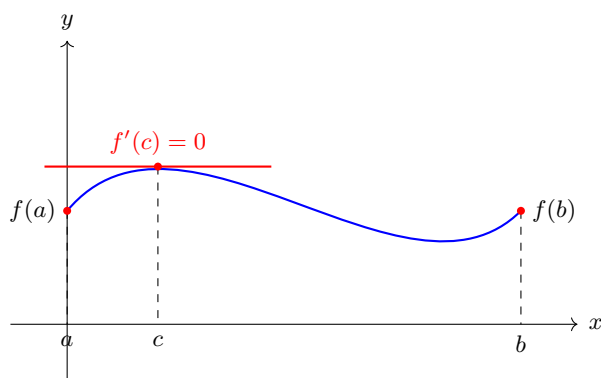
Then there exists at least one number c in the open interval (a, b) such that $f'(c) = 0$.

Proof. Since f is continuous on the closed interval $[a, b]$, by the Extreme Value Theorem, it must attain an absolute maximum and an absolute minimum on $[a, b]$.

Case 1: The maximum and minimum values are equal. This implies that $f(x)$ is a constant function on $[a, b]$. For a constant function, the derivative is zero everywhere, so $f'(c) = 0$ for any $c \in (a, b)$.

Case 2: The maximum and minimum values are different. Since $f(a) = f(b)$, at least one of the extreme values (the maximum or the minimum) must occur at an interior point $c \in (a, b)$. At an interior extremum of a differentiable function, the derivative must be zero. Therefore, $f'(c) = 0$. ■

Interpretation 4.1.2. Geometrically, Rolle's Theorem states that if a smooth curve starts and ends at the same height, there must be at least one point between them where the tangent line is horizontal.



Example 4.1.3. Verify Rolle's Theorem for the function $f(x) = x^2 - 4x + 3$ on the interval $[1, 3]$.

Solution. First, we check the three conditions of Rolle's Theorem.

1. **Continuity:** $f(x)$ is a polynomial, so it is continuous on $[1, 3]$.
2. **Differentiability:** $f'(x) = 2x - 4$, which exists for all $x \in (1, 3)$.
3. **Equal Endpoints:** $f(1) = 1^2 - 4(1) + 3 = 0$. And $f(3) = 3^2 - 4(3) + 3 = 9 - 12 + 3 = 0$. So, $f(1) = f(3)$.

All conditions are satisfied. The theorem guarantees a point $c \in (1, 3)$ where $f'(c) = 0$. To find c , we set the derivative to zero:

$$f'(c) = 2c - 4 = 0 \implies 2c = 4 \implies c = 2$$

Since $c = 2$ is in the open interval $(1, 3)$, Rolle's Theorem is verified. ■

Example 4.1.4. Verify Rolle's Theorem for the polynomial function $f(x) = x^3 - 6x^2 + 11x - 6$ on $[1, 3]$.

Solution. Since $f(x)$ is a polynomial function, it is continuous on $[1, 3]$ and differentiable on $(1, 3)$.

Evaluating $f(x)$ at the endpoints $a = 1$ and $b = 3$:

$$f(1) = 1^3 - 6(1)^2 + 11(1) - 6 = 0,$$

$$f(3) = 3^3 - 6(3)^2 + 11(3) - 6 = 27 - 54 + 33 - 6 = 0.$$

Since $f(1) = f(3) = 0$, all three conditions of Rolle's Theorem are satisfied.

To find $c \in (1, 3)$ such that $f'(c) = 0$, differentiate $f(x)$:

$$f'(x) = 3x^2 - 12x + 11.$$

Set $f'(c) = 0$:

$$3c^2 - 12c + 11 = 0.$$

Solving using the quadratic formula:

$$c = \frac{12 \pm \sqrt{144 - 132}}{6} = \frac{12 \pm \sqrt{12}}{6} = 2 \pm \frac{\sqrt{3}}{3} \approx 2 \pm 0.577.$$

This yields two values: $c_1 = 2 - \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}} \approx 1.423$ and $c_2 = 2 + \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}} \approx 2.577$. Both c_1 and c_2 lie within the open interval $(1, 3)$. Hence, Rolle's Theorem is verified. ■

Example 4.1.5. Verify Rolle's Theorem for $f(x) = e^x(\sin x - \cos x)$ on $\left[\frac{\pi}{4}, \frac{5\pi}{4}\right]$.

Solution. The function $f(x)$ is the product of exponential and trigonometric functions, which are continuous and differentiable everywhere. Thus, $f(x)$ is continuous on $\left[\frac{\pi}{4}, \frac{5\pi}{4}\right]$ and differentiable on $\left(\frac{\pi}{4}, \frac{5\pi}{4}\right)$.

Evaluating $f(x)$ at the endpoints:

$$f\left(\frac{\pi}{4}\right) = e^{\pi/4} \left(\sin \frac{\pi}{4} - \cos \frac{\pi}{4}\right) = e^{\pi/4} \left(\frac{\sqrt{2}}{2} - \frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}\right) = 0,$$

$$f\left(\frac{5\pi}{4}\right) = e^{5\pi/4} \left(\sin \frac{5\pi}{4} - \cos \frac{5\pi}{4}\right) = e^{5\pi/4} \left(-\frac{\sqrt{2}}{2} - \left(-\frac{\sqrt{2}}{2}\right)\right) = 0.$$

Since $f(\pi/4) = f(5\pi/4) = 0$, all hypotheses of Rolle's Theorem hold.

Differentiating $f(x)$ using the product rule:

$$f'(x) = e^x(\sin x - \cos x) + e^x(\cos x + \sin x) = 2e^x \sin x.$$

Setting $f'(c) = 0$:

$$2e^c \sin c = 0 \implies \sin c = 0 \quad (\text{since } e^c \neq 0).$$

Solving for c in $\left(\frac{\pi}{4}, \frac{5\pi}{4}\right)$ gives $c = \pi$. Since $\pi \in \left(\frac{\pi}{4}, \frac{5\pi}{4}\right)$, Rolle's Theorem is verified. ■

4.2 Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem (MVT)

This is a generalization of Rolle's Theorem.

Theorem 4.2.1 (Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem). *Let a function f be:*

1. *continuous on the closed interval $[a, b]$, and*
2. *differentiable on the open interval (a, b) .*

Then there exists at least one number c in the open interval (a, b) such that:

$$f'(c) = \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}$$

Proof. Define an auxiliary function $g(x) = f(x) - \left[\frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}\right]x$. This function $g(x)$ is continuous on $[a, b]$ and differentiable on (a, b) because $f(x)$ and the linear term are. Now, check the values of $g(x)$ at the endpoints:

$$g(a) = f(a) - \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}a$$

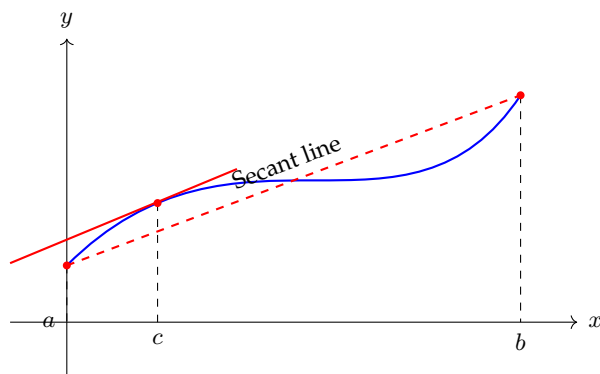
$$g(b) = f(b) - \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}b$$

$$g(b) - g(a) = (f(b) - f(a)) - \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}(b - a) = 0$$

So, $g(a) = g(b)$. The function $g(x)$ satisfies all conditions of Rolle's Theorem. Therefore, there exists a $c \in (a, b)$ such that $g'(c) = 0$. The derivative of $g(x)$ is $g'(x) = f'(x) - \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}$. At

$x = c$, we have $g'(c) = f'(c) - \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a} = 0$. This implies $f'(c) = \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{b - a}$. ■

Interpretation 4.2.2. Geometrically, the MVT states that for any smooth curve, there is at least one point where the instantaneous rate of change (slope of the tangent line) is equal to the average rate of change over the interval (slope of the secant line connecting the endpoints).



Example 4.2.3. Verify the Mean Value Theorem for the function $f(x) = \sqrt{x}$ on the interval $[1, 4]$.

Solution. First, we check the two conditions of the MVT.

1. **Continuity:** $f(x) = \sqrt{x}$ is continuous on $[1, 4]$.

2. **Differentiability:** $f'(x) = \frac{1}{2\sqrt{x}}$, which exists for all $x \in (1, 4)$.

All conditions are satisfied. The theorem guarantees a point $c \in (1, 4)$ such that $f'(c) = \frac{f(4) - f(1)}{4 - 1}$. First, calculate the slope of the secant line:

$$\frac{f(4) - f(1)}{4 - 1} = \frac{\sqrt{4} - \sqrt{1}}{3} = \frac{2 - 1}{3} = \frac{1}{3}$$

Now, we set the derivative equal to this value to find c :

$$f'(c) = \frac{1}{2\sqrt{c}} = \frac{1}{3} \implies 2\sqrt{c} = 3 \implies \sqrt{c} = \frac{3}{2} \implies c = \frac{9}{4}$$

Since $c = 9/4 = 2.25$ is in the open interval $(1, 4)$, the Mean Value Theorem is verified. ■

Example 4.2.4. Verify Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem for $f(x) = x^3 - x$ on $[0, 2]$.

Solution. As a polynomial function, $f(x)$ is continuous on $[0, 2]$ and differentiable on $(0, 2)$.

Evaluating $f(x)$ at $a = 0$ and $b = 2$:

$$f(0) = 0^3 - 0 = 0, \quad \text{and} \quad f(2) = 2^3 - 2 = 6.$$

The average rate of change on $[0, 2]$ is:

$$\frac{f(2) - f(0)}{2 - 0} = \frac{6 - 0}{2} = 3.$$

Differentiating $f(x)$ gives $f'(x) = 3x^2 - 1$. Setting $f'(c) = 3$:

$$3c^2 - 1 = 3 \implies 3c^2 = 4 \implies c = \pm \frac{2}{\sqrt{3}}.$$

Selecting the value lying within the open interval $(0, 2)$:

$$c = \frac{2}{\sqrt{3}} \approx 1.155 \in (0, 2).$$

Hence, Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem is verified. ■

Example 4.2.5. Verify Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem for $f(x) = \ln x$ on $[1, e]$.

Solution. The logarithmic function $f(x) = \ln x$ is continuous on $[1, e]$ and differentiable on $(1, e)$.

Evaluating $f(x)$ at $a = 1$ and $b = e$:

$$f(1) = \ln 1 = 0, \quad \text{and} \quad f(e) = \ln e = 1.$$

The average rate of change on $[1, e]$ is:

$$\frac{f(e) - f(1)}{e - 1} = \frac{1 - 0}{e - 1} = \frac{1}{e - 1}.$$

Differentiating $f(x)$ gives $f'(x) = \frac{1}{x}$. Setting $f'(c) = \frac{1}{e - 1}$:

$$\frac{1}{c} = \frac{1}{e - 1} \implies c = e - 1.$$

Since $e \approx 2.718$, we have $c = e - 1 \approx 1.718$, which lies strictly in the interval $(1, e)$. This verifies Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem. ■

4.3 Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem (CMVT)

This is a further generalization of the MVT and is crucial for proving L'Hôpital's Rule.

Theorem 4.3.1 (Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem). *Let two functions f and g be:*

1. *continuous on the closed interval $[a, b]$,*
2. *differentiable on the open interval (a, b) , and*
3. *such that $g'(x) \neq 0$ for all $x \in (a, b)$.*

Then there exists at least one number c in the open interval (a, b) such that:

$$\frac{f'(c)}{g'(c)} = \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{g(b) - g(a)}$$

Proof. Note that since $g'(x) \neq 0$ on (a, b) , by Rolle's Theorem, we must have $g(b) \neq g(a)$, so the denominator on the right is not zero. Define an auxiliary function $h(x) = f(x) - \left[\frac{f(b) - f(a)}{g(b) - g(a)} \right] g(x)$. This function $h(x)$ is continuous on $[a, b]$ and differentiable on (a, b) . Let's

check the values of $h(x)$ at the endpoints. Let $K = \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{g(b) - g(a)}$.

$$\begin{aligned} h(a) &= f(a) - K \cdot g(a) \\ h(b) &= f(b) - K \cdot g(b) \\ h(b) - h(a) &= (f(b) - f(a)) - K(g(b) - g(a)) \\ &= (f(b) - f(a)) - \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{g(b) - g(a)}(g(b) - g(a)) = 0 \end{aligned}$$

So, $h(a) = h(b)$. The function $h(x)$ satisfies all conditions of Rolle's Theorem. Therefore, there exists a $c \in (a, b)$ such that $h'(c) = 0$. The derivative of $h(x)$ is $h'(x) = f'(x) - K \cdot g'(x)$. At $x = c$, we have $h'(c) = f'(c) - K \cdot g'(c) = 0$. This implies $f'(c) = K \cdot g'(c)$, and since $g'(c) \neq 0$, we can write:

$$\frac{f'(c)}{g'(c)} = K = \frac{f(b) - f(a)}{g(b) - g(a)}$$

■

Interpretation 4.3.2. The CMVT relates the ratio of the derivatives of two functions at an interior point to the ratio of the changes in the functions over the whole interval. It can be seen as a parametric version of the MVT. If we consider a curve defined parametrically by $x = g(t)$ and $y = f(t)$, then $\frac{f'(c)}{g'(c)}$ is the slope of the tangent at $t = c$, while $\frac{f(b) - f(a)}{g(b) - g(a)}$ is the slope of the secant line connecting the endpoints of the parametric curve. The theorem guarantees these slopes are equal for some $t = c$.

Example 4.3.3. Verify Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem for the functions $f(x) = x^2$ and $g(x) = x^3$ on the interval $[1, 2]$.

Solution. First, we check the three conditions of the CMVT.

1. **Continuity:** $f(x)$ and $g(x)$ are polynomials, so they are continuous on $[1, 2]$.
2. **Differentiability:** $f'(x) = 2x$ and $g'(x) = 3x^2$ exist for all $x \in (1, 2)$.
3. **Non-zero derivative:** $g'(x) = 3x^2$ is not zero for any $x \in (1, 2)$.

All conditions are satisfied. The theorem guarantees a point $c \in (1, 2)$ such that $\frac{f'(c)}{g'(c)} = \frac{f(2) - f(1)}{g(2) - g(1)}$. First, calculate the ratio of the differences:

$$\frac{f(2) - f(1)}{g(2) - g(1)} = \frac{2^2 - 1^2}{2^3 - 1^3} = \frac{4 - 1}{8 - 1} = \frac{3}{7}$$

Next, find the ratio of the derivatives:

$$\frac{f'(c)}{g'(c)} = \frac{2c}{3c^2} = \frac{2}{3c}$$

Now, we set these two expressions equal to find c :

$$\frac{2}{3c} = \frac{3}{7} \implies 9c = 14 \implies c = \frac{14}{9}$$

Since $c = 14/9 \approx 1.556$ is in the open interval $(1, 2)$, Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem is verified. ■

Example 4.3.4. Verify Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem for $f(x) = x^2$ and $g(x) = x^3$ on $[1, 2]$.

Solution. Both $f(x) = x^2$ and $g(x) = x^3$ are polynomials, so they are continuous on $[1, 2]$ and differentiable on $(1, 2)$. Furthermore, $g'(x) = 3x^2 \neq 0$ for all $x \in (1, 2)$.

Evaluating the functions at the endpoints:

$$\begin{aligned} f(1) &= 1, & f(2) &= 4 \implies f(2) - f(1) = 3, \\ g(1) &= 1, & g(2) &= 8 \implies g(2) - g(1) = 7. \end{aligned}$$

The quotient of the increments is:

$$\frac{f(2) - f(1)}{g(2) - g(1)} = \frac{3}{7}.$$

Now compute the derivatives $f'(x) = 2x$ and $g'(x) = 3x^2$. Setting the ratio at $x = c$:

$$\frac{f'(c)}{g'(c)} = \frac{2c}{3c^2} = \frac{2}{3c}.$$

Equating the two expressions:

$$\frac{2}{3c} = \frac{3}{7} \implies 9c = 14 \implies c = \frac{14}{9} \approx 1.556.$$

Since $c = \frac{14}{9} \in (1, 2)$, Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem is verified. ■

Example 4.3.5. Verify Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem for $f(x) = \sin x$ and $g(x) = \cos x$ on $\left[0, \frac{\pi}{2}\right]$.

Solution. The trigonometric functions $f(x) = \sin x$ and $g(x) = \cos x$ are continuous on $\left[0, \frac{\pi}{2}\right]$ and differentiable on $\left(0, \frac{\pi}{2}\right)$. Also, $g'(x) = -\sin x \neq 0$ for all $x \in \left(0, \frac{\pi}{2}\right)$.

Evaluating the functions at $a = 0$ and $b = \frac{\pi}{2}$:

$$\begin{aligned} f(0) &= 0, & f\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) &= 1 \implies f\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) - f(0) = 1, \\ g(0) &= 1, & g\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) &= 0 \implies g\left(\frac{\pi}{2}\right) - g(0) = -1. \end{aligned}$$

The quotient of the increments is:

$$\frac{f(\pi/2) - f(0)}{g(\pi/2) - g(0)} = \frac{1}{-1} = -1.$$

Compute the derivatives $f'(x) = \cos x$ and $g'(x) = -\sin x$. Setting the ratio at $x = c$:

$$\frac{f'(c)}{g'(c)} = \frac{\cos c}{-\sin c} = -\cot c.$$

Equating the two expressions:

$$-\cot c = -1 \implies \cot c = 1 \implies c = \frac{\pi}{4}.$$

Since $c = \frac{\pi}{4} \in \left(0, \frac{\pi}{2}\right)$, Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem is verified. ■

4.4 Introduction to Taylor's Theorem

Taylor's theorem is a powerful result that allows us to approximate a sufficiently differentiable function by a polynomial, called the **Taylor polynomial**. The theorem also provides a precise formula for the error, or **remainder**, in this approximation.

Let f be a function such that its first n derivatives exist in a neighborhood of a point a . The Taylor polynomial of degree n for f at a is:

$$P_n(x) = f(a) + f'(a)(x-a) + \frac{f''(a)}{2!}(x-a)^2 + \cdots + \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n$$

Taylor's Theorem states that $f(x) = P_n(x) + R_n(x)$, where $R_n(x)$ is the remainder term. The specific form of $R_n(x)$ depends on which version of the theorem is used.

4.4.1 Taylor's Theorem with Lagrange's Form of Remainder

This is the most common form of the remainder and is a direct generalization of the Mean Value Theorem.

Theorem 4.4.1 (Taylor's Theorem with Lagrange's Remainder). *Let f be a function such that its first n derivatives are continuous on a closed interval $[a, x]$ and its $(n+1)$ -th derivative, $f^{(n+1)}$, exists on the open interval (a, x) . Then there exists at least one number $c \in (a, x)$ such that:*

$$f(x) = P_n(x) + R_n(x)$$

where the remainder $R_n(x)$ is given by:

$$R_n(x) = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{(n+1)!}(x-a)^{n+1}$$

Proof. Define an auxiliary function $F(t) = f(x) - f(t) - f'(t)(x-t) - \frac{f''(t)}{2!}(x-t)^2 - \dots - \frac{f^{(n)}(t)}{n!}(x-t)^n$. The derivative of $F(t)$ with respect to t is:

$$F'(t) = -\frac{f^{(n+1)}(t)}{n!}(x-t)^n$$

This is found by applying the product rule to each term, which results in a telescoping cancellation.

Now define another function $G(t) = F(t) - \left(\frac{x-t}{x-a}\right)^{n+1} F(a)$. This function is continuous on $[a, x]$ and differentiable on (a, x) . We check the values at the endpoints:

- $G(x) = F(x) - \left(\frac{x-x}{x-a}\right)^{n+1} F(a) = 0 - 0 = 0$. (Note that $F(x) = 0$ by definition).
- $G(a) = F(a) - \left(\frac{x-a}{x-a}\right)^{n+1} F(a) = F(a) - F(a) = 0$.

Since $G(a) = G(x) = 0$, by Rolle's Theorem, there exists a $c \in (a, x)$ such that $G'(c) = 0$. Differentiating $G(t)$:

$$G'(t) = F'(t) + (n+1)\frac{(x-t)^n}{(x-a)^{n+1}}F(a)$$

At $t = c$, we have $G'(c) = 0$, so $F'(c) = -(n+1)\frac{(x-c)^n}{(x-a)^{n+1}}F(a)$. Substituting the expression for $F'(c)$:

$$-\frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{n!}(x-c)^n = -(n+1)\frac{(x-c)^n}{(x-a)^{n+1}}F(a)$$

Solving for $F(a)$ (and noting $x \neq c$):

$$F(a) = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{n!} \frac{(x-a)^{n+1}}{n+1} = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{(n+1)!}(x-a)^{n+1}$$

By definition, $F(a)$ is the remainder $R_n(x) = f(x) - P_n(x)$. This completes the proof. ■

Example 4.4.2. Use the second-degree Taylor polynomial for $f(x) = \ln(1+x)$ centered at $a = 0$ to approximate $\ln(1.1)$. Then use Lagrange's remainder to find an upper bound for the error in this approximation.

Solution. The derivatives of $f(x) = \ln(1+x)$ at $a = 0$ are $f(0) = 0$, $f'(0) = 1$, and $f''(0) = -1$. The second-degree Taylor polynomial is therefore $P_2(x) = x - \frac{x^2}{2}$. To approximate $\ln(1.1)$, we set $x = 0.1$:

$$\ln(1.1) \approx P_2(0.1) = 0.1 - \frac{(0.1)^2}{2} = 0.095$$

The error in this approximation is given by the Lagrange remainder term $R_2(x) = \frac{f'''(c)}{3!}x^3$ for some c between 0 and x . The third derivative is $f'''(x) = \frac{2}{(1+x)^3}$. For $x = 0.1$, the error is:

$$R_2(0.1) = \frac{1}{3!} \cdot \frac{2}{(1+c)^3} \cdot (0.1)^3 = \frac{0.001}{3(1+c)^3} \quad \text{for some } c \in (0, 0.1)$$

To find an upper bound for the magnitude of this error, we must maximize the expression. This occurs when the denominator is minimized, which is when $c = 0$.

$$|R_2(0.1)| \leq \frac{0.001}{3(1+0)^3} = \frac{0.001}{3} \approx 0.000333$$

The error in our approximation is less than 0.000334. ■

4.4.2 Taylor's Theorem with Cauchy's Form of Remainder

This form of the remainder is often used in theoretical contexts, such as proving the convergence of Taylor series.

Theorem 4.4.3 (Taylor's Theorem with Cauchy's Remainder). *Let f be a function satisfying the same conditions as for Lagrange's form. Then there exists at least one number $c \in (a, x)$ such that the remainder $R_n(x)$ is given by:*

$$R_n(x) = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{n!}(x-c)^n(x-a)$$

Proof. We use the same auxiliary function $F(t)$ as in the previous proof, where $F'(t) = -\frac{f^{(n+1)}(t)}{n!}(x-t)^n$. Now, consider the simple function $\phi(t) = x-t$. Applying Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem to the functions $F(t)$ and $\phi(t)$ on the interval $[a, x]$, there exists a $c \in (a, x)$ such that:

$$\frac{F(x) - F(a)}{\phi(x) - \phi(a)} = \frac{F'(c)}{\phi'(c)}$$

We evaluate each piece:

- $F(x) = 0$
- $\phi(x) = x - x = 0$
- $\phi(a) = x - a$
- $\phi'(t) = -1$, so $\phi'(c) = -1$

Substituting these into the CMVT equation:

$$\frac{0 - F(a)}{0 - (x - a)} = \frac{F'(c)}{-1} \implies \frac{-F(a)}{-(x - a)} = -F'(c)$$

$$\frac{F(a)}{x-a} = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{n!}(x-c)^n$$

Solving for $F(a)$, which is the remainder $R_n(x)$:

$$R_n(x) = F(a) = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{n!}(x-c)^n(x-a)$$

This completes the proof. ■

Example 4.4.4. Consider the same approximation as before: $f(x) = \ln(1+x)$ approximated by $P_2(x) = x - x^2/2$ at $x = 0.1$. Use Cauchy's remainder to find an upper bound for the error.

Solution. The remainder $R_n(x)$ in Cauchy's form is $R_n(x) = \frac{f^{(n+1)}(c)}{n!}(x-c)^n(x-a)$. For our problem, $n = 2$, $a = 0$, $x = 0.1$, and $f'''(x) = \frac{2}{(1+x)^3}$. The error is:

$$R_2(0.1) = \frac{f'''(c)}{2!}(0.1-c)^2(0.1-0) = \frac{2/(1+c)^3}{2}(0.1-c)^2(0.1)$$

$$R_2(0.1) = \frac{(0.1-c)^2}{(1+c)^3}(0.1) \quad \text{for some } c \in (0, 0.1)$$

To bound this error, we can find an upper bound for the fractional term $g(c) = \frac{(0.1-c)^2}{(1+c)^3}$ on the interval $c \in (0, 0.1)$. The numerator $(0.1-c)^2$ is maximized when c is at its minimum ($c = 0$), and the denominator $(1+c)^3$ is also minimized at $c = 0$. Therefore, the entire fraction is bounded by its value at $c = 0$:

$$\frac{(0.1-c)^2}{(1+c)^3} \leq \frac{(0.1-0)^2}{(1+0)^3} = 0.01$$

The error is thus bounded by:

$$|R_2(0.1)| \leq (0.01) \cdot (0.1) = 0.001$$

This bound is correct, though less tight than the one found using Lagrange's form. ■

Taylor's Series and Maclaurin's Series

Definition 4.4.5 (Taylor's Series). If a function $f(x)$ has derivatives of all orders at a point $x = a$, then the **Taylor series** for $f(x)$ centered at a is the power series given by:

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x-a)^n = f(a) + f'(a)(x-a) + \frac{f''(a)}{2!}(x-a)^2 + \frac{f'''(a)}{3!}(x-a)^3 + \dots$$

Definition 4.4.6 (Maclaurin's Series). A **Maclaurin series** is a special case of a Taylor series centered at the point $a = 0$.

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(0)}{n!}x^n = f(0) + f'(0)x + \frac{f''(0)}{2!}x^2 + \frac{f'''(0)}{3!}x^3 + \dots$$

This is the most common type of Taylor series used for elementary functions.

4.4.3 Standard Maclaurin Series Expansions

Below are the standard Maclaurin series for several fundamental functions, along with their intervals of convergence.

Exponential Function: e^x

For $f(x) = e^x$, we have $f^{(n)}(x) = e^x$ for all n . At $x = 0$, $f^{(n)}(0) = e^0 = 1$.

$$e^x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{x^n}{n!} = 1 + x + \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} + \dots$$

Sine Function: $\sin x$

For $f(x) = \sin x$, the derivatives at $x = 0$ follow a pattern: $0, 1, 0, -1, \dots$. This results in a series with only odd powers of x .

$$\sin x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n}{(2n+1)!} x^{2n+1} = x - \frac{x^3}{3!} + \frac{x^5}{5!} - \frac{x^7}{7!} + \dots$$

Cosine Function: $\cos x$

For $f(x) = \cos x$, the derivatives at $x = 0$ follow a pattern: $1, 0, -1, 0, \dots$. This results in a series with only even powers of x .

$$\cos x = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n}{(2n)!} x^{2n} = 1 - \frac{x^2}{2!} + \frac{x^4}{4!} - \frac{x^6}{6!} + \dots$$

Logarithmic Function: $\log(1+x)$

The Maclaurin series for $\log x$ itself does not exist because $\log(0)$ is undefined. We find the series for $f(x) = \log(1+x)$ instead. The derivatives at $x = 0$ are $f(0) = 0$, $f'(0) = 1$, $f''(0) = -1$, $f'''(0) = 2$, etc.

$$\log(1+x) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^{n-1}}{n} x^n = x - \frac{x^2}{2} + \frac{x^3}{3} - \frac{x^4}{4} + \dots$$

Binomial Series: $(1+x)^m$

For $f(x) = (1+x)^m$, where m is any real number, the derivatives are $f^{(n)}(x) = m(m-1)\dots(m-n+1)(1+x)^{m-n}$. At $x = 0$, this gives $f^{(n)}(0) = m(m-1)\dots(m-n+1)$. This leads to the generalized binomial coefficient $\binom{m}{n} = \frac{m(m-1)\dots(m-n+1)}{n!}$.

$$(1+x)^m = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \binom{m}{n} x^n = 1 + mx + \frac{m(m-1)}{2!} x^2 + \frac{m(m-1)(m-2)}{3!} x^3 + \dots$$

Interval of Convergence: $(-1, 1)$. The convergence at the endpoints $x = \pm 1$ depends on the value of m . If m is a non-negative integer, the series is finite (a polynomial) and converges everywhere.

4.5 Envelope of a One-Parameter Family of Curves

Definition 4.5.1 (Envelope). An **envelope** of a one-parameter family of curves is a curve that is tangent to each member of the family at some point. The family of curves is represented by an equation of the form $F(x, y, \alpha) = 0$, where α is the parameter.

4.5.1 Method for Finding the Envelope

To find the envelope, we treat the parameter α as a variable and solve the system of equations formed by the family and its partial derivative with respect to the parameter.

1. The family of curves: $F(x, y, \alpha) = 0$.
2. The partial derivative: $\frac{\partial F}{\partial \alpha}(x, y, \alpha) = 0$.

The equation of the envelope is found by eliminating the parameter α from these two equations.

Example 4.5.2. Find the envelope of the family of straight lines $y = mx + \frac{a}{m}$, where m is the parameter.

Solution. First, represent the family of lines in the form $F(x, y, m) = 0$:

$$F(x, y, m) \equiv y - mx - \frac{a}{m} = 0$$

Next, differentiate partially with respect to the parameter m :

$$\frac{\partial F}{\partial m} = -x - a \left(-\frac{1}{m^2} \right) = -x + \frac{a}{m^2} = 0$$

From the partial derivative equation, we solve for m :

$$-x + \frac{a}{m^2} = 0 \implies m^2 = \frac{a}{x} \implies m = \pm \sqrt{\frac{a}{x}}$$

Now, we eliminate m by substituting it back into the original family equation. It is easier to substitute for m and $1/m$: From $y = mx + a/m$, we can write $y = m(x + a/m^2)$. From the derivative, we know $x = a/m^2$, so:

$$y = m(x + x) = 2mx$$

Now we solve for m to get $m = y/(2x)$. Substitute this into the relation $m^2 = a/x$:

$$\left(\frac{y}{2x} \right)^2 = \frac{a}{x} \implies \frac{y^2}{4x^2} = \frac{a}{x}$$

Multiplying by $4x^2$ (assuming $x \neq 0$) gives the envelope equation:

$$y^2 = 4ax$$

The envelope is a parabola. ■

4.6 Envelope of a Two-Parameter Family of Curves

Definition 4.6.1. A two-parameter family of curves is given by an equation of the form $F(x, y, \alpha, \beta) = 0$. For an envelope to exist, the two parameters must be related by a constraint equation, $g(\alpha, \beta) = 0$.

4.6.1 Method for Finding the Envelope

The envelope is found by eliminating the parameters α and β from a system of three equations. This method is related to Lagrange multipliers.

1. The family of curves: $F(x, y, \alpha, \beta) = 0$.
2. The constraint equation: $g(\alpha, \beta) = 0$.
3. The condition of proportionality of partial derivatives:

$$\frac{\partial F / \partial \alpha}{\partial g / \partial \alpha} = \frac{\partial F / \partial \beta}{\partial g / \partial \beta}$$

Example 4.6.2. Find the envelope of the family of lines $\frac{x}{\alpha} + \frac{y}{\beta} = 1$, where the parameters α and β are related by the constraint $\alpha + \beta = c$, for a constant c .

Solution. The family of curves and the constraint are:

$$F(x, y, \alpha, \beta) \equiv \frac{x}{\alpha} + \frac{y}{\beta} - 1 = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad g(\alpha, \beta) \equiv \alpha + \beta - c = 0$$

We find the four necessary partial derivatives:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial F}{\partial \alpha} &= -\frac{x}{\alpha^2} & \frac{\partial F}{\partial \beta} &= -\frac{y}{\beta^2} \\ \frac{\partial g}{\partial \alpha} &= 1 & \frac{\partial g}{\partial \beta} &= 1 \end{aligned}$$

Now, set up the proportionality equation:

$$\frac{-x/\alpha^2}{1} = \frac{-y/\beta^2}{1} \implies \frac{x}{\alpha^2} = \frac{y}{\beta^2}$$

This implies $\frac{\sqrt{x}}{\alpha} = \frac{\sqrt{y}}{\beta}$. Let this common ratio be k .

$$\frac{\sqrt{x}}{\alpha} = k \implies \alpha = \frac{\sqrt{x}}{k} \quad \text{and} \quad \frac{\sqrt{y}}{\beta} = k \implies \beta = \frac{\sqrt{y}}{k}$$

Substitute these expressions for α and β into the constraint $\alpha + \beta = c$:

$$\frac{\sqrt{x}}{k} + \frac{\sqrt{y}}{k} = c \implies \frac{\sqrt{x} + \sqrt{y}}{k} = c \implies k = \frac{\sqrt{x} + \sqrt{y}}{c}$$

Finally, substitute α and β into the original family equation $\frac{x}{\alpha} + \frac{y}{\beta} = 1$:

$$x \left(\frac{k}{\sqrt{x}} \right) + y \left(\frac{k}{\sqrt{y}} \right) = 1 \implies k\sqrt{x} + k\sqrt{y} = 1 \implies k(\sqrt{x} + \sqrt{y}) = 1$$

Now substitute the expression for k we found:

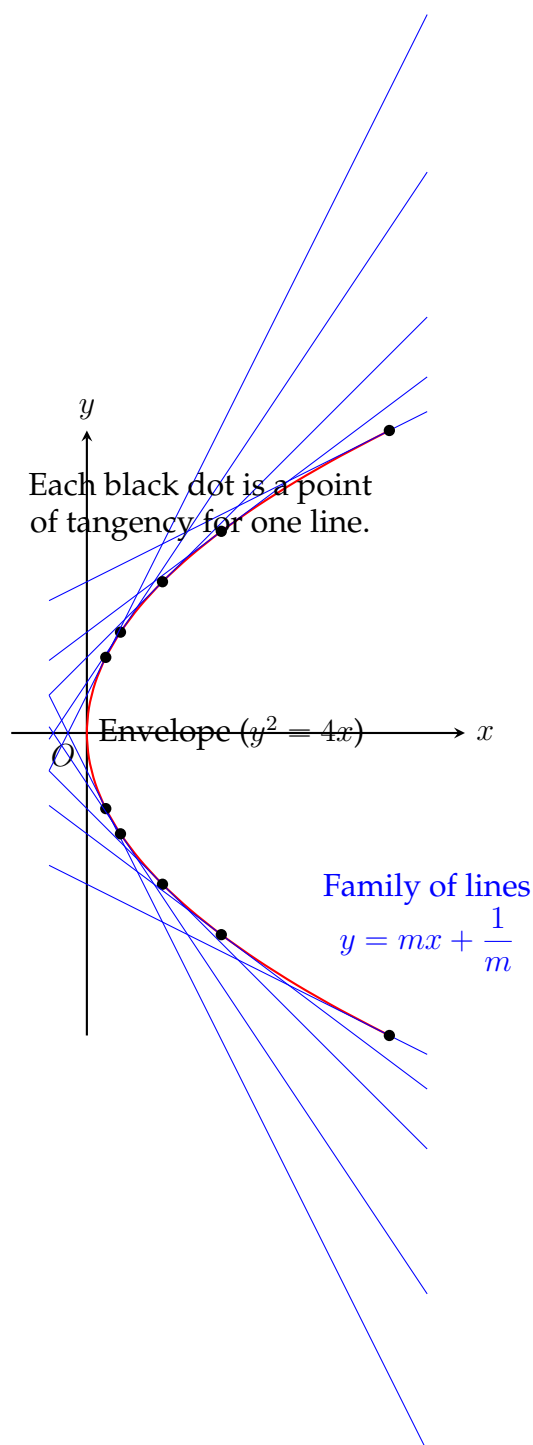
$$\left(\frac{\sqrt{x} + \sqrt{y}}{c} \right) (\sqrt{x} + \sqrt{y}) = 1 \implies (\sqrt{x} + \sqrt{y})^2 = c$$

The equation of the envelope is $\sqrt{x} + \sqrt{y} = \sqrt{c}$. This is also a parabola. ■

Visualizing an Envelope

The concept of an envelope can be understood visually. Consider a family of curves, such as the set of straight lines given by the equation $y = mx + \frac{1}{m}$. Each value of the parameter m defines a different line. The **envelope** is a new curve that is tangent to every one of these lines at some point.

In the figure below, several lines from the family are drawn in blue. As you can see, they collectively outline a distinct shape. This shape, shown as a thick red curve, is the envelope. The envelope itself is not part of the original family, but it is "carved out" by the family of lines. For this specific family of lines, the envelope is the parabola $y^2 = 4x$.



Exercise 4.6.3. Solve the following exercises:

1. Verify Rolle's Theorem for the function $f(x) = (x - a)^m(x - b)^n$ on $[a, b]$, where $m, n \in \mathbb{N}$.
2. Using Rolle's Theorem, prove that between any two real roots of $e^x \cos x = 1$, there lies at least one real root of $e^x \sin x = 1$.
3. Verify Rolle's Theorem for $f(x) = e^{-x} \sin x$ on $[0, \pi]$.
4. Prove using Rolle's Theorem that the polynomial equation $x^3 - 3x + k = 0$ cannot have two distinct real roots in the closed interval $[0, 1]$ for any real constant k .
5. Verify Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem for $f(x) = \sqrt{x^2 - 4}$ on $[2, 4]$.
6. Using Lagrange's Mean Value Theorem, establish the inequality:

$$\frac{x}{1+x} < \ln(1+x) < x \quad \forall x > 0.$$

7. Verify Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem for $f(x) = e^x$ and $g(x) = e^{-x}$ on $[a, b]$.
8. Verify Cauchy's Mean Value Theorem for $f(x) = \frac{1}{x^2}$ and $g(x) = \frac{1}{x}$ on $[a, b]$, where $0 < a < b$.
9. Expand $f(x) = e^x$ in powers of $(x - 1)$ up to the term containing $(x - 1)^4$ using Taylor's series.
10. Derive Maclaurin's series expansion for $f(x) = \ln(1 + x)$ and determine its interval of convergence.
11. Expand $f(x) = \sin x$ in powers of $\left(x - \frac{\pi}{2}\right)$ using Taylor's series.
12. State Taylor's theorem with Lagrange's form of remainder, and write the n -term Maclaurin expansion of $f(x) = (1 + x)^m$.
13. Using the Maclaurin series for $f(x) = \cos x$, estimate $\cos(0.1)$ correct to four decimal places.
14. Obtain Maclaurin's series expansion for $f(x) = \tan^{-1} x$ up to the term involving x^5 .
15. Find the envelope of the one-parameter family of straight lines $y = mx + \frac{a}{m}$, where m is the parameter ($m \neq 0$).
16. Find the envelope of the one-parameter family of circles $(x - a)^2 + y^2 = 4a$, where a is the parameter.
17. Find the envelope of the family of straight lines $x \cos \alpha + y \sin \alpha = p$, where α is the parameter and p is a constant.
18. Find the envelope of the two-parameter family of ellipses $\frac{x^2}{a^2} + \frac{y^2}{b^2} = 1$ under the linear parameter constraint $a + b = c$, where c is a constant.
19. Find the envelope of the two-parameter family of straight lines $\frac{x}{a} + \frac{y}{b} = 1$ subject to the constant area constraint $ab = k^2$.

A Concluding Note to Students

“Galileo once wrote that the book of Nature is written in the language of mathematics. If that is true, then Calculus is the dynamic grammar of that language—it is the art of capturing motion, growth, curvature, and change in a single, harmonious framework.”

DEAR STUDENTS,

Congratulations on completing Calculus – I!

Take a moment to reflect on how far we have come. We began by stepping into the rigorous world of ϵ - δ definitions, mastering the delicate boundary between continuity and differentiability. From there, we learned to untangle indeterminate forms, navigate the graceful geometry of polar curves, calculate the intrinsic curvature of space, and harness Taylor and Maclaurin series expansions.

What we have acquired in this course is far more than a collection of computational formulas. We have developed a **mathematical mindset**—a way of seeing the world through continuous change, breaking complex problems down into infinitesimals, and reconstructing them into profound truths.

Calculus is the dynamic language powering modern physics, artificial intelligence, quantum computing, aerospace engineering, and finance. As we step forward into advanced mathematics and applied sciences, the foundational tools we forged here will serve as our permanent compass.

Keep your curiosity alive! Never fear a difficult problem—every mathematical challenge you encounter is simply a hidden beauty waiting to be unveiled.

Einstein once said, “I am thankful for all of those who said NO to me. It’s because of them I’m doing it myself.”

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